

Ibrahim Pasha's Campaign against Diriyah and Its Fall

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PREFACE

Praise be to God, Lord of the Worlds, and prayers and peace be upon the Chosen and Trustworthy One, our Prophet Muhammad, his family and companions, and those who follow his guidance until the Day of Judgment.

Among God's blessings upon this blessed land is that He enabled the establishment of the First Saudi State upon its pure soil, which contains the Two Holy Mosques, the destination of Muslims' hearts and the direction of their prayer. This righteous state brought successive civilizational changes to the Arabian Peninsula. Through its distinguished rulers, God enabled His sacred law to be applied, removed accumulated superstitions and deviations of belief, illuminated the darkness of ignorance, closed pages of the suffering caused by division, and opened the doors of goodness and windows of enlightenment toward a promising future and flourishing advancement.

Whoever reflects upon the history of this blessed state becomes convinced of the urgent need for its establishment and clearly perceives the bright results achieved in reality as a consequence of its rise. Hearts rallied around it because of their belief in the nobility of its purpose and the clarity of its objectives, connected with spreading Islamic law, establishing religious unity, purifying the land of every stain and falsehood, enabling its people to pursue development, draw from pure sources of knowledge, and contribute to the advancement of humanity through elevated human principles.

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PREFACE

Despite this, it did not escape the hatred of its enemies and the domination of tyrants who lay in wait for it and attempted to distort its bright image with fabricated lies and baseless claims. When they failed, they sought to overthrow it by force of arms, and Diriyah, the capital of the First Saudi State, fell. Yet God enabled it to rise again quickly, resume its mission, and fulfill its obligations.

This book sets out the political, economic, religious, and military motives behind the dispatch of Ibrahim Pasha's expedition to overthrow this state; explains the stages of the expedition until its arrival at Diriyah; and describes the efforts made to fortify Diriyah and defend it against the campaign.

It then gives a detailed account of the battles fought in Diriyah, which ended with its fall; indicates the positions of world and regional powers toward that fall; and explains the factors that led to it and its political, economic, and social consequences.

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CONTENTS

Introduction; Preliminary study; Diriyah and its importance in the First Saudi State; The foundation of Diriyah; The establishment of the First Saudi State in Diriyah; The relationship between the First Saudi State and the Ottoman Empire; Chapter One: Ibrahim Pasha's Campaign on Its Way to Diriyah; reasons for dispatching the expedition; political, economic, religious and military motives; preparations for the expedition; composition of Ibrahim Pasha's army.

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CONTENTS

The geographical location of Diriyah and its effect on the military confrontation; progress of the campaign through Yanbu, Medina, al-Suwaydira, al-Hanakiyya and Qassim; the siege and fall of al-

Rass; the fall of al-Khubara, Unaizah and Buraydah; the Egyptian campaign in al-Washm; the siege of Shaqra; the fall of Darma.

Chapter Two: The Fortifications of Diriyah; the urban extent of Diriyah and its effect on the siege; initial defensive measures; the armament of Diriyah; supplying Diriyah; the defending forces; the role of the Al Saud princes; and the role of the scholars of the Salafi movement.

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CONTENTS

The defensive installations in Diriyah; final preparations for the siege.

Chapter Three: The Battles of Diriyah and Its Fall; arrival of Ibrahim Pasha's expedition; the siege; establishment of military works; distribution of forces; the battles of Diriyah in four phases; the fall of Diriyah and peace agreements; conditions of the inhabitants during the siege; the role of the Ottoman governors of Baghdad, Syria and the Hijaz; and the position of settled and nomadic Najd toward the siege.

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CONTENTS

The position of world powers toward the siege and fall of Diriyah; factors in the fall of Diriyah and collapse of the First Saudi State; results of the fall; conclusion; appendix of maps and photographs; sources and references.

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INTRODUCTION

Importance of the subject and reasons for choosing it

The establishment of the First Saudi State in Diriyah in 1161 AH (1744 CE), through the alliance of Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab and Imam Muhammad ibn Saud, heralded the emergence of a new power and important political changes in the Arabian Peninsula. This power succeeded in unifying Najd under unified leadership, something the region had not experienced since the middle of the fifth century AH. The nascent state incorporated most of the Arabian Peninsula, drawing the attention of the Ottoman Empire, which had lost the Two Holy Mosques and therefore decided to work to eliminate it.

Diriyah was the political center of gravity of the First Saudi State and the political center that sheltered, defended and spread the Salafi movement, giving it great importance among its followers.

* This book originated as an academic thesis submitted in fulfillment of the requirements for a master's degree to the Department of History, Faculty of Arts, King Saud University, in 1427 AH (2006 CE).

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INTRODUCTION

Diriyah contained a large population and flourished politically and economically, becoming one of the most important places in the Arabian Peninsula in that period.

Because Diriyah was the capital of the First Saudi State, it became an important target for the Ottoman Empire, represented by its governor in Egypt, Muhammad Ali Pasha, to eliminate the Salafi movement and the Saudi state founded upon it. After several Ottoman expeditions from Iraq and Egypt failed to attack it, an enormous expedition under Ibrahim Pasha was prepared, which finally brought about Diriyah's fall after a siege lasting approximately six months.

The siege and fall of Diriyah are among the prominent historical events of the first half of the thirteenth century AH and nineteenth century CE. The siege enabled the Ottoman Empire to achieve its objective of eliminating the First Saudi State and was the culmination of a series of campaigns. The imbalance in military power between the two sides had a major effect on the outcome, resulting in the fall of Diriyah and the complete collapse of the First Saudi State.

Previous researchers have treated this event within broader histories of the First Saudi State, but without covering all aspects: preparation of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign and the besieging forces; Saudi preparations; the siege and resistance; and the factors that led the defenders, headed by Imam Abdullah ibn Saud, to surrender.

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The importance of this subject is increased by the availability of numerous documents, including correspondence and reports from various figures directly connected with the event, containing important details that have not been used in proportion to their importance. This makes a comprehensive and detailed study necessary.

The book aims to clarify Diriyah's importance as the capital of the First Saudi State; the Ottoman position and its motives; the details and progress of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign and siege; local resistance through fortifications and other defensive arrangements; the positions of various powers; the fall of Diriyah and its causes; and a comparison of the military balance in manpower, weapons, supplies and strategic circumstances.

PREVIOUS STUDIES

Despite the importance of the event, it had not received comprehensive independent studies. Most accounts appeared within general histories of the Saudi state. Abd al-Rahim Abd al-Rahman Abd al-Rahim's published master's thesis, *The First Saudi State, 1198–1233 AH / 1784–1818 CE*, dealt with the state from its establishment to its fall and included a chapter on Ibrahim Pasha's campaign, siege, fall, causes and consequences, but only briefly.

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PREVIOUS STUDIES

The researcher did not rely heavily on the documents relating to the subject, despite their abundance, using no more than four.

Muhammad al-Salman's *The Heroic Events of the Battle of Diriyah* deals specifically with the battles during the siege, but requires greater verification of the accuracy and treatment of its information; much important material could also be added.

Abd al-Hamid al-Batriq's *Ibrahim Pasha in the Arab Lands* gives a historical narrative of the campaign and siege but does not detail the mechanics of the siege and fall, making it very brief.

Ahmad Mursi Abbas's *Saudi Military Affairs in Confrontation with the Ottoman Empire* has a separate section on the siege and fall, but lacks adequate documentation; its information is largely a literal translation of Mangin, supplemented by some accounts from Ibn Bishr.

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MAIN SOURCES OF THE STUDY

Ottoman Documents

The Ottoman documents concerning this subject are the most important sources on which this study relies, because of their abundance and importance as original and primary sources, and because many had not previously been used adequately. They contain much previously unknown information and are characterized by their novelty.

Local Historical Sources

Foremost is Uthman ibn Bishr's *Unwan al-Majd fi Tarikh Najd*, a principal source. Ibn Bishr was contemporary with the events and is almost the only local source to give detailed coverage of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign and siege of Diriyah.

Although he was not an eyewitness, he was contemporary with the events and transmitted reports from people who participated in the siege. He explained that Ibrahim Pasha's army besieged Diriyah for six months, during which there were many engagements that could not fully be known or recorded. He questioned men who had witnessed them, but no two gave exactly the same account. He explained this by noting that each man from Diriyah remained in his own defensive position with his companions while the Ottoman troops stayed opposite them; people in one sector did not know what was happening in another, and a man could not leave his position because the sides were closely engaged.

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MAIN SOURCES OF THE STUDY

Because of the amount of fighting, and because the town was large and its districts widely separated, Ibn Bishr realized that he could not describe every engagement accurately. Fearing additions and omissions, he therefore recorded only a little of them. This study relies on Ibn Bishr especially for details of the battles of Diriyah.

Other local sources include Husayn ibn Ghannam's *Rawdat al-Afkar wa-al-Afham*, Muhammad al-Fakhri's *History of al-Fakhri*, and Ibrahim ibn Salih ibn Isa's *History of Some Events Occurring in Najd*.

Foreign Sources

Foremost is Felix Mengin's History of Egypt under Muhammad Ali, using the translation published by the King Abdulaziz Foundation. It is an important principal source because it was contemporary with the campaign and drew events from some participating soldiers, with abundant information and useful analyses. Edward Joyn's Egypt in the Nineteenth Century is almost a verbatim reproduction of Mengin; Bridges also used it for his account of the siege and fall of Diriyah.

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Other Arabic references include Abd al-Rahman Zaki's Military History of the Era of Muhammad Ali and al-Rafi'i's The Era of Muhammad Ali.

Another important foreign source is Sadleir's Journey across the Arabian Peninsula from al-Qatif on the Persian Gulf to Yanbu on the Red Sea during 1819. It is contemporary with the events and contains important information about the campaign and siege. The book also uses Burckhardt's Materials for the History of the Wahhabis.

Other foreign references include Lorimer's Gazetteer of the Persian Gulf, using the version compiled by Dr Muhammad al-Khudayri, and Philby's Saudi Arabia from the Years of Drought to the Beginnings of Prosperity. Philby frequently draws on Ibn Bishr, while also providing other information, analyses and viewpoints.

Egyptian Sources

The most important are al-Jabarti's History of the Marvels of the Biographies and Events and Muhammad Khalil al-Rajabi's History of the Vizier Muhammad Ali. Both were contemporaries. Al-Jabarti opposed Muhammad Ali's policies, whereas al-Rajabi was loyal to Muhammad Ali and close to him; consequently their treatments differ according to their inclinations and positions.

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MAIN SOURCES OF THE STUDY

The book also relies on many modern and older references concerning the Saudi, Ottoman and Egyptian sides, in order to present and discuss differing viewpoints. The list of sources and references at the end demonstrates the scale of the material used.

Finally, I thank everyone who helped bring the book to completion, especially Dr Fahd ibn Abdullah al-Samari for his comprehensive review and precise observations. I also thank the King Abdulaziz Foundation for printing the book within its University Theses Series, reflecting an important part of the scholarly activity of this leading institution.

May God grant success.

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PRELIMINARY STUDY

1. Diriyah and Its Importance in the First Saudi State

A. The Foundation of Diriyah

Diriyah was settled in 850 AH (approximately 1446 CE), when Mani' ibn Rabi'ah al-Muraydi and his group came from their former town called Diriyah near al-Qatif to Ibn Dir', lord of Hajr and al-Jaz'ah, who granted them al-Mulaybid and Ghusaybah, two well-known locations on Wadi Hanifah. Mani' and his companions settled there and developed the two places.

The former Diriyah near al-Qatif still exists as a site with date palms and a water source, in a desert region about 47 km from Dammam. Al-Jaz'ah is a settlement in Wadi Hanifah south of Hajr (Riyadh), now an agricultural area between al-Masani' and al-Mansuriyyah. Al-Mulaybid lies south of Diriyah opposite the mouth of Shu'ayb Saffar in Wadi Hanifah, while Ghusaybah is an area of Wadi Hanifah in upper Diriyah to the east.

The sources cited here include Ibn Bishr's *Unwan al-Majd* and Muhammad ibn Umar al-Fakhri's *History of al-Fakhri*.

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The precise reason that led Mani' al-Muraydi and his group to migrate from eastern Arabia to Najd is unknown. Some have attributed it to environmental reasons: their former region had become unhealthy and its heat had exhausted them, so they decided to move to the new Diriyah, with its healthier climate and atmosphere. Dr Abdullah al-Uthaymin suggests another possibility: that there may have been disputes between Mani' al-Muraydi and the Jabri dynasty ruling eastern Arabia at that time, leading him to leave for Najd.

There appears, however, to have been another and more influential reason. Ibn Dir' may have considered the political developments taking place in the region unfavorable to him and encouraged his cousins, the Durugh of al-Qatif, to come to him so that he could strengthen himself against his opponents. Ibn Bishr refers to correspondence between Ibn Dir' and his relative Mani' al-Muraydi in al-Qatif, which resulted in Mani' coming to Ibn Dir'. The exact contents of this correspondence are unknown, as is which party proposed the move.

The sources cited include Abdullah ibn Khumays's *Diriyah*, Abdullah al-Mutawwi's study of political and social transformations in Diriyah, al-Uthaymin's *History of the Kingdom of Saudi Arabia*, and Ibn Bishr's *Unwan al-Majd*.

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The wording used by Ibn Bishr—'Mani' brought [him] from al-Qatif—with the pronoun referring to Ibn Dir', gives stronger support to the conclusion that Ibn Dir' encouraged his relative and his group to come, as noted above. Mani' al-Muraydi evidently welcomed the proposal. The migration of this group to Najd represented a return, in part, of members of Banu Hanifah who had migrated at various historical periods from Wadi Hanifah to eastern Arabia.

Mani' and his sons worked to develop al-Mulaybid and Ghusaybah, and other groups from their 'neighbors' joined them, thereby forming the settlement of Diriyah in Najd.

The sources do not state when this settlement was given the name Diriyah or why it was so called. Many researchers have suggested that the name revived the name of their old settlement in eastern Arabia, or that it was derived from Ibn Dir', who granted them the land in recognition of his favor. The author suggests instead that the names of both settlements were originally associated with the group of al-Duru', who inhabited both areas.

From its foundation until the establishment of the First Saudi State there, Diriyah underwent more than three centuries of political developments, during which it acquired a prominent position among the settlements of Najd, especially in the al-'Arid region.

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A succession of rulers governed Diriyah during this period.

Mani' ibn Rabi'ah al-Muraydi

As noted earlier, he was the original founder of Diriyah. In fact, no information is available about his activities or his relations with his neighbors: the Al Yazid to the north, the Al Mu'ammār of Tamim who founded al-'Uyaynah around the same time as Diriyah, or Ibn Dir' and his group to the south.

Rabi'ah ibn Mani' ibn Rabi'ah al-Muraydi

He was his father's right-hand man in establishing Diriyah and strengthening its power. His fame and power surpassed those of his father, and the territory of the Murayd expanded under him, apparently at the expense of Al Yazid, with whom he fought several wars. The precise period during which Mani' al-Muraydi and his son Rabi'ah established Diriyah or ruled it is unknown, but it appears to have exceeded half a century, reaching into the early tenth century AH.

Musa ibn Rabi'ah ibn Mani' al-Muraydi

He assumed the emirate of Diriyah in the first quarter of the tenth century AH. The sources cited discuss differing dates for Mani's death.

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Musa ibn Rabi'ah was approximately [in the early tenth century AH] and possessed great ambition and prestige. Apparently he led raids during his father's lifetime and surpassed his father in standing and

fame. He even conspired to kill his father Rabi'ah, but his father escaped and took refuge in al-'Uyaynah, whereupon Musa became sole ruler. The sources do not indicate when or why he did this; perhaps a dispute arose between them over the management of warfare, particularly their wars with Al Yazid.

Musa became very powerful, and many clients and others joined him. He achieved major victories over his regional rivals, Al Yazid, and was able to free the Murayd from their control of the area's water sources. He gathered large forces of the Murayd, the clients and others and attacked Al Yazid at al-Na'miyyah and al-Wasil, killing more than eighty men, seizing their houses and destroying them. They never recovered from this blow, which became proverbial in Najd.

The sources note that the identity and role of the 'clients' are not clear. Ibn Khumays states that they were related to Al Yazid and among branches of Banu Hanifah, while Hamad al-Jasir records other possibilities.

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Ibrahim ibn Musa ibn Rabi'ah ibn Mani' al-Muraydi

Ibrahim succeeded his father. The exact date is unknown, but it appears to have been after the middle of the tenth century AH. What is known about his reign is that he was emir of Diriyah in 981 AH (approximately 1573 CE), according to an Ottoman document concerning the ruler of al-Ahsa's efforts to win over certain Najdi town rulers in order to secure the pilgrimage route to Mecca. Ibrahim ibn Musa, emir of Diriyah, was among those named. It is therefore certain that Ibrahim ruled Diriyah during the final quarter of the tenth century AH.

Ibrahim had several sons: Abd al-Rahman, Abdullah, Saif and Marikhan. Some migrated to areas outside Diriyah. Abd al-Rahman went to Darma, where his descendants became known as the shaykhs and eventually reached the emirate there. Saif moved to a place north of Diriyah known as Abu al-Kibash, where he and his descendants settled and became known as Al Yahya.

The Ottoman archival reference cited here is an Ottoman document concerning the pilgrimage caravans and the ancestor of the Saudi family and shaykh of Diriyah.

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The sources do not specify when these migrations took place, but they seem to have occurred shortly before or soon after the end of their father's emirate. Nor do they explain the reasons. Ibn Khumays attributes them to economic motives: Diriyah had become too constricted for them, so they sought other areas in pursuit of livelihood. The author considers it unlikely that this was the only or principal reason, because the sources do not mention large-scale migrations that would support the idea that Diriyah had become overcrowded. Those who left were only two or three individuals with their families, and they belonged to the ruling family, whose standard of living was higher than that of others.

Economic motives cannot therefore be excluded, but political motives probably also played a role: disputes over rule, expansion of influence, or attempts to secure and strengthen their own territories. The author argues that the departure of branches of the Muraydi family and their assumption of authority in the places to which they migrated indicate the expansion of the family's influence in al-'Arid, particularly after Musa ibn Rabi'ah had strengthened his position against Al Yazid.

However, these Muraydi ruling branches apparently lacked the connection and cohesion necessary to form a unified political entity. The political culture of the period was based largely on fragmentation and independence.

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This fragmentation prevented the region from being unified despite the influence of the Muraydi family. Thus the expansion of Diriyah's influence was, in this period, primarily an expansion of the influence of its ruling Muraydi family, with individual members establishing independent rule over other areas.

This seems originally to have resulted from disputes over succession: aspirants to power sought another place in which to exercise authority. In any case, it demonstrates the status reached by Diriyah and its Muraydi rulers during this period.

Marikhan ibn Ibrahim ibn Musa ibn Rabi'ah ibn Mani' al-Muraydi

Marikhan succeeded his father as ruler of Diriyah after his brothers had left it.

THE DUAL RULE OF DIRIYAH

Marikhan's reign marked the end of a phase in which a single ruler governed all parts of Diriyah. After him, rule was divided between his two sons, Rabi'ah and Muqrin, beginning a new period that may be called, figuratively, the period of dual rule. It continued until the time of Muhammad ibn Saud in 1157 AH (1744 CE).

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Rabi'ah and Muqrin, sons of Marikhan ibn Ibrahim ibn Musa

They jointly ruled Diriyah after their father's death, according to the sources, which describe them as 'the two emirs of Diriyah' during the second quarter of the eleventh century AH. They are recorded as having performed the pilgrimage together in 1034 AH (approximately 1624 CE).

The sources do not explain why they adopted this unusual form of government or how power was arranged between them. Did they divide the powers, or alternate authority? It appears that their joint rule resulted from each insisting on his right to rule.

The author considers it possible that their father divided the territory, rather than the authority itself, between them. Normally the elder brother would succeed his father; if the younger contested him,

conflict would result. Yet the brothers' pilgrimage together and the peaceful conditions during their reign suggest that they were in agreement. This may support the view that their father divided the districts of Diriyah between them and each was satisfied with his inheritance.

The sources began to distinguish Diriyah and Ghusaybah as separate areas: Diriyah belonged to the descendants of Watban ibn Rabi'ah, who inherited its rule from his father, while Ghusaybah belonged to the descendants of Muqrin.

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Marikhan ibn Muqrin and Watban ibn Rabi'ah

These two cousins inherited the authority of their fathers: Marikhan ruled Ghusaybah and Watban ruled Diriyah. The arrangement of joint rule apparently proved difficult for them. According to Ibn Bishr, matters ended when Watban ibn Rabi'ah killed Marikhan ibn Muqrin in 1098 AH (approximately 1687 CE) and seized Ghusaybah.

What raises doubts, however, is Watban's flight to al-Zubayr after killing Marikhan, without enjoying the fruits of his act. Did he face strong opposition from the Muraydi because of what he had done, so that they deprived him even of his emirate of Diriyah and expelled him to al-Zubayr? Or did Marikhan's sons and brothers demand revenge and force him to flee?

In any case, he was forced to leave Diriyah, so his attempt to reunify its rule failed. His departure appears to have been personal, since his sons subsequently ruled Diriyah; his act did not deprive them of their right to rule.

Nasir ibn Muhammad and Ahmad ibn Watban

Ibn Bishr records that in a certain year the two were killed as the emirs of Diriyah. The sources disagree over the identity of Nasir ibn Muhammad and the manner in which he came to power.

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The account concerning Nasir ibn Muhammad has generated many questions about his identity and accession. Ibn Rabi'ah records the event as follows: 'In it Ahmad ibn Watban and the shaykh of al-'Uyaynah, Nasir ibn Muhammad, were slaughtered.' Ibn La'bun gives a different version: 'In it the emir of al-'Uyaynah, Nasir ibn Muhammad ibn Watban, was killed.' The latter is incorrect: he was emir of Diriyah, not al-'Uyaynah. Genealogy and context show that Al Watban were the rulers of Diriyah, while al-'Uyaynah was ruled by Al Mu'ammār.

Al-Ruwaishid identifies him as Nasir ibn Muhammad ibn Watban. A manuscript of Ibn Bishr in the British Museum contains a variant reading in which the phrase appears to say 'the emir of Diriyah Nasir ibn Muhammad and Ahmad ibn Watban.' The conjunction suggests an error in copying the dual form of 'emir'.

The author discusses several versions and concludes that the identity requires careful examination. Ibn Khumays gives Nasir ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin, and the historical context supports the possibility that Diriyah was still governed by two men, one from Al Muqrin based in Ghusaybah and one from Al Watban based in Diriyah.

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As for the manner in which Nasir assumed power, there is considerable uncertainty concerning the political situation after Marikhan's death and Watban's flight to al-Zubayr. The available sources provide little information. Philby states that after Marikhan ibn Muqrin was killed, his brother Muhammad ibn Muqrin took power, followed by his son Nasir.

Muhammad ibn Muqrin in Ghusaybah

The author argues, on the basis of the preceding evidence, that Muhammad ibn Muqrin succeeded his brother in ruling Ghusaybah, as Philby states. Nasir ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin appears to have assumed authority during his father's lifetime or assisted him substantially in governing; he was consequently referred to as the emir of Diriyah. Muhammad ibn Muqrin then ruled Ghusaybah until his death in 1098 AH (approximately 1687 CE).

The sources contain some contradictory versions of Muhammad's and Nasir's names. The author considers some of these to be errors in transmission and notes that the question requires further verification.

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The Period of Marikhan ibn Watban, Ibrahim ibn Watban and Idris ibn Watban in Diriyah

The Al Watban family appears to have continued ruling through Marikhan ibn Watban, who succeeded his brother Ahmad and was contemporary with Muhammad ibn Muqrin for a period. In 1110 AH (approximately 1698 CE), his brother Ibrahim ibn Watban killed him and took his place. Ibrahim ruled until 1127 AH (approximately 1715 CE), when he was killed by Yahya ibn Salamah, the chief of Riyadh. This was also the year in which Muhammad ibn Muqrin died. Ibrahim was succeeded by his brother Idris ibn Watban, who ruled for no more than a year before being killed in 1128 AH (approximately 1716 CE).

THE PERIOD OF AL-QABS, 1128–1147 AH (approximately 1716–1734 CE)

During the final period of Al Watban rule, disputes and struggles over power became frequent. Ibn Isa records that a rupture and bloodshed occurred among the descendants of Watban. As a result, authority passed out of their hands: Sultan ibn Hamad al-Qabs seized power in Diriyah after Idris was killed.

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Although the sources say nothing about Sultan, his status in Diriyah, or what qualified him to reach its rule, he appears to have been a prominent and influential figure who was able to take power. Perhaps the people of Diriyah encouraged him to assume authority because of the continuing disputes within Al Watban. This may explain his remaining in power for seventeen years, until 1147 AH (approximately 1734 CE), when he was killed.

The sources do not name his killer, but it seems likely to have been someone from Al Watban, who had the greatest interest in restoring their rule over Diriyah. Yet his killing did not achieve the intended result, because his brother Abdullah ibn Hamad succeeded him but ruled only for several months before being killed.

There is no strong evidence whether Al Qabs ruled both Diriyah and Ghusaybah or Diriyah alone. The author favors the latter for two reasons. First, after Abdullah al-Qabs was killed, Musa ibn Rabi'ah ibn Watban took power in Diriyah, while Al Watban apparently had little influence in Ghusaybah; this indicates that Ghusaybah remained under an emir from Al Muqrin. Second, the sources do not state that Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin became emir of Ghusaybah or Diriyah, although they say he ruled until 1157 AH.

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The author notes that it is difficult to believe that Saud remained outside the political scene from his father's death until 1157 AH, since he had been a prominent figure during his father's lifetime and participated with the emir of al-'Uyaynah in an attack on Huraymila. The author therefore considers it likely that Saud inherited the emirate of Ghusaybah from his father and continued to govern it during the period of Al Qabs rule in Diriyah.

The Period of Musa ibn Rabi'ah ibn Watban, 1147–1157 AH (approximately 1734–1744 CE)

Musa took over Diriyah after Abdullah al-Qabs was killed and ruled until 1157 AH. The people of Diriyah, aided by Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin, rebelled against him, removed him from office, and he fled to al-'Uyaynah seeking protection from its ruler. He remained there until 1160 AH, when he was killed in the events that occurred between the people of Diriyah and the emir of al-'Uyaynah; these events will be discussed later.

The Period of Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin

The author has already discussed Saud's accession and argues that he probably ruled Ghusaybah from his father's death in 1116 AH, and later asserted control over all of Diriyah. Ibn Isa states that he became independent in the government of Diriyah, which had previously belonged to Al Watban.

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The sources mention that Zayd ibn Marikhan ibn Watban took over Diriyah after Saud's death, apparently on Saud's recommendation. They also refer to a dispute between Zayd and Muqrin ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin, who was described as 'lord of Diriyah'. This indicates a return to dual rule: Zayd ruled Diriyah, while Ghusaybah remained with Al Muqrin.

A number of later writers give a different and unsupported story in which Saud supposedly seized Diriyah from Al Mu'ammār, his maternal uncles. The author rejects this as inconsistent with the established historical narrative, noting that the sources do not record Al Mu'ammār ruling Diriyah.

Zayd ibn Marikhan ibn Watban and Muqrin ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin

Muqrin ibn Muhammad apparently disliked Saud's appointment of Zayd as emir of Diriyah and the restoration of authority there to Al Watban. A dispute developed and ended in 1157 AH (approximately 1744 CE) with a peace agreement. Muqrin was apparently dissatisfied with this outcome and plotted against Zayd. He asked Zayd to visit him. Zayd feared the visit and agreed only after obtaining a guarantee from Muhammad ibn Saud ibn Muqrin and Muqrin ibn Abdullah ibn Muqrin. They agreed, the visit took place, and when Muqrin ibn Muhammad attempted his treacherous plan, the two guarantors attacked and killed him.

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During the same year Zayd undertook an unsuccessful raid against al-'Uyaynah, attempting to exploit its weakness following an epidemic that had killed most of its men, including its emir Abdullah ibn Mu'ammār, the previous year.

Zayd ibn Marikhan and his force approached al-'Uyaynah with groups from Diriyah and some Bedouin from Al Kathir, Subay' and others. When he neared the town, its emir Muhammad ibn Abdullah ibn Mu'ammār sent a message inviting him to come and negotiate. Zayd accepted and entered the town with forty of his men. When he entered the emir's palace, Muhammad ibn Abdullah betrayed and killed him.

Muhammad ibn Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin, 1157–1160 AH

Muhammad ibn Saud, who had accompanied Zayd ibn Marikhan, escaped the emir of al-'Uyaynah through the protection of the emir's aunt, al-Jawhara bint Abdullah ibn Mu'ammār, and returned to Diriyah with his people.

The sources state that he 'became independent as emir of all Diriyah together with Ghusaybah' and expelled Al Watban from Diriyah. This marked the end of the dual rule that had existed since the beginning of the eleventh century AH and established Al Muqrin's independent rule over Diriyah. Muhammad ibn Saud's rule of Diriyah and Ghusaybah, and the peaceful conditions during his reign, prepared the way for the establishment of the First Saudi State.

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B. The Establishment of the First Saudi State in Diriyah

During Muhammad ibn Saud's emirate of Diriyah, which lasted [approximately sixteen years] before the establishment of the First Saudi State, Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab began his call in Najd. Its principal aims included worshipping God alone, combating all forms of polytheism,

eliminating innovations and superstitions widespread at the time, returning to the practice of the righteous predecessors, and applying Islamic law under a state capable of achieving these aims.

It was perhaps the final principle that led Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab to move from Huraymila to al-'Uyaynah in 1154 AH (1741 CE), because its emir accepted and supported his call. During this period the call spread among the surrounding areas and the number of its supporters increased greatly.

People divided into supporters and opponents. The opponents attempted to fight the movement by various means, eventually inciting princes and leaders in Najd and beyond against it. They appealed to the emir of al-Ahsa, Sulayman ibn Muhammad Al Humayd, who pressured the emir of al-'Uyaynah, Uthman ibn Mu'ammār, to withdraw his support for Sheikh Muhammad and his call. He succeeded, and Ibn Mu'ammār expelled Sheikh Muhammad from al-'Uyaynah in 1160 AH (1747 CE), whereupon he went to Diriyah.

Factors that made Diriyah suitable for receiving the call included its freedom from the influence or control of neighboring or external powers, which allowed it to make and implement decisions independently. This contrasted with al-'Uyaynah, where the influence of Banu Khalid, the rulers of al-Ahsa, affected policy and pressured its emir to abandon the sheikh.

Diriyah also enjoyed good relations with its neighbors, making it a suitable environment in which to spread the call peacefully at first and attract supporters in preparation for a later confrontation with its opponents.

There were scholarly links between Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab and prominent people of Diriyah. The call received favorable acceptance from several of them, including the brothers of Emir Muhammad ibn Saud, Mishari and Thunayan, and his son Abd al-Aziz.

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B. The Establishment of the First Saudi State in Diriyah

During the emirate of Muhammad ibn Saud, which continued for a number of years before the establishment of the First Saudi State, Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab began his call in Najd. Its principal aims were to devote worship exclusively to God, combat every form of polytheism, eliminate the innovations and superstitions prevalent at the time, return to the practice of the righteous predecessors, and apply Islamic law under a state capable of achieving these aims.

The last of these principles may have been what led Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab to move from Huraymila to al-'Uyaynah, where its emir accepted and supported his call. During this period the call spread through the surrounding areas and its supporters increased greatly.

People divided into supporters and opponents. The opponents attempted to combat the movement by every available means, eventually inciting princes and leaders in Najd and beyond against it. Among their efforts was pressure on the emir of al-Ahsa, Sulayman ibn Muhammad Al Humayd, who pressured the emir of al-'Uyaynah, Uthman ibn Mu'ammār, to abandon his support for Sheikh

Muhammad and his call. He succeeded, and Ibn Mu'ammār expelled Sheikh Muhammad from al-'Uyaynah, whereupon he went to Diriyah.

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Factors that made Diriyah a suitable environment for receiving the call

Diriyah was distinguished by the absence of the influence or control of neighboring or external powers. This gave it the freedom to make and implement decisions without interference from other powers, unlike al-'Uyaynah, where the influence of Banu Khalid, rulers of al-Ahsa, had a major effect on policy. Their pressure on its emir was one of the reasons he abandoned support for Sheikh Muhammad and expelled him.

Diriyah's good relations with its neighbors at this time also made it a suitable environment for spreading the call peacefully at first, attracting the greatest possible number of supporters in preparation for the later phase of confrontation with its opponents.

There was also a scholarly connection between Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab and some of Diriyah's prominent men. The call received a favorable response from several of them, foremost among them the brothers of Emir Muhammad ibn Saud, Mishari and Thunayan, as well as his son Abd al-Aziz.

Diriyah's relationship with neighboring al-'Uyaynah to the north was good. Indeed, relations between Muhammad ibn Saud and the emir of al-'Uyaynah developed into a marriage alliance: Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad married the emir's daughter. Its relationship with Riyadh to the south was also good. Muhammad ibn Saud assisted Dahham ibn Dawwas when the people of Riyadh rebelled against him and sought to remove him. These good relations may initially have encouraged Dahham to accept the call, although he later turned against it and became one of its strongest opponents.

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Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad corresponded with Sheikh Muhammad while the latter was in al-'Uyaynah, asking him to explain the meaning of the opening chapter of the Qur'an, al-Fatihah. Hamad ibn Suwaylim also studied under him, so that when the sheikh moved to Diriyah he stayed at Hamad's house.

Diriyah had enjoyed stability since Emir Muhammad ibn Saud assumed its leadership. Security was established and its internal forces were unified, especially after Al Watban had been expelled and Muhammad ibn Saud's rule became secure without a rival, as explained above.

Muhammad ibn Saud also possessed qualities that qualified him to promote the call. Ibn Ghannam described him as known during his emirate for good conduct, loyalty and good treatment, famous for these qualities beyond the other princes of the Najdi towns. He combined firmness with mercy, was concerned with protecting people's rights, preventing injustice and suppressing sedition and intrigue. In addition, he believed in the call and considered Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab's teaching correct.

The Pledge of Diriyah

When Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab left for Diriyah and stayed as a guest of Al Suwaylim, among Diriyah's prominent inhabitants and enthusiastic supporters of the call, Emir Muhammad ibn Saud came to him with his brothers Mishari and Thunayan. He welcomed him and promised protection and support.

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Ibn Ghannam and Ibn Bishr agree that Emir Muhammad ibn Saud stipulated that, in return for his support and assistance in spreading the call, Sheikh Muhammad should not leave Diriyah in the future. Ibn Bishr adds another condition: that the sheikh should not prevent the emir from collecting the annual tax imposed on the town's inhabitants. The sheikh accepted the first condition; concerning the second, he replied that he hoped God would compensate the emir with booty better than what he had been collecting.

Thus Emir Muhammad ibn Saud and Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab pledged themselves to work together to spread the reforming call. On this basis the First Saudi State was established in Diriyah.

By adopting and supporting Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab's call, the Al Muqrin leadership in Diriyah transformed the character of warfare in Najd into religious jihad. Through this and the peaceful spread of the call, they were able to unite Najd under Diriyah's authority after a conflict lasting more than forty years.

Some Najdi towns entered the First Saudi State peacefully, including al-'Uyaynah, Huraymila and Manfuhah.

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The new state in Najd encountered different attitudes from the powers surrounding it. The rulers of al-Ahsa from Banu Khalid adopted a hostile position. They had opposed the call even before the state was established, and their relationship with Al Saud in Diriyah had already been poor before the sheikh arrived. It was therefore expected that the rulers of al-Ahsa would undertake hostile actions against the new state. Their first raids against it took place in the late eighteenth century, and they continued attacking it thereafter. They also periodically supported its opponents.

The failure of these efforts to destroy or stop the movement had important consequences. From the end of the twelfth century AH, the balance of power changed after most of Najd had been unified. The First Saudi State began to expand in order to spread the Salafi call, moving from a defensive to an offensive position while Banu Khalid became defensive. The leaders of Diriyah began raids against al-Ahsa and gradually gained the upper hand until they captured it.

The success of Saudi military operations in al-Ahsa opened opportunities for further expansion in the Gulf. The Saudis subsequently controlled Qatif, Bahrain and areas of Oman.

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The success of the Saudi operations in al-Ahsa opened the way for expansion into other Gulf regions. The Saudis took control of Qatif, Bahrain and parts of Oman.

As for the Hijaz in western Arabia, news of the call seems to have reached it in a distorted form at an early stage, causing the Sharifs of Mecca to adopt a hostile position from the outset. In 1754 the Sharif of Mecca imprisoned a group of Najdi pilgrims who followed the Salafi call. Supporters of the call were subsequently prevented from performing the pilgrimage and were unable to do so except on a limited number of occasions.

After Najd was unified at the beginning of the thirteenth century AH, the Sharifs adopted an offensive stance toward the Saudis, fearing that they would extend their influence and seize control of the two holy sanctuaries. Armed conflict between them began and continued until the Hijaz actually came under Saudi rule.

Other parts of Arabia also came under Diriyah's authority, including Asir, al-Mikhlaḥ al-Sulaymani, parts of Yemen and Najran.

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Diriyah thus became the capital of a state extending over a vast territory, from the borders of Iraq and Syria in the north to the borders of Aden and Muscat in the south, and from the Red Sea in the west to the Arabian Gulf in the east, encompassing both settled and nomadic areas. Its political and religious importance in Arabia increased because it was the capital of this large state and the principal center of the reforming Salafi call on which the Saudi state was founded. It also became an important economic center in central Arabia, with various commercial markets established there.

II. The Relationship between the First Saudi State and the Ottoman Empire

News of the emergence of Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab's call in Najd reached the Ottoman Empire early in its history. The Sharif of Mecca, Mas'ud ibn Sa'id, informed the Ottoman government of the sheikh's emergence and reported that the scholars of Mecca had issued a legal opinion requiring that he be fought if he did not abandon his call. The Ottoman government replied by asking him to persuade the man to abandon his doctrine.

At the beginning of the Salafi call, however, the Ottoman government took no action against it or against the armed activity of the Saudi state in Najd. Several historians and researchers have proposed reasons for this initially passive attitude.

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Among the proposed reasons for the Ottoman Empire's initial passive attitude were:

1. The Ottoman government underestimated the Salafi call and its ability to spread and endure, particularly because it appeared weak in resources and power when faced with local and external opposition, and because that opposition seemed capable of defeating it.
2. The Ottomans believed that the Salafi call was merely an internal movement operating within a narrow sphere, essentially another of the disputes that frequently occurred among the tribes of the Arabian Peninsula. This indicates that they did not understand the movement's religious and political dimensions at that time.
3. During the first forty years of its history, the Saudi state was confined largely to Najd, a region not under direct Ottoman sovereignty. It was also distant from the Ottoman Empire's important strategic, economic and military centers in Arabia and the surrounding regions. The Ottomans therefore had little interest in events there.

The call faced strong opposition from some Najdi powers, especially Riyadh, and also external threats, including the campaigns of Banu Khalid from al-Ahsa and the campaign of the Makrami, emir of Najran.

Another factor was the Ottoman Empire's internal weakness, limited financial resources and external problems during this period.

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The Saudi state itself initially avoided confrontation with the Ottoman Empire. This is demonstrated by Imam Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad's attitude toward Sa'dun ibn Ar'ir when he sought refuge in Diriyah. The imam initially refused to give him protection because Sa'dun had made peace with Thuwaini ibn Abdullah, chief of the Muntafiq, and the imam feared provoking Thuwaini and, behind him, the Ottoman governor of Baghdad. Later, after granting Sa'dun protection and angering Thuwaini, the imam attempted to appease him in order to postpone confrontation.

Another indication is Imam Saud's letter to Ali al-Kaykhya, assistant to the governor of Baghdad, when he conducted a campaign against al-Ahsa. In the letter he objected to the dispatch of the campaign, emphasizing that he had not attacked Ottoman possessions because al-Ahsa had been outside Ottoman rule for many years.

Thus, at first the Ottoman Empire regarded the Saudi state and its military activity primarily in political terms, viewing it as a tribal movement not worthy of major attention. This attitude gradually changed as several factors altered the situation.

The rapid spread of the Salafi call and the extension of Saudi influence beyond Najd into areas subject to Ottoman authority alarmed the Ottoman government because the emerging state had become a major religious and political power outside Ottoman control and threatened its strategic, economic and military interests in the surrounding provinces.

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Another factor was the hostile religious and political propaganda directed against the Saudi state and the Salafi call by their opponents. This contributed to Ottoman resentment and hostility.

The Ottomans also resented the followers of the call because they interpreted Ottoman defeats in wars with Europe, especially Russia, as resulting from the state's neglect of religion. They accused the Ottoman government of failing to defend Muslim lands against the threat posed by Christian Western states and of allowing those states to interfere in Muslim affairs.

The establishment of the Saudi state on a religious foundation represented a serious threat to Ottoman prestige in the Islamic world. The call was particularly threatening in the Arab lands because Ottoman authority there rested heavily on its Islamic identity.

The rise and growing strength of the Saudi state also attracted the attention of competing world powers that wished to prevent any regional Arab power from threatening their influence. Since Britain in particular had strong influence in the Ottoman Empire, the argument is made that these colonial powers encouraged the Ottomans to confront and eliminate the Saudi state.

For these reasons the Ottoman government adopted various measures against the Saudi state, seeking first to contain its influence and ultimately to destroy it.

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The Saudi state was becoming a major religious and political force. Its expansion beyond Najd into regions surrounding it in Iraq, Syria and the Hijaz threatened Ottoman strategic, economic and military interests.

Opponents of the Saudi state and the Salafi call also spread hostile propaganda against it on religious and political grounds, further encouraging Ottoman hostility.

The Ottomans regarded the movement as a challenge to their religious authority. They feared that the Saudi state, founded on a religious call, could undermine Ottoman prestige throughout the Muslim world. Its religious message could weaken Ottoman claims to leadership in the Arab lands, particularly because those lands were held together in Ottoman hands partly through the dynasty's identification with Islam.

The source also cites an Egyptian archival document—a letter from Abdullah ibn Saud to Muhammad Ali—and refers to contemporary and later works discussing the political and religious dimensions of the conflict.

The author then turns to the Ottoman response. At first it consisted of propaganda designed to discredit the call and portray its followers as religious deviants. As Saudi victories accumulated, however, the Ottoman government increasingly considered military action necessary.

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The Ottoman Empire regarded the Saudi religious claim as particularly dangerous because, in the author's interpretation, it offered an alternative Islamic state whose victories could attract Muslims away from Ottoman rule. The Sultan was especially angered when reports reached him that Saudi leaders were using the title of imam, which was seen as analogous to the caliphate upon which the Ottoman throne's religious legitimacy rested. The Saudi claim was therefore treated as an attack on Ottoman religious authority, especially after the Saudis turned their attention toward incorporating the Hijaz and the two holy sanctuaries.

The rise of the Saudi state also attracted the attention of international powers competing for influence in the region. These powers, particularly Britain, were concerned that a strong Arab power might threaten their interests. The author argues that Britain's influence within the Ottoman Empire contributed to pressure on the Ottomans to confront the Saudi state.

The Ottoman government consequently adopted successive measures to oppose the Saudi state. It initially used propaganda to distort the religious principles and political aims of the call, accusing its adherents of heresy and apostasy. Official religious scholars were employed to denounce the movement in mosques and religious lessons, and religious scholars wrote letters and books attacking the reputation of its leaders.

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The Ottoman campaign of propaganda was reinforced by preventing the Saudis from performing the pilgrimage. The stated purpose was to prevent them from meeting Muslims in Mecca, where they might have been able to counter the hostile propaganda and explain the actual nature of their call. The Ottoman government therefore rejected requests from the Saudis to be permitted to perform the pilgrimage.

Despite these hostile measures, the Saudi state continued to achieve successive military victories. This encouraged the Ottoman government to consider more effective and aggressive action. The result was a series of military campaigns conducted through the Ottoman governors of Iraq and Egypt.

After the Ottomans recognized the strength of the Saudis following their annexation of Jabal Shammar and their threat to the Ottoman province of Syria, their capture of al-Ahsa and threat to Ottoman Iraq, and their victory over the Sharif of Mecca, the Ottoman government began serious military action against the First Saudi State before its influence could expand further.

The first major effort was entrusted to the governor of Baghdad, Sulayman Pasha, because the Saudis directly threatened his territories and because he enjoyed the support of many opponents of Saudi rule who had fled to southern Iraq.

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The campaign of Thuwaini ibn Abdullah, chief of the Muntafiq, against the Saudis failed. The Ottoman Sultan then issued strong orders to Sulayman Pasha to prepare a powerful force of regular

troops against the Saudis. Sulayman sent a campaign under his deputy, Ali al-Kaykha, but it also ended in failure.

After Baghdad's attempts to break Saudi power failed, attention turned to the governor of Syria, whom the Ottoman government sought to encourage to undertake the task. This became particularly urgent after events in the Hijaz: the Saudi state captured Mecca and consolidated its influence in the Hijaz. The governors of Syria, however, declined to undertake the assignment.

The author attributes this reluctance partly to the poor internal condition of the Syrian provinces, including Damascus, Aleppo and Tripoli, where military disorder resulted from divisions among the troops and struggles between them.

The loss of the Hijaz was a serious political and religious blow to Ottoman prestige throughout the Islamic world and diminished the Sultan's religious standing.

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The loss of the Hijaz was therefore a major blow to Ottoman prestige. After entering Mecca, Emir Saud ibn Abd al-Aziz also prohibited pilgrims from the Ottoman provinces from bringing the mahmal, considering it an innovation that should be opposed. This increased the Sultan's determination to confront the First Saudi State and gave him a further motive: the restoration of Ottoman sovereignty over the two holy sanctuaries.

The author notes that this position is also reflected in a letter from Saud al-Kabir to Sultan Selim III after the Saudi entry into Mecca. A contemporary historian, Mikhail al-Dimashqi, likewise records that Imam Saud prevented the Syrian and Istanbul pilgrimage caravan from entering Medina in one year, and that the Sultan's mother was with the caravan.

Faced with the failures of his governors in Syria and Iraq, the Ottoman government apparently sought a truce with Imam Saud, offering an annual payment of one thousand mithqals of gold. The imam rejected the truce unless the other side accepted the call.

Finally the Ottoman Sultan turned to his new governor of Egypt, Muhammad Ali Pasha, to undertake the task of eliminating the Saudi state, particularly after the failures of the governors of Iraq and Syria.

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The author suggests that the Ottoman Sultan's assignment of Muhammad Ali to this task suited Muhammad Ali's own ambitions. He hoped to gain new political advantages and raise his standing within the Ottoman Empire if he succeeded.

Some accounts have claimed that the immediate reason for assigning the task to Muhammad Ali was that the Sultan's mother had been prevented from making the pilgrimage. The author regards this as, at most, an additional factor rather than the true cause, since Ottoman firmans ordering the governors of Iraq and Syria to destroy the Saudi state had already been issued before that event.

Muhammad Ali Pasha was the son of Ibrahim Agha ibn Ali, of Albanian origin. Born in Kavala in 1769, he came to Egypt with the Ottoman army sent to expel the French in 1801. Through his ability he became ruler of Egypt in 1805 and remained in power until 1848, when he retired and was succeeded by his son Ibrahim.

Muhammad Ali accepted the mission with enthusiasm, seeing in it an opportunity for political advancement and territorial expansion.

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Muhammad Ali regarded the campaign as an opportunity to pursue wider ambitions, including the creation of an empire of his own. He also had local motives, particularly the elimination of the Albanian troops who had caused unrest and rebellion in Egypt and the reorganization of his army. The campaign could also provide substantial financial support from the Ottoman government or at least reduce the taxes imposed upon him.

Muhammad Ali nevertheless recognized the strength of the Saudi state and feared its attempts to extend its influence toward the Egyptian frontier. Carrying out the Sultan's orders would therefore also protect Egypt from a powerful force in Arabia, especially after the Saudi conquest of the Hijaz, which was geographically close to Egypt and closely connected with it.

Ottoman documents indicate that the first formal assignment from the Sultan to Muhammad Ali to undertake the task was issued in Shawwal 1222 AH (December 1807). Muhammad Ali delayed implementing it because of Egypt's internal circumstances and the British campaign against Alexandria, while the treasury was empty and the army required its pay.

The Egyptian archives contain several documents relating to these orders, including communications from the Ottoman government to Muhammad Ali and subsequent instructions issued in the same year.

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Muhammad Ali therefore considered it necessary to prepare the campaign carefully, both militarily and financially. He strengthened his internal position by eliminating rivals, prepared the way for an invasion of Arabia, contacted enemies of the Saudi state there for cooperation, collected money from merchants and others, built ships, and obtained equipment and ammunition. These preparations took approximately four years.

When the necessary preparations were complete, he placed the campaign under the command of his son Tusun. The expedition sailed for Arabia and reached Yanbu, which it captured easily, then advanced toward Medina.

Muhammad Ali's preparations had taken place while he was consolidating his rule and fighting his Mamluk opponents. The source cites Felix Mengin, al-Jabarti, Burckhardt and other works for details.

Tusun was Muhammad Ali's younger son. He later died after returning from Arabia.

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On its way to Medina, Tusun's army captured Badr. It then encountered Saudi forces under Abdullah ibn Saud at Wadi al-Safra. The Saudi forces inflicted a crushing defeat on Tusun's army, and the surviving invaders returned to Yanbu.

Tusun subsequently received reinforcements from Egypt, enabling him to attack Medina again and capture it after a siege. The Saudi garrison there surrendered in Dhu al-Qa'dah 1227 AH (November 1812).

The fall of Medina had a major effect on the subsequent fall of the other Hijazi cities. Tusun moved to Jeddah and entered it without resistance, then went to Mecca and entered it in Muharram 1228 AH (January 1813), with the assistance of Sharif Ghalib ibn Musa'id.

Tusun also dispatched a detachment that captured Ta'if. The Hijaz thereby came under Muhammad Ali's influence, and the Ottoman Empire achieved its primary objective in the war: recovering the two holy sanctuaries from the Saudis.

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Tusun continued his successes by sending a detachment to al-Hanakiyah as an advance force toward Najd, and another detachment to Turabah. The Saudis confronted both forces and defeated them.

In response to these defeats, Muhammad Ali decided to prepare a new campaign under his own command. When he reached the Hijaz, he removed Sharif Ghalib and exiled him, replacing him with his nephew Sharif Yahya ibn Surur. He then ordered his forces to move toward Turabah.

The source notes that al-Hanakiyah was a settled Hijazi town on the route toward al-Qasim, while Turabah was a major settlement of the Buqum tribe in eastern Hijaz.

Muhammad Ali's arrival marked a new phase in the campaign. The initial Egyptian-Ottoman objective of recovering the holy sanctuaries had been achieved, but the struggle with the Saudi state continued as Muhammad Ali and Tusun sought to push farther into Arabia.

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The situation subsequently changed in favor of Muhammad Ali's forces after new reinforcements arrived from Egypt and improved his position. Imam Saud ibn Abd al-Aziz also died that year, 1229 AH (1814 CE). Despite Saudi victories over the Egyptian forces at several locations, the situation turned in Muhammad Ali's favor. He achieved a decisive victory at the Battle of Bisl in 1230 AH (1815 CE), and captured Zahran, Turabah, Ranyah, Bishah and parts of Tihamah. He also defeated the Saudi forces commanded by Tami ibn Shu'ayb in Asir. Tami was captured and sent to Istanbul, where he was executed in the same year.

[The page contains geographical and biographical footnotes identifying al-Qunfudhah, Bisl and Tami ibn Shu'ayb.]

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After these victories the road toward Najd was open, but Muhammad Ali had to return to Egypt, while his son Tusun remained to continue military operations. During this period Tusun reached al-Qasim and captured a number of its towns.

The military operations of Muhammad Ali's campaigns at this stage were concentrated in the Hijaz, with the aim of restoring Ottoman control over the two holy sanctuaries and securing the southern borders of the Hijaz against the followers of the call in Asir. Tusun also penetrated into Najd and captured several towns in al-Qasim.

Egyptian documents indicate that Muhammad Ali did not intend to march on Diriyah at this stage. He postponed that task because it required comprehensive preparation and organization and powerful equipment capable of destroying Diriyah's strength. In a letter to the Sublime Porte, after describing his victories in the Hijaz, he wrote that as for Diriyah, he had postponed dealing with it because cleansing it of the so-called 'Khawarij' required further measures, arrangements, supplies and strength, and that achieving good results required such preparation.

The book notes that Ottoman correspondence routinely called the Saudis 'Khawarij' and used other derogatory expressions in an effort to portray the followers of the call as outside Islam. The author rejects this characterization and notes that the movement presented itself as a return to the practice of the righteous predecessors.

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The decision to postpone the attack may also have been a military measure intended to secure the Hijaz against the Saudi threat from the direction of al-Qasim, just as Muhammad Ali had previously secured the Hijaz from the south and from Asir.

Tusun's advance into Najd prompted Imam Abdullah ibn Saud to mobilize his forces to aid al-Qasim, and the two armies again came into military confrontation. Events then developed differently: both sides moved toward a peace agreement. Tusun appears to have recognized the danger of penetrating deep into the desert, the vulnerability of his communications lines extending from Medina or Ta'if into the interior, and the possibility that Saudi forces could easily cut them. Reports about Egypt's internal circumstances at the time also discouraged him from continuing military operations for fear that his supplies would be cut off. Some accounts state that Muhammad Ali himself ordered Tusun to make the truce, perhaps so that his forces would not be exhausted in Arabia while he completed preparations for a new and powerful campaign.

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Imam Abdullah ibn Saud also appears not to have been eager to continue fighting, despite having the military advantage over Tusun's forces in this confrontation. He may have been convinced that any victory he achieved would be temporary and that Muhammad Ali would send new and larger forces to reach Diriyah. He therefore considered it preferable not to waste his forces at that time, but to use the opportunity to strengthen his country. This is what happened.

As both sides favored conciliation and a truce, a peace agreement was concluded between them. Historians differ over its terms. It seems that the initial stage consisted of proposals exchanged between representatives of the two sides, with each accepting what suited it and leaving aside what did not. Consequently, historical sources preserve many different versions of the clauses, each differing from the others. This suggests that the actual text of the agreement was not available to later historians and that what they recorded were interpretations of the points proposed by each side.

Eventually the two parties appear to have reached a final formula and drawn up an agreement. Imam Abdullah sent a letter to Muhammad Ali concerning confirmation of the peace and agreed to send a group of his followers as hostages. Tusun's forces actually withdrew to Medina.

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PRELIMINARY STUDY

Imam Abdullah sent Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Banyan and Abd al-Aziz ibn Hamad ibn Ibrahim to Egypt in Shawwal 1230 AH to confirm the peace with Muhammad Ali Pasha.

Sources differ over whether Muhammad Ali formally approved the peace. Najdi sources affirm that he accepted and approved it, and Ottoman documents also support this position. One document records that Muhammad Ali asked the Ottoman Sultan to approve the peace, explaining the poor condition of Tusun's forces in al-Qasim and his need to conclude the agreement.

The page includes biographical notes on Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Banyan, one of Diriyah's scholars, and Abd al-Aziz ibn Hamad ibn Ibrahim, who later served as judge of Diriyah and subsequently of Unaizah and Suq al-Shuyukh.

The Egyptian archival references include an Arabic-original letter from Abdullah ibn Saud to Muhammad Ali Pasha.

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PRELIMINARY STUDY

The Ottoman document records Muhammad Ali explaining that he had confirmed the peace terms and guarantees, secured hostages, and returned to Medina while hoping that the Sublime Porte would link its approval to the arrangement. He argued that the question of Diriyah had, by God's grace, been brought to a position in which its seizure would be possible whenever desired, and therefore requested high-level approval of the offers. If the Saudis later violated the agreement, the matter could then be reconsidered and their power eradicated completely.

Al-Rajabi, an Egyptian historian contemporary with the period, likewise states that Muhammad Ali was satisfied with the peace at that time but had already resolved to break it when circumstances

became favorable. Other historians, however, state that Muhammad Ali did not approve the peace and was dissatisfied with it.

The disagreement appears to have arisen from Muhammad Ali's subsequent conduct. The agreement required Abdullah ibn Saud to send a group of followers as hostages every year to renew the undertaking. According to Ibn Bishr, Muhammad Ali's attitude changed the following year, when Imam Abdullah ibn Saud sent correspondence concerning the peace.

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PRELIMINARY STUDY

Muhammad Ali then imposed harsh conditions on Imam Abdullah ibn Saud. He demanded that Abdullah abandon the Salafi call; return everything that had been taken from the Prophet's Mosque; accept subordination to the governor of Medina; agree to surrender Diriyah to a governor appointed by Muhammad Ali, retaining only the position of shaykh of the town; and travel to Istanbul if the Sultan ordered him to do so.

These were, as the author observes, deliberately impossible conditions intended to make acceptance impossible and to accomplish an objective Muhammad Ali had already decided upon. Imam Abdullah did not submit to them.

As for the Ottoman Empire, its position toward the peace was clear and explicit: it rejected it outright and ordered Muhammad Ali to complete the matter of Diriyah.

Researchers have therefore divided into two views. Some consider the peace a genuine formal agreement; others regard it as merely a temporary truce accompanying negotiations that ultimately failed.

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Sources supporting the existence of the peace state that it remained in force until it was broken the following year. They give several reasons for its violation. A number of Najdi sources state that, after Tusun Pasha's withdrawal, Abdullah ibn Saud conducted extensive military operations against regions and tribes that had declared loyalty to Muhammad Ali, including al-Ahsa, Oman, Wadi al-Dawasir, Jabal Shammar and al-Jawf. He moved into al-Qasim and captured al-Khubara and al-Bukayriyah, demolishing their walls. He then carried out punitive operations against Bedouin tribes loyal to Muhammad Ali, including Mutayr and Harb, and his forces reached areas close to Medina.

On the return journey he captured three chiefs of al-Rass, including its emir Sharikh ibn Fawzan al-Dahlawi, and took them with him to Diriyah. This angered some of his opponents in al-Qasim, who went to Muhammad Ali in Egypt and urged him to act against Abdullah ibn Saud.

Ibn Bishr calls this campaign 'Muhayt and Muharrish'. He explains the name by saying that Abdullah surrounded the northern and southern water sources and that 'Muhayt' derives from surrounding the water, while 'Muharrish' comes from the Najdi colloquial word *harash*, meaning to incite people to fight.

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PRELIMINARY STUDY

These actions caused the peace to be violated and directly hastened the resumption of fighting and the dispatch of a new campaign as quickly as possible. Sheikh Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan also stated that the reason for the violation was that Abdullah ibn Saud sent letters to the Ghamid and Zahran tribes asking them to rejoin him. They forwarded the letters to Muhammad Ali, who was displeased because these tribes were among those covered by the peace agreement and were supposed to remain on his side. This angered him and led him to break the agreement.

A letter from Sharif Mecca Yahya ibn Surur to Muhammad Ali similarly reported that Abdullah ibn Saud was corresponding with tribes belonging to Muhammad Ali's side and collecting zakat from them despite the terms of the peace.

In any case, the peace or truce marked the end of an important phase of the conflict between the First Saudi State and the Ottoman Empire, represented in this phase by its governor in Egypt, Muhammad Ali Pasha. It also announced preparations for a new and more decisive phase: the dispatch of a new campaign against Diriyah, which ultimately ended with its fall.

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IBRAHIM PASHA'S CAMPAIGN ON ITS WAY TO DIRIYAH

The chapter covers:

- Reasons for sending Ibrahim Pasha's campaign.
- Preparations for the campaign.
- The composition of Ibrahim Pasha's army.
- The commanders of the campaign.
- The progress of the campaign.

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Reasons for Sending Ibrahim Pasha's Campaign

The Ottoman Empire had achieved its objective of recovering control of the two holy sanctuaries and taking them from the Saudis, as discussed earlier. But Ottoman Sultan Mahmud II and his governor in

Egypt, Muhammad Ali Pasha, had another and more important objective: the final destruction of the First Saudi State in the Arabian Peninsula.

The orders of the Sublime Porte to Muhammad Ali were strict and direct: destroy the power of Diriyah and capture Imam Abdullah ibn Saud. An Ottoman document, a report of the Consultative Council, records that one of its clauses concerned Tusun's peace with the Saudis. It warned that granting the 'Wahhabi faction' security would be interpreted by the Arabs as a concession and used by the Wahhabis to promote their cause. The Sultan approved wording that avoided explicitly recognizing the peace and security, instead retaining hostages with the governor of Egypt while continuing the mission when its time came.

The Sultan wrote that he had reviewed the report and drafts of the imperial decree and correspondence and approved their formulation, ordering them to be copied and sent to Muhammad Ali with the required reply.

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The means chosen to achieve this objective was a new military campaign, whose command was this time assigned to Ibrahim Pasha, son of Muhammad Ali, in 1231 AH (1816 CE).

One reason Muhammad Ali sent the large campaign under new leadership was the limited command abilities of Tusun Pasha. Muhammad Ali relieved Tusun of his duties and recalled him to Egypt.

Ibrahim Pasha was born at Nasli near Kavala in Albania. He came to Egypt in 1805 and held administrative posts, including the administration of Jirjah, and commanded his father's forces in his wars beginning with the campaign in Arabia. He later commanded forces in the Morea and Syria. His father eventually transferred the government to him in 1848, but Ibrahim fell ill after seven months and died that same year.

The sources cited include Sadleir, al-Zirikli, al-'Ajlan, and studies of the Turkish manuscript *Hijaz Seyahatnamesi*.

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Ibrahim Pasha's Campaign on Its Way to Diriyah

The operation required a large expedition with enormous preparations. These preparations needed considerable time to produce the necessary strength, while Muhammad Ali's forces already in Arabia were insufficient. He therefore decided that those forces should suspend fighting so that they would not be exhausted before the new campaign was ready.

Ottoman documents explain Muhammad Ali's view in several places. In a letter to the Sultan he stated that control of Diriyah required comprehensive preparation to the highest degree and the organization of supplies and powerful equipment capable of producing good results.

Muhammad Ali was also driven by political, economic, religious and military motives.

Political motives

First, Muhammad Ali sought to preserve the position he had gained in the Ottoman Empire by restoring the two holy sanctuaries to Ottoman rule and to increase that standing. He wished not merely to recover the sanctuaries but to eliminate opponents of the state, thereby gaining a position that would help him achieve his ambitions.

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Muhammad Ali and his son Ibrahim received honors, recognition and offices as a result of carrying out the mission. The Sultan's instructions to Muhammad Ali made the political motive explicit, urging him to exert himself in destroying Diriyah and to secure the means of enhancing his reputation and fame among his peers and of strengthening the favorable royal attention directed toward him.

Preserving the two holy sanctuaries and securing his victory in the Hijaz was another political objective. Sultanate correspondence repeatedly urged Muhammad Ali to maintain the sanctuaries. One letter urged him to continue sending soldiers and ammunition and to guard the sanctuaries. Another called for the destruction of the houses of Diriyah as a means, in their view, of ensuring security in the Hijaz.

Ibrahim was given the rank of pasha with three tails, equivalent to his father's rank, and was also appointed governor of Jeddah.

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Muhammad Ali considered the campaign necessary to preserve his control over the Hijaz. If a large army did not arrive, the Hijazi regions would not be safe from the threat posed by the Saudis.

The continued existence of the Saudi state, even if it submitted nominally to the Ottoman Empire, would prevent Muhammad Ali's rule in Arabia from becoming secure. The presence of a competing power could cause tribes to shift their allegiance between Ottoman-Egyptian and Saudi rule, creating instability and potentially bringing the Arab tribes closer together and encouraging them to join the Saudis. This would strengthen Saudi power and could eventually expel Muhammad Ali from Arabia or weaken his influence there.

Muhammad Ali also pursued strategic expansion. His seizure of the Hijaz gave him an opportunity to expand into the Arabian Peninsula for his own benefit, with the Saudi territories in Najd and al-Ahsa becoming the next objectives.

He also used the campaign as a new argument for incorporating the province of Syria into Egypt. He had previously sought this but had received little attention from the Ottoman government. The dispatch of Ibrahim's large campaign increased his insistence on the demand.

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Muhammad Ali proposed sending an army from Syria because of its proximity to Najd, which also required Syria to be incorporated into his province. His pressure on the Ottoman government to annex Syria therefore increased in connection with the campaign.

Economic motives

Muhammad Ali's government sought several economic benefits if the Saudi state were destroyed and his rule stabilized in Arabia.

1. Financial revenues during and after the campaign

Booty and confiscation of property

As was customary for a victorious army, Ibrahim Pasha's victories would enable him to seize Saudi property that came into his hands, using some of it to supply and maintain his army. The types of booty later obtained by the Egyptian forces included money, weapons, animals, agricultural produce, goods and food.

Confiscation of property was another important economic gain. The forces of Ibrahim Pasha confiscated the property of Al Saud in Diriyah and al-Ahsa and the wealth of some rich families, killing some of their men and taking their money and treasuries.

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The narratives indicate that the volume of booty and confiscations was considerable. Lorimer's statement that the Egyptian forces seized approximately one million qirsh from the treasury of al-Ahsa alone illustrates its scale.

The prosperity enjoyed by the First Saudi State and its capital Diriyah before its fall also helps explain Muhammad Ali's interest. Ibn Bishr described Diriyah and the high standard of living of its inhabitants, whose wealth was visible in their riding animals and homes, and he described its large commercial market and openness to trade with other regions.

Many Egyptian soldiers also became wealthy in Arabia through plunder, fines and similar gains.

Zakat was another important economic revenue that made Diriyah attractive to Muhammad Ali. During the First Saudi State the zakat collected from towns and Bedouin tribes was large and constituted one of the state's important sources of income.

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With the fall of the Saudi state into Muhammad Ali's hands, all zakat revenues would accrue to him. The importance of this revenue to the Egyptian government is demonstrated by Ibrahim Pasha's efforts after the fall of Diriyah to organize the collection of zakat. He assigned the emirs of towns and tribal chiefs to collect zakat from settled and Bedouin populations in their respective areas and warned them against failing to collect it. He also established garrisons in Najdi towns, both to guarantee security and to collect zakat, taxes and fines.

Another indication of Muhammad Ali's interest in this revenue was the expedition of Husayn Abu Zahir to Najd. Ibn Bishr records that he told the people of Najd that he had come to fight the Bedouins until they paid zakat, to return wrongfully taken property to settled people, and that he wanted only zakat. Elsewhere he records that Abu Zahir went to Jabal Shammar and likewise said that he wanted only zakat and demanded it from them.

Egyptian documents indicate that Muhammad Ali and Ibrahim dealt harshly with those who refused to pay zakat and other taxes, ordering their officials in Arabia to take the payments by force and punish those who resisted.

The author argues that these facts demonstrate the importance of zakat as an economic motive for the campaign.

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Muhammad Ali was clearly aware of the value of zakat as a source of revenue. A document records his concern, after taking control of the Hijaz, with collecting zakat from its inhabitants and Bedouins. Since Najd's towns and tribes were even more extensive than those of the Hijaz, the author concludes that he must have understood what he could gain in zakat and taxes after victory.

Control of al-Ahsa and access to the Arabian Gulf

Burckhardt states that Muhammad Ali had indicated his willingness to make peace with Imam Abdullah ibn Saud before Ibrahim Pasha's campaign if Abdullah would surrender al-Ahsa, one of the Saudis' most important and fertile regions and one situated on the Arabian Gulf. This indicates that Muhammad Ali's desire to reach this region was a powerful motive for destroying Diriyah's power. He had already tried to obtain it through negotiations; when that failed, force remained the only option.

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Reaching the Arabian Gulf was an important strategic and economic objective for any major power in Arabia. Muhammad Ali had large imperial ambitions and therefore sought control of the Gulf and the maritime commercial routes of the Arabian Peninsula. He had already secured the Red Sea route through his seizure of the Hijaz and his control of trade in Indian goods, coffee and other commodities. This would assist a later expansion toward Yemen and potentially make him a competitor to Britain in control of the seas and international commerce. To achieve this, the power ruling these parts of Arabia—Diriyah—had to be destroyed.

The Ibrahim Pasha campaign also provided Muhammad Ali with a new reason to press the Sultan for financial support from the Ottoman state.

The author argues that this account of the economic motives challenges the claim made by some researchers that the campaign exhausted the Egyptian treasury and that Muhammad Ali undertook it merely as a service to the Ottoman state and in obedience to the Sublime Porte.

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Even if the campaign had in fact burdened the Egyptian treasury, its victory ultimately produced returns many times greater than its cost.

Religious motives

The Ottoman state and its governor in Egypt, Muhammad Ali, portrayed the destruction of the Saudi state as an essentially religious mission intended to serve Islam and Muslims and to protect the two holy sanctuaries. This is evident in their correspondence. One document describes the mission as a great service and praises the efforts made on behalf of the Prophet's family.

The author argues that this presentation of the mission was rooted in opposition to the principles of the Salafi call and fear of its spread through the Islamic world and the consequent strengthening of Saudi influence. Since the call was a major source of Saudi power, destroying the Saudi state also meant destroying the movement upon which it was based.

Ottoman orders to Muhammad Ali were explicit on this point: the Saudis were to be turned away from what they had come to believe and 'reformed by the sword.'

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A contemporary French writer, Follabel, gives further evidence of Muhammad Ali's motives. He reports that one reason for Muhammad Ali's determination to destroy the Saudi state was fear that the principles of the Salafi call might spread in Egypt. According to his account, a debate took place in 1816 between Najdi scholars and scholars of al-Azhar in which the Azhar scholars were defeated. This supposedly increased Muhammad Ali's fear of the movement and strengthened his determination to destroy it as quickly as possible.

Military motives

Muhammad Ali's assignment to fight the Saudis in Arabia was highly useful to him. He regarded these wars as an opportunity to train his army in desert warfare outside Egypt and also as a means of removing commanders and troops whom he considered potential threats to his position in Egypt.

After returning from the Hijaz in August 1816, Muhammad Ali decided to impose a new, French-style system on his Albanian soldiers. The soldiers resisted and conspired to kill him, but he learned of the plot in time. He therefore decided to rid himself of them by sending them to Arabia in Ibrahim Pasha's campaign. This had been his method during his years of conflict with the Saudis: sending successive waves of troublesome troops to the Arabian theatre.

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By sending successive groups to Arabia during the war, Muhammad Ali was able to rid himself in practice of their disturbances. The large campaign also offered an opportunity to enhance Egypt's military standing within the Ottoman Empire.

Preparations for the Campaign

Muhammad Ali was determined to take all necessary measures to win this round, drawing on his previous experience in the war against the Saudis. He spent more than six months preparing the campaign. The preparations included:

1. Following the situation in Asir after its subjugation by force and attempting to control its tribes, so that he could later attack Diriyah with his rear secure.
2. Publicizing the campaign and emphasizing its strength, in an attempt to intimidate the Saudis and weaken Imam Abdullah ibn Saud's willingness to confront it or encourage him to negotiate in Egypt. The campaign was therefore preceded by a strong propaganda effort intended to make its mission easier and allow it to achieve its objectives quickly.

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The preparations and the scale of the campaign's strength were publicized so that news of them would reach Diriyah and spread among Saudi forces, frightening and intimidating them. Thus a powerful information campaign preceded the military expedition.

Muhammad Ali also contacted Bedouin tribes in the Arabian Peninsula and sought to bring them over to the Egyptian side. He wrote to tribal shaykhs before the campaign, asking them to submit to Ibrahim Pasha, provide the provisions and transport he needed, and protect supply caravans from plunder. He used different methods: winning them with gifts and bribes, or intimidating them with the strength of Ibrahim Pasha and the punishment they would receive if they opposed him.

He also sent the Sharif Rajih with Ibrahim Pasha to Medina to use his personal influence among the tribes, win their confidence and ensure their assistance.

The page identifies Rajih ibn Amr al-Shanbari as one of Sharif Ghalib's commanders and associates who was later won over by Muhammad Ali.

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The campaign required a huge budget and enormous expenditure. Although the Ottoman state sent funds to Muhammad Ali to assist in his mission to destroy Diriyah, Muhammad Ali also worked within Egypt to secure enough resources to carry it out properly. He imposed new taxes on peasants and craftsmen, relied on merchants to supply the expedition, and confiscated some people's property on trivial pretexts.

Sadleir states that despite the campaign's large budget, soldiers were responsible for their own expenses and weapons. The author believes this applied chiefly to mercenaries and Bedouins who participated in return for a share of war spoils and booty, while the state covered the costs of regular troops.

The campaign was therefore supplied with large sums of money for winning over Bedouins, paying salaries, hiring camels, transport and other expenses. Ibn Bishr records the very high cost of transporting artillery ammunition from Egypt to Diriyah.

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Food supplies and baggage

The campaign was supplied with an enormous stock of food in anticipation of a long war and the great distances involved. Large quantities of hardtack, wheat, flour, beans and other foodstuffs were carried. Ibn Bishr describes Muhammad Ali's concern that Ibrahim Pasha receive everything necessary, including onions brought from Egypt.

The expedition was also supplied with everything required for living on the march: tents, bedding, water skins, cooking and eating vessels and other equipment, as well as fodder and barley for the animals.

Medical mission

Ibrahim Pasha was careful to include a medical mission in the campaign. Its task was to prevent disease among the soldiers and treat the wounded, avoiding the problems experienced by his brother Tusun's army, where disease had spread and greatly weakened the expedition.

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The medical mission was headed by the Italian physician Antonio Scotto and included the surgeons Andrea Gentili and Tudesquini and the pharmacist Soccio. It was supplied with the medical equipment required for both treatment and surgery.

Weapons

The campaign was supplied with a variety of advanced weapons and military machines of the period, especially artillery: obus/howitzer-type guns, culverins, jabb artillery and mortars, all heavy and large guns; small, mobile jarkha guns; and desert guns intended for open warfare, known as field guns.

In 1816 Muhammad Ali established a cannon factory at the Citadel, the Tubkhana, to supply the campaign with artillery. Nevertheless, most of his guns were imported from Europe through European merchants in Egypt.

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The campaign was supplied with enormous quantities of shells, gunpowder and ammunition. Muhammad Ali also established a gunpowder factory on Rawda Island in the same year to supply Ibrahim Pasha's expedition. Personal weapons included rifles, pistols, edged weapons and other arms.

Recruitment of soldiers and campaign personnel

Muhammad Ali assembled the campaign's troops in different camps. Sadleir states that the first group of soldiers volunteered for his service, but the number was insufficient. Muhammad Ali therefore compelled soldiers already in service to remain and ordered that none be exempted from military service.

He also sent a detachment from the modern regular army whose nucleus Muhammad Ali had begun forming in 1815. Various craftsmen and skilled workers were attached to the army as well.

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The campaign also required personnel to maintain weapons and equipment and establish and service camps. Mangin states that Ibrahim Pasha stopped at Asyut on his way toward the Hijaz.

Training the campaign's military forces

Muhammad Ali took care to train his forces well, particularly after noticing shortcomings in their composition, training and discipline. He established training camps near Cairo, at Tura and in Upper Egypt, where the troops underwent serious training both to impose discipline and to prepare them to endure desert warfare.

Transport of the campaign

The expedition stimulated caravan traffic in Egypt because the army's supplies, weapons and ammunition had to be carried to Red Sea ports for shipment to the Hijaz. Muhammad Ali arranged the necessary ships and boats, transporting the supplies directly from Suez or by the Nile to Qena, from where they were carried by camel to al-Qusayr on the Red Sea.

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From al-Qusayr the supplies were shipped along the Red Sea to Yanbu. The fleet appears to have consisted of about thirty large vessels that sailed with the campaign.

Muhammad Ali also took care to provide sufficient camels to transport the campaign's equipment, ammunition and soldiers, both in Egypt and later in Arabia. In Egypt the Ababda tribe supplied six thousand camels to carry the campaign's baggage from Qena on the Nile to the port of al-Qusayr. Muhammad Ali also hired large numbers of camels from Syria and from Bedouin tribes in Arabia to carry the expedition through every stage from Yanbu to Diriyah, in addition to camels supplied from Egypt itself.

The page contains explanatory notes identifying al-Qusayr and the Ababda tribe and citing Egyptian and Ottoman archival documents concerning the provision of transport.

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Muhammad Ali also paid attention to the cavalry's horses and saddles. The Mamluk saddles normally used in Egypt were replaced by Moroccan saddles, which were later replaced by Baghdad saddles. The author suggests this was because cavalymen had begun using firearms under Muhammad Ali, and firearms required a more stable saddle so that the rider could aim properly.

Muhammad Ali also ensured that cavalymen had camels to carry their baggage and potentially to ride, because Egyptian horses could not withstand the hardships of travelling through a desert such as Najd.

Muhammad Ali entrusted preparations for the expedition to several close associates. Among the most important was Muhammad al-Mahruqi, head of Cairo's merchants. Al-Jabarti describes him as responsible for travel arrangements, Bedouin caravans and correspondence, information arriving from and travelling to the Hijaz, freight charges, shipping and the requirements of imports and exports, merchants' disputes, the pasha's missions and correspondence, raising money, and directing troops and ammunition toward the Hijaz.

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Muhammad Ali's preparations were designed to make the campaign strong enough to accomplish its assigned mission while avoiding earlier mistakes and benefiting from the experience his forces had acquired in their previous wars with the Saudis. The preparations did not end with the campaign's departure: troops, equipment and provisions continued to be sent throughout its stay in Arabia until the mission was successfully completed.

Composition of Ibrahim Pasha's Army

Ottoman documents provide a detailed description of the army Muhammad Ali prepared for the campaign. It included 400 cavalymen under Uzun Ali waiting in Medina to join Ibrahim Pasha; 880 cavalymen from Ibrahim Pasha's establishment in Jirjah; 400 cavalymen from Muhammad Ali's own establishment under Hasan Agha al-Qibrisi; another body of cavalry under junior commanders; and Bedouin cavalry commanded by shaykhs and sons of shaykhs.

The document lists contingents from the Awlad Ali, Jami'an, Fawayid, Harb and Juhaynah tribes. It also records a large infantry component. The author notes that the document's stated totals do not completely agree with the figures obtained by adding its individual contingents.

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The sources disagree about the size of Ibrahim Pasha's army. Burckhardt gives approximately 1,900 cavalry, a figure supported by Lorimer. Sadleir gives 400 cavalry and 9,500 infantry, in addition to the 400 cavalry under Uzun Ali stationed in Medina. Abd al-Rahman Zaki gives a broadly comparable total of about 10,060 soldiers, infantry and cavalry, plus thousands of Bedouins, although he does not identify his source.

The sources also differ over the composition of the army. Turks were certainly among its principal elements, since Muhammad Ali's armies in Egypt at this period were predominantly Turkish.

Another important group consisted of Albanians (Arna'ut), who formed a major component of the Egyptian army. The Ottoman government had sent large numbers of them to Egypt during the campaign against Napoleon in 1798–1801, in which Muhammad Ali had served as an officer. They were also regarded as troublesome troops.

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The Ottoman documents refer to several additional groups, including Arab Bedouins participating in the campaign. One document identifies contingents from Arab tribes in Egypt. Burckhardt says Ibrahim Pasha gathered 1,900 Libyan Bedouin cavalry, selecting men from the most warlike tribes of Upper Egypt. This indicates that Arab cavalry from Egypt formed part of the army. al-Halwani likewise states that Hawara Arabs from Egypt were among Ibrahim's forces.

Moroccan cavalry also participated. Ibrahim Pasha complained to his father in a letter about Moroccan Arab cavalry, saying that he considered them of little value in war and requesting Turkish troops instead. Sadleir gives a force of Turkish and Moroccan cavalry, providing further evidence of a substantial Moroccan presence.

The author notes that the Ottoman documents and other sources therefore reveal a multi-ethnic army.

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Mangin likewise supports the presence of Moroccan troops and describes a separate Moroccan cavalry formation under Hasan al-Kashif.

Ibn Bishr describes Ibrahim Pasha's army as composed of elements from Egypt, Rum, the Maghreb, Syria and Iraq. 'Rum' here means Turks. This agrees with the evidence for Egyptian, Turkish and Moroccan troops but uniquely mentions soldiers from Iraq and Syria, both Ottoman territories. The author considers it quite possible that troops from these regions were sent from Egypt.

The account attributed to Inghiri gives a total of 7,000 men composed of Egyptians, Turks, Circassians and Moroccans. It confirms the Egyptian, Turkish and Moroccan elements but is distinctive in mentioning Circassians.

From these sources the author begins to reconstruct the army as a composite Ottoman-Egyptian force.

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The author summarizes the army's composition as follows:

- Ottomans: troops commonly described as bashi-bazouks, irregular soldiers drawn from various parts of the Ottoman Empire. In Egypt the principal elements were Turks and Albanians, together with some Egyptians. The campaign also appears to have included fighting men from the Ottoman provinces of Iraq and Syria.

- Moroccans: apparently largely Bedouin and probably including mercenaries. This may explain Ibrahim Pasha's concern in his letter to his father about their loyalty and his desire for Turkish troops instead.
- Circassians: perhaps part of the regular force Muhammad Ali was attempting to establish in 1816. The author suggests that the Mamluks mentioned by other sources may have included the Circassians recorded by Inghiri.
- Arab Bedouin tribes in Egypt, together with large numbers of Hijazi and Najdi Bedouins who joined the campaign after it arrived in Arabia.

The author also notes a small but significant European contingent who accompanied the expedition as military advisers and technical specialists, including two French officers.

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The European specialists included French officers, one of whom was the particularly important officer Vaisseir. The author emphasizes that, although small in number, these European advisers and technicians were an important component of the modern military organization.

Commanders of the Campaign

Muhammad Ali had originally been expected to lead the campaign himself. Ottoman documents record him giving the Sultan health-related excuses for his inability to command the expedition personally and stating that he had chosen his son Ibrahim to replace him. The author suggests that Muhammad Ali was reluctant to leave Egypt because he feared that the Sultan might use his absence as a reason to remove him, and because he also feared the possibility of new British or French campaigns against Egypt.

After the death of Tusun Pasha, the commander-in-chief of the Egyptian campaigns in Arabia, Ibrahim Pasha was selected to lead the new expedition because of qualities that his father believed suited him for the task. Although only twenty-six, Ibrahim was described as brave and bold, physically tough, severe in battle and deeply obedient to his father. His ability and success in governing Upper Egypt also contributed to his selection.

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Ibrahim Pasha's Command

Muhammad Ali appointed several commanders alongside Ibrahim to lead individual components of the army. The Moroccan cavalry was commanded by Hasan al-Kashif, also called al-Qibrisi. The Medina detachment was commanded by Uzun Ali.

Muhammad Ali also appointed junior commanders known as bakbashi, a Turkish military rank for officers commanding roughly 100 or 150 soldiers. He stated that he appointed them to accompany the Bedouin cavalry and support them from the rear during raids. Among these officers were Qasim Agha, Baba Mustafa and Ismail Agha. Commanders of the supply units that arrived throughout the campaign

were also appointed, while the Bedouin tribal contingents remained under their own shaykhs or the shaykhs' sons.

Progress of the Campaign

Once all preparations had been completed, the campaign began moving from Egypt toward Arabia with the objective of destroying the First Saudi State at Diriyah. The first movement consisted of a force of several hundred Moroccan cavalry under Hasan al-Kashif, which travelled overland toward Suez and then Yanbu to await Ibrahim Pasha and the rest of the expedition. A force of about 2,000 infantry under Qasim Agha, Baba Mustafa and Ismail Agha travelled by the Nile to Qena, where Ibrahim would join them. Muhammad Ali also ordered provisions, ammunition and military equipment to be transported by boat along the Nile to Qena.

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Commanders and the movement of the campaign

In addition to Ibrahim Pasha, several commanders were appointed over the army's separate formations. Hasan al-Kashif (or al-Qibrisi) commanded the Moroccan cavalry, while Uzun Ali commanded the Medina detachment. Muhammad Ali also appointed junior officers known as *bakbashis*, a Turkish military rank for commanders of approximately 100–150 men. He explained that these officers were to accompany the Bedouin cavalry and support them from the rear during raids. Among them were Qasim Agha, Baba Mustafa and Ismail Agha. Supply commanders also arrived during the campaign, while the Bedouin contingents remained under their own shaykhs or their sons.

Movement of the campaign

After completing its preparations, the expedition began moving from Egypt toward Arabia with the objective of destroying the First Saudi State at Diriyah. The first force consisted of Moroccan cavalry under Hasan al-Kashif, which travelled overland to Suez and then to Yanbu to await Ibrahim Pasha. A force of about 2,000 infantry under Qasim Agha, Baba Mustafa and Ismail Agha travelled by the Nile to Qena, where Ibrahim was to join them. Muhammad Ali also ordered provisions, ammunition and military equipment to be carried by boat to Qena.

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The Moroccan cavalry force travelled overland to Suez and then to Yanbu, where it was to remain until Ibrahim Pasha arrived. The infantry force travelled by the Nile to Qena, while Muhammad Ali ordered supplies and military equipment to be sent there by boat.

On 10 Shawwal 1232 AH (September 1817), Ibrahim Pasha left Cairo by the Nile for Qena, where he joined his troops. He then supervised the loading of the campaign's equipment.

The author notes a disagreement in some later accounts about the route taken by Ibrahim. The evidence used here indicates that the main expedition travelled from Egypt to al-Qusayr and then directly to Yanbu, preceded only by Hasan al-Kashif's cavalry detachment.

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Ibrahim Pasha arranged for 6,000 camels, supplied by the Ababda Arabs, to carry baggage to the Red Sea port of al-Qusayr, while the infantry covered the distance on foot. After reaching al-Qusayr, he remained several days loading the ships with the campaign's equipment and then departed with his forces for Yanbu in early Dhu al-Qa'dah 1232 AH (September 1817). The expedition reached Yanbu about six days later.

The campaign had two principal routes available from the Hijaz to Najd. The first ran Yanbu–Medina–Qasim, crossing northern Najd to Diriyah. The second ran Jeddah–Mecca–Ta'if–Turabah, crossing western Najd to Diriyah.

Ibrahim selected the northern route through Yanbu, Medina and Qasim, following Muhammad Ali's recommendations. The author gives several reasons for this choice.

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Reasons for choosing the northern route

1. The tribes north of the Hijaz and northern Najd were considered less committed to the Saudi state and the call than the tribes farther south. Since the campaign's success depended upon winning the loyalty of the tribes through whose territory it would pass, Ibrahim believed the northern tribes would be easier to buy or intimidate into submission.
2. Ottoman authority in Medina was considered stronger than in Mecca, and the Ottomans did not trust the Sharif of Mecca, who had resisted direct Ottoman control.
3. Some inhabitants of Qasim had already corresponded with Tusun Pasha and subsequently with Muhammad Ali.
4. The northern region was densely populated, allowing it to be subdued and then used as a chain of supply centers on the road to Diriyah.
5. Strong disturbances existed in southern Hijaz—in Bishah, Ranyah and Turabah—which could disrupt the expedition if it took the southern route. Northern Hijaz was comparatively more stable.
6. The northern route offered a secure line of retreat and easier delivery of supplies because of its easier terrain and the availability of wells. Ibrahim feared that the southern route through Turabah would expose his communications to interruption because of the scarcity of water.
7. The northern route was closer to the Ottoman provinces of Iraq and Syria, allowing possible assistance to reach the expedition.

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The campaign at Yanbu

Yanbu was selected as the expedition's landing port because it was relatively far from the western frontier of Najd, possessed fortified towers, and had easy communications with Cairo and Alexandria. Since the Egyptians had captured it earlier, it had already become a military depot. Its harbor was suitable for large vessels and offered protection from the waves. It was therefore chosen as the expedition's principal anchorage and first depot, particularly because the campaign intended to reach Diriyah through Qasim from the north.

The fleet anchored at Yanbu on 1 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1232 AH (September 1817). Ibrahim Pasha and senior officers landed at the governor's palace. The troops and equipment were unloaded, and Ibrahim ordered a camp to be established outside the walls of Yanbu at a nearby place called Milqa. He then ordered a military manoeuvre in which he displayed his army.

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The purpose of the manoeuvre was partly to assess the army's condition and capabilities. The author suggests that Ibrahim also intended it as psychological warfare: to impress and intimidate the inhabitants and to make reports of the campaign's strength reach Imam Abdullah ibn Saud. It was unlikely that Abdullah lacked observers following the Egyptian army and reporting its movements.

This policy appears to have produced results. When Ibrahim ordered neighbouring villages and tribes to provide transport animals, they were compelled to supply large numbers of horses and camels and appeared in delegations to declare loyalty and obedience.

Sources disagree about the length of the army's stay at Yanbu. Mangin says it moved to Medina ten days after arrival, once sufficient camels had been obtained. Sadleir says it waited about forty days in its camp near Yanbu for support from neighbouring tribes. The Ottoman documents do not give a precise duration, but their information concerning Ibrahim's arrival in Medina supports the shorter account.

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Ibrahim Pasha in Medina

Ibrahim travelled to Medina accompanied only by his personal guard after ordering the army to move ahead. He entered Medina through the Egyptian Gate and was received by rifle fire. The Aga of the Haram met him with eighty guards of the Prophet's Mosque. Ibrahim visited the Prophet's tomb.

The sources differ over the precise date of his arrival. The author compares the accounts of Mangin, Edward Johann and an Ottoman document from the governor of Syria. The documentary evidence places Ibrahim's arrival before the Syrian pilgrimage caravan reached Medina.

When Imam Abdullah ibn Saud learned that Ibrahim was in Medina, he considered it prudent to correspond with him, apparently reminding him of the conditions of the peace concluded with Tusun. This may have been an attempt either to persuade Ibrahim not to advance on Diriyah or to delay the campaign until Saudi preparations were complete.

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Ibrahim did not respond to Abdullah's correspondence. He had already received orders from the Sublime Porte not to answer letters from Imam Abdullah. The Sultan also refused permission for the governor of Syria, Hafiz Pasha, to respond to Abdullah's letters or mediate with Ibrahim, because such correspondence could threaten the objectives of the Ottoman government if it encouraged an understanding between the Saudi forces and the invading Egyptian army.

On the fourth day of Eid al-Adha, Ibrahim left Medina, joined his army outside the city, and ordered it to camp at the village of al-Suwaydrah.

The campaign at al-Suwaydrah

The expedition used al-Suwaydrah as a temporary depot for provisions and ammunition. The Egyptian army demanded assistance from neighbouring tribes, but their shaykhs refused, remaining loyal to Imam Abdullah ibn Saud. Ibrahim consequently sent a force of 2,000 infantry and cavalry to punish them.

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The Egyptian force met approximately 100 men from the neighbouring tribes about two days from camp and attacked them. After slight resistance the tribesmen were defeated and fled toward their tents. The Egyptians followed, plundered the camp, and returned after taking about 100 prisoners, together with women, children and sheep. Ibrahim returned the women and children to their families, apparently as part of his policy of winning the Bedouins over to his side.

This was the first military confrontation between the Saudis and Ibrahim Pasha's expedition. The army remained at al-Suwaydrah for about fifteen days and then received orders to move toward al-Hanakiyah.

The campaign at al-Hanakiyah

Ibrahim had already sent a force of 500 cavalry from al-Suwaydrah to seize al-Hanakiyah. Because Medina was nearby, he returned there with some officers to pray at the Prophet's Mosque. He remained in Medina for nineteen days while his army reached al-Hanakiyah and constructed the necessary fortifications and forts. He then went to join the army once the camp was ready.

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Military activity at al-Hanakiyah

Before examining the campaign's military operations at al-Hanakiyah, the author divides the local situation into three principal parties: the Egyptian expedition under Ibrahim Pasha; the Saudi forces under Imam Abdullah ibn Saud; and the Bedouin tribes living between Medina, Qasim and Jabal Shammar.

Ibrahim, camped at al-Hanakiyah, believed that the tribes of the region had to be subdued and that he needed a decisive battle with Imam Abdullah before entering Najd. His communications and supply caravans had to be secured so that he would not be trapped in the interior.

Abdullah appears to have adopted the opposite strategy: attack Ibrahim at an advanced position before he entered Najd. He therefore mobilized a large force both to prevent Ibrahim from advancing and to punish tribes that had allied themselves with him.

The Saudi plan appears to have been to bring about 10,000 fighters close to al-Hanakiyah, harass the Egyptians and draw them into the desert, while another force of about 30,000, mostly Bedouins, moved against Medina and then attacked Ibrahim's rear. Faisal ibn Saud was to move toward Mecca, Jeddah and Yanbu with the assistance of supporters of the call in Asir, cutting the Egyptian communications with Egypt.

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The Bedouin tribes of the region had divided loyalties. Some supported Ibrahim Pasha while others remained loyal to Imam Abdullah. Muhammad Ali had already corresponded with the Bedouins to encourage them to support his son and provide assistance. Ibrahim therefore used both inducements and intimidation to obtain their cooperation.

The tribes between Qasim and Medina fought Ibrahim. Their positions subsequently changed through force, money, or political and personal interests. At first they generally did not declare loyalty to Ibrahim, so he confronted them militarily. The author proceeds to examine these raids and their effect on tribal allegiance.

Ibrahim carried out a number of raids against tribes around al-Hanakiyah. The sources disagree about their details: Ottoman documents record some actions while foreign sources record others, sometimes agreeing with the documentary evidence.

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On the day after Ibrahim reached his camp at al-Hanakiyah, 8 Muharram 1233 AH (November 1817), he began active operations. He went out with 450 cavalry toward the region between Jabal Shammar and al-Rass. There he found groups from Harb and Mutayr at a place called Jubaylah, together with a group of the Muhallaf section of Anizah nearby.

Ibrahim sent forty cavalymen to reconnoitre. The Harb and Mutayr fighters surprised them. When Ibrahim heard the gunfire, he attacked quickly. The tribes were defeated; about 300 of their men were killed. Ibrahim captured 700 camels and 5,000 sheep and plundered their belongings.

The Muhallaf of Anizah fled, and Ibrahim was unable to pursue them because his horses were exhausted. He returned to al-Hanakiyah.

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Ibrahim later intended to attack the Anizah group. A letter from Muhammad Ali to his agent in Istanbul reported that Ibrahim had told his father he intended to raid the tribe. Muhammad Ali had not yet received a report directly from Ibrahim, but the captain of a ship arriving from Yanbu reported that Ibrahim had attacked and defeated them and taken substantial booty.

Ibrahim then undertook stronger raids intended to penetrate Najd and confront all tribes resisting him. In Safar 1233 AH he went out with a force of approximately 1,850 cavalry carrying provisions for twenty days. Sheikh Ghanim ibn Madyan of Harb accompanied him with 500 men, while a group of Bedouins served as guides in the vanguard. Ibrahim attacked Saudi-aligned tribal positions one after another, forcing them to withdraw farther into the interior.

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Ibrahim returned to al-Hanakiyah after this operation with about 850 camels, 4,500 sheep and a large quantity of military supplies. His losses were about twenty killed and several wounded.

He also sent a force against the Utaybah tribe. A detachment pursued them into the desert after they fled with their money, camels and sheep. The Egyptians captured about seventy men and sent them to Ibrahim, who ordered them killed. On the return journey the Egyptians suffered from shortages of water and provisions because the tribesmen had fled to the wells, filled them in, and destroyed anything they could not carry.

Ibrahim later left al-Hanakiyah for Jabal Shammar with 600 cavalry, while another force of about 1,000 cavalry and 4,000 Bedouin riders remained in the rear. After nine days he reached Jabal Shammar, where the local tribes gathered to fight him. A fierce battle followed, with the Bedouins repeatedly regrouping and attacking again.

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The fighting around Jabal Shammar continued for several hours. Ibrahim's forces eventually defeated the tribes. The campaign captured about 10,000 sheep and 1,900 camels. The booty was divided, with the Bedouins receiving their share and the remainder going to the soldiers. Ibrahim returned to al-Hanakiyah after an absence of about twelve days. His losses were reported as only five killed and ten wounded, most of the casualties having fallen among the Bedouin auxiliaries loyal to him.

Ibrahim then left al-Hanakiyah with 1,500 of his own men and approximately 1,200 Bedouins, intending a surprise attack on al-Rass. Heavy rain and sandstorms disrupted the march, however, and the expedition could not reach its objective on schedule. With provisions running short, Ibrahim turned back. During the return he attacked tribes, captured many prisoners and took large numbers of camels.

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The troops had been exhausted by these raids, so Ibrahim decided to spend the summer at al-Hanakiyah. He ordered wooden houses to be built for the army and waited for reinforcements requested from Egypt.

The success of Ibrahim's raids and the submission of many Bedouin tribes prompted Imam Abdullah ibn Saud to decide to confront him and punish the tribes that had submitted. He ordered the people of Washm and Sudayr to send military contingents, which joined the forces of Qasim under the command of its emir, Hujaylan ibn Hamad. These forces established a camp at al-Ghamis, where they remained for four months.

Imam Abdullah prepared his own army and left Diriyah, moving toward al-Rass. He summoned Hujaylan and the Qasim forces and then advanced along Wadi al-Rummah toward the mountains of al-'Alam, intending to attack the Bedouin tribes allied with Ibrahim.

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The Saudi army moved toward the areas where Ibrahim's forces were operating. Abdullah's intention was to prevent the Egyptian army from establishing a secure base for its advance into Najd and to restore Saudi authority among the tribes.

The author describes the ensuing confrontation at Mawiyah. Abdullah's forces relied heavily on their numerical superiority, their knowledge of the desert and the speed and skill of their cavalry. The Egyptians depended on their superior weapons and technical methods of warfare, as well as their expectation that some Bedouin tribes among the Saudi forces would defect or withdraw.

The resulting battle became a major Saudi defeat. It prevented Abdullah's original plan of destroying Ibrahim's army, capturing Medina and then attacking the Egyptian force at al-Hanakiyah from the rear.

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The Saudi defeat at Mawiyah caused Abdullah to abandon the offensive plan. He gathered his forces and withdrew toward Najd, then to al-Khabra and Unaizah, where he remained for a time strengthening the defenses of the towns of Qasim against the expected Egyptian advance. He intended eventually to return to Diriyah and strengthen its defenses as well.

Ibrahim Pasha at Mawiyah

The day after the battle Ibrahim reached the battlefield, secured the artillery and other booty, and ordered prisoners to be killed. He brought the remainder of the expedition from al-Hanakiyah to Mawiyah, leaving forty men to protect the position. He also requested provisions and ammunition from Medina and summoned cavalry that had recently arrived at Mecca from Egypt.

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Ibrahim remained at Mawiyah while preparing for the next stage. He received additional cavalry and artillery and established a camp from which he could advance toward Qasim. He decided to remain there for about a month so that troops exhausted by the battles and the long march could rest.

During this pause Ibrahim also launched another raid against Jabal Shammar. He secretly organized a detachment and personally led it. The raid captured large numbers of camels, sheep and money and took many prisoners before returning to Mawiyah. The author suggests that the operation served both to obtain material resources to support the campaign and to intimidate the tribes around Jabal Shammar, demonstrating Egyptian strength before the advance into Qasim.

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End of the first phase of the campaign

The first phase of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign had lasted more than nine months, from his arrival at Yanbu until his departure from Mawiyah for Qasim. During this period he concentrated on strengthening the Egyptian position, securing the region between the Hijaz and Najd, and preparing his army before risking a deep advance into the Najdi desert.

Before moving inland, Ibrahim had accomplished several important tasks: he had subdued many of the Bedouin tribes by force, money and intimidation; trained his soldiers for desert warfare; established camps, fortifications and garrisons along the frontier between the Hijaz and Najd; organized supply depots from Yanbu to al-Hanakiyah; and arranged for continuous supplies from Egypt.

He had also used military manoeuvres and the display of his forces to create fear among the Saudis and to spread reports of Egyptian strength. The campaign had obtained substantial quantities of provisions, camels and livestock through raids and through the cooperation of tribes that had changed allegiance.

The author concludes that Ibrahim was now ready to enter Najd in earnest. The next stage would take the campaign into Qasim, beginning the advance that would eventually lead to Diriyah.

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The Egyptian campaign suffered approximately 250 killed and wounded in the battle, according to Ottoman documents, which also recorded the deaths and injuries of several commanders of detachments and of Ibn Madyan's men.

The foregoing shows that the Saudis entered the battle relying on their numerical superiority, their knowledge of the desert, their ability to endure its hardships, and the speed and skill of their cavalry. The Egyptian forces relied on the strength and quality of their weapons, their technical superiority in methods of warfare, and the expectation that some Bedouin tribes within the Saudi army would defect and withdraw easily from the battlefield. This indeed occurred. The result was a serious Saudi defeat that prevented Abdullah's plan to attack Ibrahim Pasha, inflict losses on him, seize Medina and Jeddah, and cut the campaign's supply routes before attacking it from the rear.

After the defeat at Mawiyah, Imam Abdullah gathered his forces and withdrew from Najd toward al-Khabra and then Unaizah, where he remained for some time strengthening the defenses of Qasim's towns against Ibrahim Pasha's expected advance. He intended eventually to return to Diriyah to strengthen its defenses as well.

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Ibrahim Pasha at Mawiyah

On the day after the battle Ibrahim Pasha reached the battlefield, secured the artillery and other booty, and ordered the prisoners to be killed. He brought the remainder of the expedition from al-Hanakiyah to Mawiyah, leaving forty men there to protect it. He also wrote to Medina requesting provisions and ammunition, and sent to Mecca for cavalry that had recently arrived from Egypt.

Ibrahim remained in the area while preparing to advance toward Qasim. He decided to spend about a month in the camp so that the forces that had been exhausted by the battles and long journeys could recover.

During this period Ibrahim also prepared a second raid against Jabal Shammar. He secretly organized a battalion and personally led it. He attacked the area, captured large numbers of camels and sheep and considerable property, and took many prisoners. He then returned to Mawiyah to prepare for his advance toward Qasim. The operation appears to have been intended both to obtain material resources for the campaign and to intimidate the tribes around Jabal Shammar by demonstrating the strength of the Egyptian army.

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The campaign in Qasim

After Ibrahim Pasha had achieved his objectives at al-Hanakiyah, he judged the time suitable to penetrate Najd. He wanted to exploit the enthusiasm of his troops following their victory at Mawiyah and the shaken morale of the Saudis after their defeat. He also wanted to take advantage of Faisal al-Duwaish, chief of Mutayr, who had joined him and promised to meet him at al-Rass. Ibrahim therefore moved toward Qasim after allowing his army sufficient time to rest.

Ibrahim left Mawiyah in the first days of July 1818, in mid-Sha'ban 1233 AH, at the head of about 4,000 infantry, 1,200 cavalry excluding the Bedouins accompanying him, and 100 artillerymen equipped with eight ordinary guns, a howitzer and a mortar. During the march Ibrahim suffered an illness that forced him to stop for six days in his tent. He nevertheless ordered Uzun Ali to move ahead with a vanguard of 2,000 men and three guns, while the main body remained behind until he recovered.

The campaign advanced cautiously and took precautions against surprise attacks, disruption of its communications and shortages of water. Its progress was helped greatly when Faisal al-Duwaish met the expedition, supplied provisions and transport, and joined his forces to the Egyptian army.

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The campaign entered the village of al-Shananah, which had been largely evacuated after Imam Abdullah ibn Saud moved its able-bodied men to al-Rass to reinforce the garrison. The elderly, women and children and the livestock had been moved to al-Washm, and the wells had been filled so that the Egyptian forces could not use them. Exhausted by the march, the campaign remained several days at al-Shananah to rest.

After the rest period Ibrahim advanced toward al-Rass with 500 of his own cavalry in the lead. Before reaching the town he conducted a reconnaissance to observe the situation and identify the terrain. He encountered a detachment of the Saudi garrison and fought it. Two of his men were killed and five wounded. The following day he ordered the army to move against al-Rass and began the siege.

Siege of al-Rass

Al-Rass was one of the largest and most strongly fortified towns of Qasim. It possessed a powerful military fortress and substantial walls of small stones and strong yellow clay. The walls consisted of three layers, making them difficult to breach, and a deep ditch had been dug around the town. Forces from neighbouring areas had been gathered there. Imam Abdullah sent a garrison under Hasan ibn Muzru and Turki ibn Abdullah al-Hazani, while the inhabitants themselves participated in the defense.

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On 4 July 1818 Ibrahim Pasha ordered his troops to surround al-Rass. Artillery was placed at several positions and immediately began a heavy, continuous bombardment of the walls, lasting five days. The bombardment appears to have destroyed three of the town's towers and part of the defenses.

First assault on al-Rass

On the sixth day of the siege Ibrahim ordered an assault on the fortress at two o'clock in the morning. The agreed signal for the infantry attack was a cannon shot. Once it was fired, the infantry advanced. Other units reconnoitred the surrounding area to prevent a Saudi intervention, while Uzun Ali and his Moroccan troops conducted a diversionary attack to draw the defenders' attention away from the main assault.

The Egyptian infantry reached one of the towers and captured it. The Saudi garrison, however, discovered the direction of the attack and resisted for four hours with spears, rifles and two guns. According to Ottoman documents, the defenders placed palm fronds beneath the tower and set them on fire. The smoke forced the Egyptian soldiers inside to jump into the ditch. About sixty men escaped and returned to their positions. Egyptian losses in this assault were approximately forty killed and sixty wounded.

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Sadleir gives a different account of the first assault. He says Ibrahim ordered large bundles of long palm branches and sacks filled with straw to be prepared, and selected 600 infantrymen for the attack. The men entered the ditch but were unable to climb because the bundles and sacks were insufficient. The defenders then opened fire from the walls, forcing the Egyptian soldiers to retreat. Ibrahim, enraged by the failure, reportedly ordered soldiers who attempted to withdraw to be shot by his Mamluks and denied burial to those who died.

After this failure Ibrahim strengthened the siege and established additional trenches and batteries. Despite the losses caused by fighting, wounds, illness and the climate, he did not abandon the siege. He requested fresh supplies from his father, who sent nearly 2,000 artillery shells and additional infantry under Qur Sulayman Agha and Sulayman al-Hajj Ali Agha. Ibrahim also requested a specialist mining unit because of the strength of al-Rass's fortifications.

Second assault on al-Rass

After receiving the reinforcements Ibrahim prepared another assault. He ordered large palm trees to be cut down to construct elevated defensive works, believing that the failure of the first attack had resulted partly from the lack of high positions from which his artillery could fire effectively. The engineer accompanying the campaign misunderstood his intention and cut the trees into small pieces, piling them up instead of using them as supports for earthworks. The works therefore collapsed under artillery fire, exposing the Egyptian attackers to Saudi fire. Ibrahim also attempted to place three mines near the wall, but the defenders detected and neutralized them.

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While the siege continued, Imam Abdullah ordered his brother Faisal to operate outside al-Rass and attempt to cut Ibrahim's supply lines. Faisal succeeded in intercepting a supply convoy and taking its contents. Ibrahim therefore left the siege with about 1,000 men, confronted Faisal's forces and defeated them. The Saudi losses were reported at about 180 killed, with some cavalymen wounded. Ibrahim did not pursue them and returned the same day to his camp around al-Rass, where he again requested supplies from his father.

Third assault on al-Rass

Ibrahim organized a third assault. In a report to his father he stated that the advance was made at the soldiers' request. About ten soldiers managed to enter the fortress, but the defenders killed them, and no other soldiers could advance because the Saudis opened rifle fire from the walls. Ibrahim attempted to advance personally, but his commanders and treasurer prevented him from doing so. He nevertheless ordered all commanders present to advance. The attack again failed under intense fire and the Egyptian troops withdrew. The campaign suffered heavy losses, including the deaths and wounds of several senior officers.

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Failure of the siege of al-Rass

Ibrahim Pasha failed in all of his attacks on al-Rass, and the siege lasted approximately three and a half months. Several factors explain the failure.

First was the unexpectedly fierce resistance of the Saudi garrison and the cooperation of the inhabitants. Women and elderly people encouraged the defenders from behind the walls and treated the wounded. They also illuminated the battlefield at night by burning dry palm fronds coated with resin, enabling the defenders to continue fighting.

Second was the strength of al-Rass's fortifications. Although the Egyptians fired large quantities of shells at the walls, the bombardment caused little damage because the fortifications were strongly constructed. Ottoman documents describe the walls as being made of small stones mixed with clay and built in three layers. A large number of shells was required to destroy any one layer, and the inhabitants quickly repaired damage caused by bombardment. They also rapidly neutralized mines placed around the fortress.

Third, Saudi forces operating near al-Rass forced the Egyptian army to divide its attention between the siege and protecting its communications. Two Saudi companies carrying large quantities of provisions managed to penetrate the Egyptian lines and enter al-Rass safely. This reduced the effectiveness of the siege.

Fourth, the first assault was poorly prepared: no breach had been made in the walls, no adequate means of scaling them had been provided, and no deep trench had been prepared close enough to allow the attackers to approach safely. The second assault was undermined by mistakes in constructing the earthworks and by the failure of the mines. The third appears to have been launched without adequate artillery support.

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Fifth, poor weather conditions inflicted heavy losses on the besieging army in men and equipment and contributed to the increasingly difficult position of Ibrahim Pasha.

Sixth, supplies reached Ibrahim slowly because of a dispute between the infantry commander at Yanbu, Bashu al-Arna'uti, and the governor of Yanbu, Salim Agha. Bashu killed the governor and burned the provisions and ammunition stored at Yanbu. Ibrahim subsequently requested supplies from the governor of Mecca, Hasan Pasha, until new supplies could arrive from Egypt. The governor of Mecca sent 400 soldiers under Rashwan Agha.

Despite the differences among Ottoman documents, local Najdi sources and contemporary foreign accounts, most sources agree on the principal events of the siege. The failure of the attacks made Ibrahim more determined to overcome al-Rass. He continued to strengthen the siege, and eventually received substantial reinforcements under Mustafa Agha Jelik ("Steel"), including about 11,000 artillery shells, 100,000 French riyals, and 800 infantry divided into two units of 400 men under Muhammad Ali Agha and Ahmad Agha Abu Shanab.

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Ibrahim's Bedouin allies also moved to assist him. The campaign's communications behind the army remained secure for most of the time because of the support of Faisal al-Duwaish and other allies.

With the arrival of these supplies, Ibrahim constructed a tower near the fortress of al-Rass, matching it in height and strength. He placed artillery there directed against the fortress walls and began an intense artillery and rifle battle. The fighting lasted 40 days and caused parts of the fortress to collapse, placing severe pressure on the inhabitants and making movement within the town extremely difficult.

The siege continued until Eid al-Adha, on 10 Dhu al-Hijjah 1233 AH (October 1818). The people of al-Rass wrote to Imam Abdullah in Unaizah asking him to intervene quickly and lift the siege, or to permit them to negotiate with Ibrahim Pasha. Abdullah was unable to intervene because the Egyptian reinforcements were continually strengthening Ibrahim's position. The inhabitants, exhausted by the prolonged siege, increasingly called for peace.

A settlement was eventually concluded guaranteeing the inhabitants of al-Rass security and requiring the garrison to leave. Ottoman documents add a further condition: three leading shaykhs of al-Rass were to be delivered to Ibrahim Pasha as hostages to guarantee the agreement.

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Foreign contemporary sources give a different account of the negotiations. They say that after the siege had continued for a long time, Abdullah ibn Saud entered negotiations and sent two men, Sheikh Muhammad al-Hanbali and Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad, to Ibrahim Pasha offering peace if he would lift the siege. Ibrahim, despite his difficult military position, rejected the proposal and warned the commander of the garrison, Muhammad ibn Muzru, that the town must surrender. Muhammad ibn Muzru reportedly replied: "Come and take it," and the siege continued.

Negotiations were subsequently renewed. The documentary and local sources therefore describe the settlement as the outcome of a prolonged and exhausting siege, while some foreign accounts emphasize Ibrahim's refusal to negotiate until the defenders' position had deteriorated.

The campaign after al-Rass

The fall of al-Rass allowed Ibrahim to move deeper into Qasim. The author emphasizes that the siege demonstrated the difficulty of overcoming strongly fortified Najdi towns and the importance of artillery, supplies and local cooperation in the Egyptian campaign.

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The campaign moved toward Unaizah, one of the largest and most strongly fortified towns of Qasim. Imam Abdullah had left a military garrison there, which encouraged the inhabitants to resist Ibrahim Pasha rather than surrender immediately, contrary to his expectations.

Ibrahim brought his artillery against the strong walls of Unaizah. The town surrendered on the first day of the bombardment, but the garrison in Qasr al-Safa resisted strongly. Ibrahim therefore

intensified the bombardment for two days and nights, destroying part of the castle walls. A shell then struck the castle's powder magazine, causing a powerful explosion that destroyed the surrounding structure and killed two men. The garrison consequently requested a settlement and security.

Ibrahim granted them safe conduct, seized their guns and equipment, and took hostages to prevent future rebellion. He allowed the garrison to leave wherever it wished. He required the inhabitants to provide his army with essential supplies or to pay the money needed to purchase them.

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While Ibrahim was at Unaizah he received news that his supporters had defeated a group of people from the south and Bedouins who had come to assist Imam Abdullah against the Egyptian forces. Ibrahim had apparently sent forces, probably including Bedouin allies loyal to him, against two tribes near Diriyah. They drove them back and captured their livestock and equipment.

After the fall of Unaizah, Hujaylan ibn Hamad, emir of Buraidah, sent a representative to Ibrahim Pasha on 8 November 1817 requesting security. Ibrahim agreed on condition that Hujaylan send his son Abdullah as a hostage.

Ibrahim moved toward Buraidah in early Muharram 1234 AH to receive the town. Hujaylan then changed his mind and decided to resist. The garrison prepared for battle and opened fire with guns and rifles as the Egyptian army approached. Ibrahim brought his artillery close to the walls. A fierce battle followed in which the Egyptians destroyed four of Buraidah's towers and entered the town, killing about sixty defenders. The defenders of the remaining towers then surrendered.

Hujaylan continued to resist, however, placing three guns at the town gate. After another period of fighting he requested security. Ibrahim agreed on condition that Hujaylan surrender his guns and equipment and provide his son Abdullah as a hostage.

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Hujaylan accepted these terms and peace was concluded. His submission brought the entire Qasim region under Ibrahim Pasha's authority, and the emirs of its towns sent representatives to him declaring their submission.

Ibrahim remained in Buraidah for about two months to reorganize the campaign after conquering this important region of Najd. As he penetrated farther into Najd, the distance from his supply centers in Medina increased. He therefore took several measures to secure his position.

First, he sought to secure his army's line of retreat. Since he would soon be in the heart of Najd, he ordered the destruction of the forts and towers of important towns in Qasim so that they could not be used against him later.

Second, he established a military garrison at Unaizah. He repaired its fortress, constructed strong earthworks for artillery, and built a strong enclosure around the camp. He left a force there under

Muhammad Agha, together with eighty cavalymen, and left sick and wounded infantrymen for treatment.

Third, he restored some former local leaders whom the Saudi government had removed from office. Their resentment toward Saudi rule made them useful allies. Muhammad Agha, commander of the garrison, was appointed general governor of Qasim to administer the region.

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Ibrahim also attempted to deal with corruption among some junior commanders. They had been submitting false reports that exaggerated the number of soldiers under their command in order to draw extra pay. This embezzlement placed a considerable burden on the campaign's finances. Because the officers caused disturbances whenever attempts were made to count the troops, Ibrahim considered holding a parade while he was in Buraidah to establish their actual numbers.

He also took measures to strengthen the army. He recruited additional groups of Bedouins, requested new supplies from his father, and received reinforcements consisting of 800 infantrymen, two siege guns, and large numbers of camels, provisions and ammunition.

He used his time in Buraidah to rest the troops, restore their strength and train them in aspects of desert warfare.

The advance toward al-Washm

Ibrahim subsequently prepared to advance toward al-Washm. The campaign left Buraidah on the third day of Rabi' al-Awwal. His army consisted of about 4,000 soldiers, Hasan al-Kashif's force of approximately 905 Moroccan cavalymen, and large numbers of Bedouin allies from Mutayr, Harb, Utaybah, Bani Khalid and other tribes. Ten thousand camels followed the army carrying provisions, baggage and ammunition. The army marched slowly for several hours each day to avoid exhausting the soldiers. After four days it reached the walls of al-Mudhnab, whose inhabitants sent a delegation requesting to surrender. Ibrahim accepted and continued toward al-Washm.

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The Egyptian campaign in al-Washm

The campaign reached al-Washm on the eleventh day of Rabi' al-Awwal. Ibrahim established his camp between the villages of al-Fara'ah and Ushayqir, both of which submitted to him.

Siege and fall of Shaqra

Shaqra was the principal town of al-Washm and one of the major Najdi towns belonging to the First Saudi State. Ibrahim had to subdue it in order to secure the whole of al-Washm and advance toward Diriyah with his rear protected.

After the fall of al-Rass, many Najdi towns feared Ibrahim's advance. Shaqra therefore strengthened its defenses. It completed a large ditch begun during Tusun Pasha's earlier campaign. Hamad ibn

Yahya ibn Ghayhab, the emir of Shaqra, ordered the ditch to be dug again at the end of Dhu al-Hijjah 1233 AH. The inhabitants participated in the work and built a wall on the inner side of the ditch.

The town also accumulated food supplies. Its wealthy inhabitants were required to provide specified quantities of wheat in preparation for a prolonged siege. Palm trees were cut back so that they would not obstruct rifle fire or catch fire during bombardment. Large numbers of troops gathered in Shaqra, including inhabitants of Qasim who had fled after their towns fell to Ibrahim and the 400-man garrison from Buraidah. Ottoman documents estimated the total number of defenders inside Shaqra at about 4,000 men.

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Shaqra's defenses

Shaqra was surrounded by date-palm plantations, especially on its northern and western sides. It possessed two fortresses: an old fortress in the middle of the plantations and an inner fortress beyond them. The inner fortress was surrounded by a wall containing twenty-seven towers for observation and defense. The wall was thickly built of clay mixed with gypsum and consisted of two adjoining layers, more than two metres thick at the base and gradually narrowing toward the top. This construction made it difficult for attackers to create a breach near the base.

The town possessed five artillery pieces under the command of an artillery expert from Kirkuk, apparently one of the men who had deserted from Tusun's army and settled in Shaqra. The defenders were distributed among the palm plantations, towers and both fortresses, armed with rifles and other personal weapons.

Siege of Shaqra

On 16 Rabi' al-Awwal Ibrahim Pasha personally left his camp near Ushayqir with approximately 850 men and a small gun to reconnoitre Shaqra, select a suitable site for his camp and determine positions for his artillery. During the reconnaissance he clashed with the Shaqra garrison. Two of his men were killed and several wounded. He returned in the evening and ordered his commanders to prepare for the march against Shaqra.

The following morning Ibrahim moved with his entire army and artillery toward Shaqra and established his camp north and east of the town. He placed artillery in two principal positions: one north of the town, overlooking the old fortress's observation tower, and another east of the town, overlooking the palm plantations. The guns bombarded the town for a day and a night, creating a breach through which Egyptian troops entered the eastern plantations.

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The Egyptian troops fought the Saudi defenders among the plantations. Despite strong resistance, the Egyptians eventually prevailed. About 200 Saudi defenders were killed and Hamad ibn Yahya, emir of Shaqra, was seriously wounded. Egyptian losses were reported as about forty killed and fifty wounded.

The victory gave Ibrahim control of Shaqra's outer areas. The defenders withdrew into the town's inner fortress, and Ibrahim established a tight siege around it. He constructed earthworks opposite the five Saudi artillery positions and began a heavy bombardment. The bombardment continued for four days and nights, after which the two sides reached a settlement.

The sources differ over how the settlement came about. Ibn Bishr says Ibrahim was unable to cross the great ditch surrounding the inner fortress and repeatedly called upon the people of Shaqra to make peace. Two of them, Abd al-Aziz ibn Ibrahim ibn Isa and Ghayhab ibn Zayd, came out and concluded an agreement with Ibrahim covering their lives, property and possessions and requiring that none of their fighters go to assist Diriyah.

Ibn Bishr adds that, several days later, someone informed Ibrahim that several men from Shaqra had gone to Diriyah and intended to break the agreement after his departure. Ibrahim entered Shaqra angrily, holding up the written peace agreement, but Sheikh Abd al-Aziz al-Husayn intervened and persuaded him to pardon the inhabitants.

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The Ottoman documents, supported by Mangin, present a somewhat different account. They state that Ibrahim intensified the bombardment of the inner fortress and cut down palm trees to force the inhabitants to surrender. Continuous shelling caused part of the fortress wall to collapse, filling part of the ditch. Egyptian soldiers crossed the rubble and reached the fortress gate, at which point the inhabitants called for security. One of their shaykhs came out with the man responsible for their artillery to negotiate with Ibrahim.

Mangin says the inhabitants first sent a man to negotiate and fighting stopped for only two hours. Since no agreement was reached, the battle resumed with greater intensity. On the following morning another commander of the garrison went to the Egyptian headquarters and an agreement was reached.

The principal terms of the settlement, according to the Ottoman documents and Mangin, were:

1. The people of Shaqra were to surrender all their weapons, including their five guns, to Ibrahim Pasha.
2. The military garrison was to leave Shaqra and not return to fight Ibrahim again.
3. The inhabitants were to sell provisions and ammunition to the Egyptian army.
4. A number of hostages from different sections of Shaqra's population were to be delivered.

The author notes that the sources disagree mainly over which side was responsible for seeking peace. Ibn Bishr emphasizes the strength of Shaqra's fortifications and the defensive value of its great ditch, while the Ottoman documents and Mangin emphasize the effectiveness of Ibrahim's siege and bombardment. The author considers Ibrahim's position to have been stronger after the capture of the outer parts of Shaqra and the heavy artillery bombardment, although he allows that Ibrahim may have invited the inhabitants to surrender from a position of strength.

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The campaign remained at Shaqra for about one month. During this period Ibrahim Pasha undertook several measures.

First, he brought the surrounding districts of al-Washm under his authority. He did not need to send large military expeditions because the inhabitants of Sudayr, al-Mahmal, Huraymila and other areas sent letters and envoys requesting security and declaring their submission. Ibrahim therefore sent a detachment under Rashwan Agha to confirm his authority and collect food, ammunition, horses and other supplies useful to the army. Rashwan established himself at Jalajil and distributed officers throughout the towns of Sudayr to collect these resources.

Second, Ibrahim demolished the walls of Shaqra and filled in its ditch to ensure that the town could not break its agreement and rebel after his departure.

Third, he supplied his army with essential provisions and obtained camels for transport and riding.

Fourth, he established a medical clinic at Shaqra under the physician Gentili to treat wounded Egyptian soldiers. About 500 wounded men were kept there until they recovered and could return to the army.

Fifth, Ibrahim waited for further supplies to strengthen his army, which was now approaching its principal objective, Diriyah. The Sublime Porte sent a large shipment of artillery shells after Muhammad Ali complained to the Sultan that his ammunition stocks were running low. About 5,000 shells for the obus guns were sent from Constantinople to Alexandria and transported onward to Ibrahim Pasha in Najd.

After the fall of Shaqra and the submission of the towns of al-Washm, Sudayr, al-Mahmal and the surrounding areas, Ibrahim expected little further fighting before reaching Diriyah. His expectation would soon be disappointed at Diriyah's nearby town of Dhurma.

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On this occasion Ibrahim Pasha made extremely demanding requests. He required the inhabitants to pay the expenses of the war and arrears of soldiers' wages, provide 2,000 horses and 3,000 camels, supply provisions sufficient for six months, and send two of their sons as hostages. These demands were rejected and no agreement was reached.

The siege continued. Eventually the people of al-Rass requested a truce, after which the terms of an agreement could be settled. Since the Egyptian army was in poor condition, Ibrahim accepted difficult terms after three and a half months of siege. It was agreed that he would lift the siege and take his army wherever he wished, provided that his troops did not enter al-Rass. The inhabitants were not required to provide anything to the army, nor were they to supply provisions or pay fines. No Egyptian garrison was to be stationed in al-Rass unless Ibrahim Pasha succeeded in capturing Unaizah. If he failed to do so, fighting between the two sides would resume.

The two accounts therefore differ principally in their assessment of the position of the two sides at the end of the siege. Ottoman documents and local sources state that Ibrahim's position was growing stronger as reinforcements arrived, while the people of al-Rass were increasingly weakened by the

prolonged siege and by Abdullah's inability to send them further assistance. This explains why they initiated the negotiations on relatively reasonable terms.

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Foreign sources, by contrast, state that Ibrahim Pasha's position had become very difficult because the siege had lasted so long. Although he attempted to impose terms favourable to himself, he was ultimately forced by the strength of al-Rass to accept difficult conditions in order to end the siege.

There is no denying the losses and defeats Ibrahim Pasha suffered at al-Rass, nor the fierce resistance that prolonged the siege for three and a half months. Yet the position of the two sides must also be considered. The inhabitants of al-Rass were confined within their town, their provisions and ammunition were steadily declining, and external assistance reached them only rarely, apparently mainly at the beginning. By contrast, Ibrahim's communications with Egypt remained open and supplies reached him regularly, especially toward the end of the siege, replacing much of what he lost. The Ottoman and local accounts therefore appear closer to the actual situation.

Ibrahim's acceptance of peace was not necessarily evidence of military weakness. He explained the decision himself in a letter to his father, saying that he had made a mistake by prolonging the siege of al-Rass, thereby wasting considerable time and effort. It would have been better, he said, to have made peace earlier so that he could preserve his strength and time for the principal objective: Diriyah.

The Egyptian army suffered heavy losses during the siege. The sources differ considerably in their estimates.

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Mangin gives an extremely high figure for Egyptian losses, while Sadleir reports approximately 900 Egyptian dead and 1,000 wounded. On the Saudi side, Sadleir gives about fifty killed and seventy wounded. Ibn Bishr gives approximately 600 Egyptian dead and about seventy Saudi dead. Ottoman documents give a figure closer to Ibn Bishr's account, recording the loss of eighty Janissary commandos, more than 100 Moroccan soldiers and sixty men from Ibrahim's personal retinue, together exceeding 1,000 men, as well as approximately 400 wounded.

Fall of al-Khubra

As soon as Ibrahim Pasha ended the siege of al-Rass, he turned his attention to nearby al-Khubra. He sent a detachment of his army accompanied by several guns. The town was besieged for one day and subjected to artillery fire. The bombardment proved strong enough to force the inhabitants to surrender and request security. Ibrahim authorized the commanders of the detachment to grant them security and take hostages, and the town was occupied.

Several nearby towns, including al-Bukayriyah and al-Hilaliyah, also surrendered. Ibrahim then moved from al-Rass with his forces and entered al-Khubra, where the campaign remained for eleven days to rest and obtain provisions and other necessities from the inhabitants.

Ibrahim received news that Imam Abdullah ibn Saud had left Unaizah after learning of the fall of al-Rass and al-Khubra and had gone toward Buraidah. Abdullah had left a garrison in the fortress of Unaizah, known as Qasr al-Safa, under Muhammad ibn Hasan ibn Mashari ibn Saud and supplied it with provisions, gunpowder and firewood.

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Ibrahim decided to move immediately toward Buraidah to confront Imam Abdullah ibn Saud. He prepared for the move and sent the force that had arrived from Mecca under Rashwan Agha to Unaizah. Its purpose was to cut communications between Abdullah in Buraidah and Unaizah so that Abdullah could not receive reinforcements from the town or its garrison. Abdullah, however, did not remain long in Buraidah and left for Diriyah, leaving a garrison there under Ibrahim ibn Hasan ibn Mashari ibn Saud.

When Ibrahim Pasha learned this, he changed his direction and turned toward Unaizah.

Fall of Unaizah

Ibrahim's forces approached Unaizah, which was one of the largest towns of Qasim and one of the best fortified at the time. The military garrison left there by Imam Abdullah was an important factor encouraging the inhabitants to fight Ibrahim Pasha rather than surrender immediately, as he had expected. Ibrahim brought his artillery forward and directed it against the town's strong walls.

As a result of the bombardment the town surrendered on the first day. The military garrison in Qasr al-Safa, however, resisted fiercely. Ibrahim therefore intensified the bombardment for two days and two nights until parts of the palace walls were destroyed. A French consul's report later stated that the French officer Vaisse, Ibrahim's adviser, had organized the siege and the fighting around Unaizah and that the defenders had been unable to resist for more than six days before surrendering. Mangin likewise gives six days, while Sadleir gives five.

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The bombardment destroyed part of the palace walls and weakened the garrison, which had lost some of its means of defense. A shell struck the palace's powder store, causing a powerful explosion that destroyed the surrounding structures and killed two men. The garrison consequently requested reconciliation and security from Ibrahim Pasha.

Ibrahim granted them security, seized their guns and equipment, and took hostages to ensure that they would not rebel in the future. He allowed the garrison to leave wherever it wished, while requiring the inhabitants of the town to provide his army with essential supplies or to pay the money necessary to purchase them.

While Ibrahim Pasha was at Unaizah he received news that his supporters had defeated a group of people from southern Arabia and some Bedouins who had come to assist Imam Abdullah against the expedition. Ibrahim had apparently sent forces, probably including Bedouins loyal to him, against two

tribes near Diriyah. They drove them back to where they had come from and captured their livestock and equipment.

After the fall of Unaizah, the way toward Buraidah was opened, and Ibrahim could continue consolidating Qasim before moving farther into Najd.

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After the fall of Unaizah, Ibrahim Pasha received information about the submission of the surrounding region and continued preparing the campaign for its advance toward Diriyah. The fall of the town also removed one of the strongest positions that might otherwise have supported Imam Abdullah's resistance in Qasim.

The garrison that had resisted in Qasr al-Safa had surrendered after the explosion destroyed part of its defenses. Ibrahim took its artillery and equipment and secured hostages. The inhabitants were required to support the Egyptian army with provisions or their equivalent in money.

At the same time, Ibrahim's allies were active in the surrounding country. Forces loyal to him confronted groups that had attempted to support Abdullah, driving them away and capturing their animals and equipment. These operations helped Ibrahim secure the region behind his main army and reduced the possibility of an organized Saudi counterattack while he advanced farther into Najd.

The campaign's attention then turned to Buraidah, whose emir Hujaylan ibn Hamad would soon have to decide whether to submit or resist Ibrahim Pasha.

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After the fall of Unaizah, Hujaylan ibn Hamad, emir of Buraidah, sent an envoy to Ibrahim Pasha on 28 Dhu al-Hijjah 1233 AH (8 November 1818 according to the text's Gregorian conversion) requesting security. Ibrahim agreed on condition that Hujaylan send his son Abdullah as a hostage.

Ibrahim moved toward Buraidah at the beginning of Muharram to receive its submission. Hujaylan then changed his mind and decided to resist Ibrahim Pasha. The military garrison prepared to prevent the Egyptian army from entering the town. They directed their guns and rifles against the approaching Egyptian forces, while Ibrahim brought his artillery close to the walls.

A fierce battle followed. The Egyptian army succeeded in destroying the walls of four of Buraidah's towers, entered the town and killed about sixty of its defenders. This caused the defenders occupying the remaining towers to surrender.

Hujaylan ibn Hamad nevertheless continued to resist. He prepared three guns and directed them toward the town gate to prevent Ibrahim from entering. After further fighting, Hujaylan requested security. Ibrahim agreed on condition that Hujaylan surrender his guns and equipment and provide his son Abdullah as a hostage.

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Hujaylan accepted these conditions and peace was concluded. His complete submission to Ibrahim Pasha brought the Qasim region under Ibrahim's authority, and the emirs of its towns sent representatives to Ibrahim declaring their submission.

Ibrahim remained in Buraidah for about two months in order to reorganize the campaign after conquering this important region of Najd. As he penetrated farther into Najd, the distance from his supply centers in Medina became relatively long. He therefore took measures to secure his victory in the region.

First, he secured his army's line of retreat. After crossing Qasim he would be in the heart of Najd, so he ordered the destruction of the forts and towers of important Qasim towns in order to weaken them and prevent them from returning to the fight.

Second, he established a military garrison at Unaizah. He repaired its fortress, constructed strong earthworks for artillery, and built a strong enclosure around the camp. He placed a force there under Muhammad Agha.

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Muhammad Agha was given eighty cavalymen and left the sick and wounded infantry there for treatment.

Ibrahim also restored some former local leaders in Qasim whom the Saudi leadership had removed from power. He did this to secure their loyalty, since their resentment toward Saudi rule could make them useful allies. Muhammad Agha, commander of the garrison, was appointed general governor of Qasim to administer the region.

Ibrahim also reorganized the army and addressed corruption among some junior commanders. These men had been submitting false reports exaggerating the number of soldiers under their command in order to obtain additional pay. The resulting embezzlement placed a considerable burden on the campaign's finances and drained its resources. The officers caused disturbances whenever attempts were made to count the troops, so Ibrahim considered holding a parade while he remained in Buraidah to establish their actual numbers.

He took several measures to strengthen his army and secure its supplies: he recruited additional groups of Bedouins and requested new supplies from his father. These supplies subsequently arrived.

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The new supplies consisted of 800 soldiers, two siege guns, and large numbers of camels, provisions and ammunition. Ibrahim also used the period to rest his forces, restore their activity and train his soldiers in aspects of desert warfare.

Ibrahim then made arrangements to advance toward al-Washm. The campaign left Buraidah on the third day of Rabi' al-Awwal. His army consisted of 4,000 soldiers, Hasan al-Kashif's force of 905 Moroccan cavalymen, and large numbers of Bedouin allies from Mutayr, Harb, Utaybah, Bani Khalid and other tribes. Ten thousand camels accompanied the army to carry provisions, baggage and ammunition.

The army marched slowly for several hours during the day in order to spare the soldiers the hardship of rapid movement. After four days it reached the walls of al-Mudhnab. The inhabitants sent a delegation to Ibrahim Pasha requesting surrender, which he accepted, and he continued toward al-Washm.

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The Egyptian campaign in al-Washm

The Egyptian campaign reached al-Washm on the eleventh day of Rabi' al-Awwal. Ibrahim Pasha established his camp between the villages of al-Fara'ah and Ushayqir, both of which submitted to him.

Siege and fall of Shaqra

Preparations for the defense of Shaqra

Shaqra was the principal town of the al-Washm region and one of the largest Najdi towns belonging to the First Saudi State. Ibrahim had to subdue it to guarantee the submission of the entire al-Washm region and continue toward Diriyah with his rear secure.

After the fall of al-Rass, many Najdi towns feared Ibrahim's advance. Among them was Shaqra, which strengthened its defenses against a possible siege. It completed the ditch begun by its inhabitants during Tusun Pasha's campaign. After Tusun made peace with Imam Abdullah at al-Rass, the work had been abandoned. Hamad ibn Yahya ibn Ghayhab, emir of Shaqra, ordered the ditch to be dug again at the end of Dhu al-Hijjah 1233 AH (November 1817). The people of Shaqra participated in the work.

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The ditch was broad and deep, and a wall was constructed along its inner side. The town was supplied with all the food it required, and its wealthy inhabitants were required to provide specified quantities of wheat in preparation for a siege that might last a long time.

Palm branches were cut back so that they would not obstruct rifle fire and so that the palm groves would not be destroyed or burned by ammunition.

Large numbers of troops were gathered in Shaqra. Many inhabitants of Qasim who had fled their towns after their fall to Ibrahim joined the defense. The military garrison from Buraidah, numbering 400 men, also joined them and was responsible for protecting the fortress. Ottoman documents estimated the total number of defenders inside Shaqra at about 4,000 men.

Shaqra was surrounded by date-palm plantations, most of them on the northern and western sides. It possessed two fortresses: an old fortress in the middle of its plantations and an inner fortress beyond them.

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The inner fortress was surrounded by a wall containing observation and firing towers. The wall was built thickly of clay mixed with gypsum and consisted of two adjoining layers. Its base was more than two metres wide and gradually narrowed upward, apparently to make it difficult for attackers to create a breach near the bottom.

The town was equipped with five artillery pieces. An artillery expert from Kirkuk commanded them; he was apparently one of the men who had deserted from Tusun Pasha's army and settled in Shaqra.

The defenders were organized in groups distributed through the palm plantations, towers, old fortress and inner fortress, armed with rifles and other personal weapons.

Siege of Shaqra

On the sixteenth of Rabi' al-Awwal Ibrahim Pasha personally left his camp near Ushayqir at the head of approximately 850 men and with a small gun. His purpose was to reconnoitre Shaqra, choose a suitable site for his camp and determine positions from which his artillery could bombard the town. During the reconnaissance he clashed with the Shaqra garrison; two of his men were killed and several wounded. He returned to his headquarters near Ushayqir in the evening and ordered his commanders to prepare for the march against Shaqra.

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The following morning Ibrahim Pasha moved with his entire army and artillery toward Shaqra. He reached the walls and established his camp to the north and east of the town. He bombarded the town from two principal positions. From the north he placed several guns overlooking the observation tower of the old fortress on the northern mountain. From the east he placed three guns overlooking the palm plantations.

The artillery fire continued for a day and a night. It destroyed part of the wall, allowing Ibrahim's forces to enter the plantations from the eastern side. Fighting then took place among the palm groves between the Egyptian and Saudi forces.

The Saudi defenders resisted fiercely, but the Egyptian forces eventually prevailed. The fighting resulted in approximately 200 Saudi dead and the serious wounding of Shaqra's emir, Hamad ibn Yahya. Egyptian losses were about forty killed and fifty wounded.

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The victory gave Ibrahim Pasha control of Shaqra's outer areas. The defenders withdrew into the inner fortress, and Ibrahim's troops established a tight siege around it. Earthworks were constructed opposite the positions of Shaqra's five guns in order to suppress its defenses. Once the siege works were completed, the Egyptian artillery immediately began a heavy bombardment that continued for four days and nights, after which the two sides reached a settlement.

The sources differ over how the settlement came about. Ibn Bishr states that Ibrahim Pasha was unable to cross the great ditch surrounding the inner fortress and repeatedly called upon the people of Shaqra to make peace. Two men, Abd al-Aziz ibn Ibrahim ibn Isa and Ghayhab ibn Zayd, came out and made peace with Ibrahim concerning their lives, property and possessions, and agreed that none of their fighters would go to assist Diriyah.

Ibn Bishr adds that several days after the agreement a man informed Ibrahim that several people from Shaqra had gone to Diriyah and intended to break the agreement after the Pasha departed. Ibrahim entered Shaqra angrily, holding up the written peace agreement, and nearly attacked the inhabitants. Sheikh Abd al-Aziz al-Husayn intervened with wisdom, and Ibrahim pardoned them before leaving the town with his troops.

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The Ottoman documents, however, supported by Mangin, indicate that Ibrahim Pasha intensified the bombardment of the inner fortress and cut down palm trees to force its inhabitants to surrender. Continuous bombardment caused part of the fortress wall to collapse, filling a section of the ditch. Ibrahim's soldiers crossed the rubble and reached the fortress gates. The people of Shaqra then called for security.

One of their shaykhs came out with the man responsible for their artillery to negotiate with Ibrahim Pasha. Mangin gives a somewhat different account, saying that the inhabitants initially sent a man to negotiate and that fighting stopped for only two hours. When no agreement was reached, the battle resumed with greater intensity. On the following morning one of the garrison commanders went to the Egyptian army headquarters to negotiate, and this time the two sides agreed to peace.

The principal terms of the settlement, according to the Ottoman documents and Mangin, were that the people of Shaqra surrender all their weapons, including their five guns; that the military garrison leave Shaqra and not return to fight Ibrahim Pasha; that provisions and ammunition be sold to the Egyptian army; and that a number of hostages from different sections of Shaqra's population be handed over.

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The Ottoman documents indicate that Ibrahim Pasha tightened the bombardment of the inner fortress and cut down palm trees to force the inhabitants to surrender. The resulting breach allowed his troops to approach the fortress, after which the inhabitants requested security. Negotiations then produced a settlement.

The sources differ in their interpretation of why the two sides sought peace. Ibn Bishr attributes it to the strength of Shaqra's fortifications, especially its great ditch, and says that Ibrahim was unable to overcome this defense and therefore called for peace. The documents and Mangin instead emphasize the effectiveness of Ibrahim's siege and the intensity of his bombardment, which drove the inhabitants to seek peace.

The author notes that Ibrahim's position appears to have been stronger, especially after he captured Shaqra's outer areas and subjected the inner fortress to massive artillery fire. Nevertheless, it is possible that Ibrahim himself called for peace—or, more accurately, surrender—from a position of strength rather than weakness.

The settlement therefore reflected the military pressure created by the siege as well as the defensive strength of Shaqra.

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The remaining terms of the settlement were that the military garrison leave Shaqra and not return to fight Ibrahim Pasha, that provisions and ammunition be sold to the Egyptian army, and that a number of hostages from all sections of Shaqra's society be handed over.

The two accounts therefore differ chiefly in their assessment of the position of the two sides. Ibn Bishr explains the settlement by the strength of Shaqra's fortifications and its distinctive defensive system, especially the great ditch surrounding the fortress. The Ottoman documents and Mangin emphasize the strength of Ibrahim's siege and the intensity of the bombardment, which caused the inhabitants to request peace.

The author considers Ibrahim's position to have been stronger, particularly after he captured the outer parts of Shaqra and subjected the town to the heavy artillery bombardment acknowledged even by Ibn Bishr. Nevertheless, this does not rule out the possibility that Ibrahim invited the inhabitants to make peace—or surrender—because he was in a position of strength rather than weakness.

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The fighting at Shaqra caused heavy casualties. The author's text gives Shaqra's losses as approximately 170 killed and 745 wounded, including 95 women and 17 children; the campaign's losses are given as approximately 170 killed and wounded.

The campaign remained at Shaqra for about one month. During this period Ibrahim Pasha undertook several measures.

First, he brought the surrounding districts of al-Washm under his authority. He did not need to send military expeditions because inhabitants of Sudayr, al-Mahmal, Huraymila and other areas sent letters and envoys requesting security and declaring their submission. Ibrahim therefore sent a detachment under Rashwan Agha to confirm his authority and collect food, ammunition, horses and other resources useful to the army. Rashwan established himself at Jalajil and distributed his officers throughout the towns of Sudayr to collect provisions and horses.

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Ibrahim also demolished the walls of Shaqra and filled its ditch in order to ensure that the town could not break its agreement after his departure. He supplied his army with essential provisions and obtained camels for transport and riding.

He established a medical clinic at Shaqra under the physician Gentili to treat sick and wounded Egyptian soldiers. The text records that a large number of wounded men were kept there until they recovered and could rejoin the army. Ibn Bishr also reports that Ibrahim asked the inhabitants to vacate some houses for the wounded.

Finally, Ibrahim waited for additional supplies to strengthen his army, which was now very close to the principal objective of the campaign, Diriyah. This time substantial supplies arrived from the Sublime Porte. Muhammad Ali appears to have complained to the Sultan that his available ammunition was running out, so Constantinople sent 5,000 artillery shells with their fuzes to Alexandria, from where they were transported to Ibrahim Pasha in Najd.

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After the fall of Shaqra and the submission of the towns of al-Washm, Sudayr, al-Mahmal and others, Ibrahim Pasha expected that there would be no further fighting before Diriyah. His expectations were disappointed when he reached Dhurma.

Dhurma

Imam Abdullah sent Saud ibn Abdullah with a number of men from Diriyah, while Mutab ibn Ibrahim ibn Sulayman ibn Afaysan and Muhammad al-Umayri were sent with men from Thadiq and al-Mahmal. Their arrival at Dhurma encouraged its inhabitants to resist.

When Ibrahim Pasha arrived, he found Dhurma fortified and surrounded by a large wall containing twenty towers and its defenders ready to resist. He sent a reconnaissance detachment to study the area and identify defensive positions. He then advanced on the morning of 14 Rabi' al-Thani 1233 AH (7 February 1818) and established his camp east of the town near the palaces of al-Mizahmiyah. He constructed artillery earthworks close to the northern wall and began his attack.

The defenders replied with great ferocity. A major battle followed in which, according to the source cited, the Saudis inflicted about 600 casualties on Ibrahim Pasha's army. Heavy Egyptian bombardment damaged sections of the wall, and the inhabitants worked to repair the breaches and rebuild what had been destroyed.

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Ibrahim Pasha, faced with such fierce resistance, considered sending additional troops against the defenders from the south. This would be a rapid flanking movement intended to surround Dhurma, tighten the siege and divide the defenders between several fronts.

Mutab ibn Afaysan and the men from al-Kharj with him were concentrated on the southern side of the town, where they confronted the Egyptian movement with a force too large for the attackers to overcome easily.

The Egyptian attack and the heavy bombardment continued. The source describes the bombardment as extremely intense, although the author considers the very large number of casualties attributed to a period of only about two hours to be exaggerated.

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Fighting therefore broke out in both the northern and southern parts of Dhurma. After heavy bombardment and fierce fighting during a very cold and rainy night, Ibrahim Pasha's forces succeeded in entering the town from the south on Friday morning, 17 Rabi' al-Thani 1233 AH (14 February 1818). Mutab ibn Afaysan's small force apparently could not continue resisting and ceased fighting.

When the defenders in the north saw that Ibrahim's troops had entered from the south, they left their positions and moved into the town to defend their families. The Egyptian forces that had been facing them in the north followed them, and Ibrahim's troops consequently entered the town from all directions.

The people of Dhurma nevertheless did not surrender. Street fighting broke out, and the inhabitants fought with great determination. The campaign troops defeated them by means of a ruse: they approached houses or groups of people and called out that they offered security. Once the inhabitants trusted them, the soldiers took their weapons and killed them.

The author discusses a report by al-Fakhri alleging that Ibrahim entered Dhurma by force because of treachery by Mutab ibn Afaysan. He states that he has found no evidence supporting this in the documents or other sources available to him. In his view, Ibn Afaysan's weak position and inability to confront Ibrahim's forces were later interpreted as voluntary permission to enter and therefore as treachery. He does not accept that interpretation, particularly because the al-Afaysan family was known for its loyalty to the First Saudi State and its long service to it.

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Ibrahim Pasha allowed his soldiers to plunder and loot the town.

During the fighting Muhammad al-Umayri's detachment managed to escape through Ibrahim's lines. Saud ibn Abdullah, meanwhile, took refuge in one of the fortresses with more than one hundred men from Diriyah who had accompanied him to defend Dhurma. They later surrendered under honourable conditions after being granted security, and Ibrahim Pasha allowed them to leave the town safely for Diriyah.

Many of the inhabitants of Dhurma fled into the desert to save themselves from being killed. Only women and children remained in the town; Ibrahim also gathered them together and sent them to Diriyah.

The author discusses differing accounts concerning the treatment of the women and children. A report by Dari al-Rashid alleges that Ibrahim allowed his soldiers to mistreat the women of Dhurma, but the author notes that this claim is not supported by the other sources. Ibn Bishr says that Ibrahim sent the women and children to Diriyah, while Mangin states that he did not harm the women and children even though he treated the men harshly. Philby likewise reports that Ibrahim was careful not to allow them to be harmed and sent soldiers with them to ensure their safe arrival in Diriyah.

Ibn Bishr does not record what happened to Ibn Afaysan and his detachment; the author suggests that they may have escaped after Ibrahim entered the town, as did many of Dhurma's fighters.

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The Imam Abdullah ibn Saud treated the people who reached Diriyah with honour.

The fighting at Dhurma lasted only about three days, but the casualties were enormous. According to Ibn Bishr, Dhurma lost approximately two-thirds of its men: about 800 men out of a total population of 1,705 men. Fifty men from the reinforcements who had come to assist the inhabitants were also killed.

Egyptian documents, however, give the number of Dhurma's dead as 1,900. The author points out that this figure exceeds the number of men Ibn Bishr gives for the town and may therefore have been exaggerated in order to make Ibrahim Pasha's achievement appear greater in his report to his father.

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[No substantive text appears on this page in the OCR.]

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CHAPTER TWO

The chapter begins with two headings:

- Preliminary defensive measures.
- Final preparations for confronting the siege.

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FORTIFICATIONS OF DIRIYAH

The first chapter of the book discussed the route of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign, its gradual conquest of the towns of Najd, and its eventual arrival at Diriyah, its principal objective. This chapter deals with Diriyah, its fortifications, the forces defending it, and the defensive measures taken to repel Ibrahim Pasha's campaign.

Preliminary defensive measures

Preparations for the defense of Diriyah had begun early, from the beginning of the Ottoman-Egyptian aggression against the First Saudi State. At this stage of the conflict, Imam Abdullah resumed preparations for the defense of his country immediately after concluding the al-Rass peace with Tusun Pasha in 1816. He realized that the agreement was only a temporary truce during which both sides would recover their strength and prepare to resume fighting with greater readiness.

Some historians have regarded Abdullah's defensive preparations as an attempt to deceive the Ottoman Sultan and Muhammad Ali. They accused him of using diplomatic manoeuvres to calm them by assuring Muhammad Ali that he was subordinate to the Sultan and would carry out his orders, while at the same time undertaking extensive measures to fortify his country and encouraging his followers to resist the enemy.

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The author questions why Imam Abdullah should be blamed for fortifying his country and defending it. He argues that diplomatic correspondence with Muhammad Ali could be intended to avoid the dangers of war, especially when Abdullah understood that he faced one of the greatest powers of the period. In the author's view, every state has the right to maintain military defenses for its territory, property, people and beliefs according to its political and military circumstances; this should not be regarded as deception but as legitimate national defense.

The principal defensive measures taken by Imam Abdullah at that time included:

1. Replacing the leaders of some Najdi towns whose loyalty he doubted with men whose loyalty he trusted, while keeping the former leaders under observation in Diriyah.
2. Gathering Bedouin shaykhs and obtaining their pledge of loyalty and assistance, while ensuring that loyal men were positioned in places along the route Ibrahim Pasha was expected to follow to Diriyah.

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3. Fortifying Diriyah and the major towns of Najd with the various defensive equipment known at the time.
4. Storing war ammunition and provisions in fortified towns.
5. Mobilizing forces from all regions belonging to the First Saudi State and organizing them to oppose Ibrahim Pasha's advance, thereby declaring a general mobilization.
6. Encouraging loyal leaders in the Hijaz and Asir—then under Ottoman-Egyptian rule—to wage resistance and open additional fronts against Muhammad Ali, in an attempt to disperse his forces

between the Hijaz and Najd.

7. Conducting a broad campaign to encourage defense of the homeland. Mosque imams delivered sermons urging resistance, and patriotic poems circulated to strengthen attachment to religion and homeland and encourage the people of Najd to resist and remain steadfast.

Imam Abdullah also encouraged his loyal soldiers and rewarded their bravery generously in order to raise morale and encourage others to follow their example.

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The preparations made by Imam Abdullah for the defense of Diriyah therefore followed two parallel paths: fortifying Diriyah itself, which will be discussed in detail later, and taking defensive measures outside the capital. The Najdi towns along Ibrahim Pasha's route consequently became forward defensive lines protecting Diriyah, the enemy's principal objective.

The Saudis had to choose between two recognized methods of defense. One was mobile defense, in which the defenders confronted the enemy in open country, drew his forces deeper into the defensive zone, and then destroyed them with counterattacks. The other was fortified defense, in which permanent garrisons occupied towns prepared with enduring defensive works—fortresses, castles, trenches, ammunition stores and provisions—in anticipation of a long siege.

Imam Abdullah held a military council to consult on the conduct of the war. His advisers recommended fortified defense. Sheikh Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan is reported to have said that the view among Abdullah and his advisers was: fortify your town and prepare its supplies.

The author notes, however, that the course of Ibrahim Pasha's campaign indicates that the Saudis initially intended to use mobile defense.

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At first, Imam Abdullah distributed a large part of his forces as mobile formations operating in open country. Their confrontation with Ibrahim's forces at Mawiyah demonstrated this approach. It appears that the Saudi defeat at Mawiyah changed this view, leading them to adopt the alternative method of fortifying their towns and confronting the enemy from them. Abdullah consequently took all necessary measures to fortify the towns of Najd generally and Diriyah in particular.

These measures included defensive works, provisioning and arming the towns, and gathering the forces needed to defend them.

Armament of Diriyah

Armament means providing, distributing, storing, manufacturing or repairing all weapons, combat equipment and ammunition. It is therefore one of the most important foundations of a state's military defense.

The Saudis used a variety of weapons during this period, obtained from different sources.

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Rifles

Rifles were the principal weapons carried by the forces of the First Saudi State. They were firearms known by several names during the period, including tufak and barudah. The author of Lam' al-Shihab described the type used in Najd at the time as having no magazine, using a matchlock, and being made of wood and iron. It was well made, fired rapidly, was light to carry and of medium size. Nevertheless, these weapons did not match the more advanced Ottoman firearms used by Ibrahim Pasha's expedition.

The author of Lam' al-Shihab also described the manufacture of rifles in Diriyah and its development after the establishment of the First Saudi State. Dr Abdullah al-Mutawwa' regarded this development as a natural consequence of increased demand for weapons, which increased the number of people working in this profitable trade and may help explain the rapid expansion and strength of the state's army.

Although this industry developed to some extent in Diriyah, the principal source of these weapons was apparently importation from neighbouring areas such as Muscat, Kuwait and Qatar, whose rulers and merchants were involved in the arms trade. These weapons were generally imported from Europe. Lam' al-Shihab also mentions the importation of weapons into Najd from Egypt.

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Some imported weapons probably required modification and development to suit local requirements.

Edged weapons

Among the principal edged weapons used in Diriyah were swords, spears and daggers. Diriyah was one of the major centres for their manufacture in Najd. It had a special market for the manufacture of swords and similar weapons, in addition to weapons imported from Baghdad and Basra.

Artillery

The cannon was an important item of heavy equipment for armies of the period. The Saudis possessed a considerable number. During the reign of Imam Saud al-Kabir they reportedly had sixty guns, including thirty large guns. Most were probably acquired as booty in wars fought against enemies from outside Najd.

Although the sources do not identify other means by which the Saudis obtained cannon, whether by purchase or local manufacture, the author does not rule out their purchase. Local manufacture in Najd, however, is considered very unlikely.

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The use of cannon was poorly suited to the rapid desert warfare that predominated in the wars of the First Saudi State because of their great weight. Consequently, Saudi use of artillery in campaigns was limited, including in their wars in al-Ahsa. It is also reported that the army of Saud, when it went toward the Hijaz, carried some cannon, but there is no record of their use in the battles there. It is therefore likely that the cannon possessed by the Saudis were used mainly for defense and the fortification of towns, as demonstrated by their defensive wars against Muhammad Ali's campaigns.

During the siege of Diriyah, one of Ibrahim Pasha's reports to his father stated that Diriyah was armed with nineteen excellent cannon in addition to some other guns.

The sources record several instances in which the Saudis captured artillery from their enemies, including guns taken from Sa'dun ibn Aray'ir, a cannon taken from Sharif Ghalib at the battle of al-Jamaniyah, and ten guns captured from the ruler of Muscat.

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Diriyah was also supplied with ammunition for its weapons, including bullets, bombs and other munitions. These supplies were brought into Najd from Baghdad, Basra and Turkey. It also appears that some ammunition was manufactured locally because of the large quantities consumed during the many wars of the First Saudi State.

As for gunpowder, the people of Najd manufactured good-quality powder and did not need to import it. Their powder was used throughout the Arabian Peninsula. Ammunition was stored in special magazines known as jabkhanah.

Provisioning Diriyah

The preparations made by Imam Abdullah for the siege included provisioning Diriyah with all necessary supplies: different foods, fodder for livestock and riding and transport animals. Abdullah made a point of collecting these provisions from all the regions under his authority.

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As part of Imam Abdullah's organization of Diriyah's defenses, one of the palaces of Salwa was converted into a large storehouse in which substantial quantities of provisions and various types of ammunition were deposited.

It is also likely that the inhabitants of Diriyah themselves stored quantities of food in their homes in anticipation of a prolonged siege and out of fear that prices would rise during the war.

During the siege Diriyah also received some supplies from outside. Small caravans were able to slip into the town from al-Ahsa or neighbouring Najdi towns. Thus provisioning continued even after the siege began, although only on a limited and intermittent basis.

Before the alliance of Prince Muhammad ibn Saud with Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab in 1744, Diriyah, like other Najdi towns, had no permanent standing army. Towns relied on able-bodied

men who could carry weapons. The insecurity of life in Najd, with its frequent raids and dangers, required all able-bodied inhabitants to remain ready to fight.

This situation did not fundamentally change after the establishment of the First Saudi State. Its followers served as military forces that could be assembled, either compulsorily or voluntarily, whenever the Imam intended to raid or invade another region or attack a tribe.

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The method of assembling the army was as follows. The Imam, as supreme commander of an expedition, issued orders to the regions requiring each to prepare a specified number of soldiers equipped with weapons, equipment and food. He also sent men known as hawawish from Diriyah into the desert areas to gather tribal fighters for the expedition. The Imam specified a time and place—usually a known water source—where everyone would assemble before setting out.

This method of recruitment provided large numbers of men without imposing the expense of maintaining and equipping a standing army. The First Saudi State therefore did not have a permanent regular army despite its considerable size. Its armies were temporary, with fighters returning to their towns after their mission ended. Exceptions included some military garrisons stationed in forts to protect particular areas and maintain security, together with a permanent personal guard for the ruler in Diriyah.

The state did not normally provide the fighters with weapons or provisions. Each fighter equipped himself with his own weapons, mount and food. They did not receive regular military salaries; instead, they received four-fifths of the booty captured.

The forces defending Diriyah were organized into different groups, including garrisons stationed in Diriyah and the major Najdi towns as forward defensive positions, as well as mobile formations that could move through Najd when intervention was required. After the fall of Qasim and Imam Abdullah's withdrawal to Diriyah, he permitted his forces to return to their homes, apparently to give them an opportunity to rest before a new phase of the confrontation and to allow him to assemble them again for the decisive battle at Diriyah.

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Ibrahim Pasha estimated the forces defending Diriyah during the siege at about 3,000 fighters, while Sadleir put the number at approximately 4,000.

The forces defending Diriyah can be divided into the following categories.

A. Defenders from outside Diriyah

These were various detachments and garrisons representing towns and tribes belonging to the First Saudi State. They were generally commanded by their own leaders. According to Ibn Bishr, they included:

- A detachment from Manfuhah under Abdullah ibn Mazru', its ruler.
- A detachment from al-Hariq under Abdullah al-Hazani, its ruler.
- A detachment from Sudayr under Abdullah ibn the qadi of Sudayr, Ahmad ibn Rashid al-'Arini.
- A detachment from al-Washm under Muhammad ibn Ahmad ibn Sadhan, ruler of Shaqra.
- A detachment from al-Mahmal under Muhammad al-Umayri.
- A detachment from al-Safrah in al-Mahmal under Shadid al-Lawh.

There were also detachments from Ad-Dilam, al-Hawtah, Huraymila, al-'Uyaynah, al-Aflaj, Qasim and other areas.

Among the forces defending Diriyah was the cavalry commanded by Ghasab al-'Utaybi, who held an important military command and was the head of the cavalry detachment. Large numbers of volunteers also came to Diriyah from different regions to participate in its defense. Refugees who had fled areas conquered by the Ottoman-Egyptian forces also moved to Diriyah, the last stronghold of the First Saudi State, and the author considers it likely that many of them participated in its defense.

B. The inhabitants of Diriyah

As the capital, Diriyah attracted large numbers of inhabitants through its political, scholarly and economic importance. Migration from neighbouring regions increased after the establishment of the First Saudi State and expanded as the state's territory and economic resources grew. The sources differ over the population of Diriyah before Ibrahim Pasha's campaign. Jumard estimated it at about 10,000 inhabitants, while the French officer Vaisse reported 30,000 during the siege. The author explains that the latter figure probably included large numbers of refugees and the troops gathered by Imam Abdullah for the defense of the capital.

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CHAPTER TWO — Defenders from outside Diriyah

The forces defending Diriyah included detachments and garrisons from a number of towns and tribes belonging to the First Saudi State. They were generally commanded by their own leaders. Ibn Bishr lists detachments from Manfuhah under Abdullah ibn Mazru', from al-Hariq under Abdullah al-Hazani, from Sudayr under Abdullah ibn Qadi Sudayr Ahmad ibn Rashid al-'Arini, from al-Washm under Muhammad ibn Ahmad ibn Sadhan, ruler of Shaqra, from al-Mahmal under Muhammad al-Umayri, and from al-Safrah in al-Mahmal under Shadid al-Lawh. There were also detachments from Ad-Dilam, al-Hawtah, Huraymila, al-'Uyaynah, al-Aflaj, Qasim and other regions.

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Among the forces defending Diriyah was the cavalry commanded by Ghasab al-'Utaybi, who held an important military position as commander of the cavalry detachment. Large numbers of volunteers also came to Diriyah from different regions to participate in its defense. Refugees who had fled areas conquered by the Ottoman-Egyptian forces also headed for Diriyah, the last stronghold of the First Saudi State, and it is likely that many of them participated in its defense.

The inhabitants of Diriyah

As the capital, Diriyah attracted a large population because of its political, scholarly and economic importance. Waves of migration came from neighbouring regions after the establishment of the First Saudi State, increasing as the state's territory and economic resources expanded. The sources differ in their estimates of Diriyah's population before Ibrahim Pasha's campaign; Jumard gave about 10,000 inhabitants, while other calculations discussed by the author produce roughly 17,000.

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A French participant in Ibrahim Pasha's army reported that Diriyah contained about 30,000 inhabitants. The author believes that this probably described Diriyah during the siege, when refugees from areas conquered by Ibrahim's forces had arrived there in addition to the army gathered by Imam Abdullah ibn Saud.

The inhabitants played a major role in the defense. Able-bodied men joined the military forces that had come to Diriyah from throughout the country. Elderly, sick and other men unable to carry weapons also participated by guarding less heavily contested areas.

The author questions whether the population could really have reached the highest estimates. The sources place Abdullah's fighting force at roughly 3,000–4,000 men at most, while the number of refugees is uncertain.

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Women also played an active role in the defense of Diriyah. They encouraged the defenders, raised morale and served fighters at military positions. Mangin described their courage, saying that they entered the line of fire during battles carrying jars of water to the fighters.

Thus the inhabitants formed another body of defenders behind the fighting ranks, contributing what they could to defend themselves, their property, their land and their religious convictions.

The role of the Saudi princes in defending Diriyah

During the siege, the Saudi princes demonstrated solidarity and mutual support in preserving the state their fathers had established and in maintaining its religious reform movement. Mangin reported that members of the ruling family sold their property to meet the enormous expenses of the war.

Many Saudi princes participated in the defense, some in important command roles. One prominent example was Prince Faisal ibn Saud, who commanded his brother Imam Abdullah's armies in several decisive battles, including the battle of Bisl in 1816.

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Several other brothers of Imam Abdullah ibn Saud played active roles in the defense and held commands at defensive positions: Ibrahim, Fahd, Sa'd, Turki, Mishari, Umar, Hasan and Abd al-Rahman.

Sa'd, the son of Imam Abdullah, participated in the battles and protected Qasr Ghasibah, an important palace that resisted until the end of the siege, when Ibrahim Pasha eventually made a separate peace with him.

Other princes who participated and commanded forces around the towers and fortifications included Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad ibn Saud and his son Fahd; Turki ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Saud and his brother Saud; Fahd ibn Turki; Muhammad ibn Hasan ibn Mishari ibn Saud and his nephew Abdullah ibn Ibrahim ibn Hasan ibn Mishari.

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Other members of the Saudi family who participated included Umar ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad and his brother Abd al-Rahman, Zayd ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Saud and his brother Muhammad ibn Abdullah, Faisal ibn Turki ibn Abdullah, Ibrahim ibn Hasan ibn Mishari and his brothers Abdullah and Abd al-Rahman, Ibrahim ibn Abdullah ibn Farhan and others.

Many of these princes were killed during the siege; Ibn Bishr gives their number as approximately twenty-one.

The role of the scholars of the Salafi movement in defending Diriyah

A large number of scholars participated in the defense, encouraging the fighters to remain steadfast. Their role was not merely moral: some took part directly in the fighting and displayed notable courage and determination.

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At the head of these scholars were the members of the Al al-Shaykh family, especially Sheikh Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, the state's mufti. Despite his advanced age, he took a position at a defensive site near Bab al-Bujayri and participated directly in the fighting.

Other sons and descendants of Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab also contributed. The sources mention Sheikh Ali ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, Sheikh Ali ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, who was killed by Ibrahim Pasha's soldiers, Sheikh Ali ibn Husayn ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, who fled toward Oman after the fall, and Sheikh Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, who remained with Imam Abdullah's army from the early campaigns through the defense of Diriyah and was later among the Al al-Shaykh family transferred to Cairo.

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Sheikh Sulayman ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab was killed after the fall of Diriyah. Ibn Bishr says that some people denounced him to Ibrahim Pasha; the author suggests this may have concerned his role during the siege in raising morale and encouraging defense.

Other scholars included Sheikh Ahmad ibn Hasan ibn Rashid, formerly judge of Medina. He fled to Diriyah when Ibrahim's forces approached and became involved in attempts to negotiate peace. Ibrahim tried to persuade him to abandon the Saudi family, but he refused; Ibrahim became angry and later had him arrested and tortured before he was taken to Egypt.

Sheikh Ali ibn Hamad al-'Arini was one of the strongest defenders of Diriyah. He came from al-Kharj, where he had been a judge, and was killed by Ibrahim Pasha because of his enthusiasm for the defense.

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Other scholars included Sheikh Abd al-Aziz ibn Sulayman ibn Abd al-Wahhab ibn Musharraf, nephew of Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, who remained in Diriyah until its fall and then returned to Huraymila.

Sheikh Abd al-Aziz ibn Hamad ibn Ibrahim ibn Musharraf was a scholar close to Imam Abdullah. The Imam sent him as an envoy to Muhammad Ali Pasha; he remained in Diriyah to defend it until its fall and then travelled to Unaizah.

Sheikh Abdullah ibn Ahmad al-Wuhaybi, one of Diriyah's judges, defended it until its fall and then left for Ras al-Khaimah.

Sheikh Abd al-Aziz ibn Hamad ibn Nasir Al Mu'ammam, another judge and prominent scholar, was an enthusiastic supporter of the religious movement. He remained in Diriyah during the siege and expressed his grief at the catastrophe in poems sent to colleagues.

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The geographical position of Diriyah and its effect on the military confrontation

Diriyah's position in central Najd greatly assisted it in resisting attacks from outside Najd. It occupied a naturally strong military position because access was possible through only a narrow passage in the Tuwaiq mountains to the west. The remaining approaches were protected at a distance by waterless sandy deserts.

Towns subordinate to Diriyah lay along the routes leading to it and served as forward defensive positions. An invading army had to capture them or secure their submission before reaching Diriyah in the heart of al-'Arid. The distances were long and largely barren desert. Ibrahim Pasha's expedition overcame these obstacles and reached Diriyah, but only after more than a year and a half and enormous human and material losses.

Diriyah itself lay in the middle of Wadi Hanifah. The valley was deeply incised through Jurassic limestone, with rugged rocky slopes. Diriyah was built on elevated ground along the valley, making it less exposed than neighbouring settlements on open terrain. The section of Wadi Hanifah within Diriyah also had broad alluvial terraces whose fertile soils supported its gardens and palm groves.

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Wadi Hanifah reaches Diriyah after forming a deep valley because its limestone bedrock is soluble in water and has been repeatedly eroded by floods. The steep slopes and elevated ground formed a natural fortress for Diriyah's palaces and buildings. Its neighbourhoods stood high on these strong slopes on both sides of the valley, giving the town substantial natural protection.

The valley also had numerous tributaries and depressions around Diriyah. These divided the land into separate areas that became distinct neighbourhoods.

The geographical advantages nevertheless had weaknesses. The many tributaries could provide routes by which an enemy might infiltrate Diriyah. Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan described them as ravines that could not be sealed with gates and construction. They therefore had to be guarded carefully in times of danger.

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The steep slopes and numerous tributaries made Diriyah naturally difficult to attack, but the tributaries also created potential gaps in the defenses. The author notes that Imam Abdullah later took measures to close these weaknesses.

Urban expansion of Diriyah and its effect on the siege

Diriyah originally consisted of two known locations on Wadi Hanifah: al-Mulayybid and Ghasibah, founded and developed by Mani' al-Muraydi and his descendants. Over time the settlement expanded beyond these two locations, especially after it became the capital of the First Saudi State. It spread along both sides of the valley, in farms, gardens, buildings and homes, extending from al-Mulqa in the north to the limits of 'Arqah in the south, roughly twenty kilometres.

Urban development also extended into the tributaries, giving the town an irregular elongated shape. Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan described Diriyah as a long settlement, extending more in length than width.

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Local sources provide few detailed descriptions of Diriyah's neighbourhoods and districts, apart from occasional references by Ibn Bishr during accounts of the siege. Foreign sources describe Diriyah more fully, but the author cautions that their descriptions are not always accurate because some writers had never actually visited the town.

Some accounts described only al-Tarif and al-Bujayri, probably because of their fame. The broader settlement, however, extended much farther. The author therefore relies on the physical landscape, surviving remains and local knowledge when reconstructing Diriyah's appearance.

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Corancez described Diriyah as consisting of two suburbs: al-Tarif to the west, the residence of the House of Saud, and al-Bujayri to the east, where Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab lived. The author believes that Corancez mentioned only these two because of their fame, not because they were the only neighbourhoods.

Mangin gives one of the better-known descriptions, saying that Diriyah consisted of five small towns, each surrounded by a wall. He names four: Ghasibah, al-Tarif, al-Sahl and al-Qusayrin. The latter may have been Qari Qasir north of Diriyah. Mangin described it as poorly fortified and noted that its inhabitants abandoned it for other parts of Diriyah during the siege. Egyptian forces later occupied the area after several victories because it had been left empty. Mangin did not name the fifth district.

The author emphasizes that the terrain and surviving remains, together with local knowledge, provide the best means of understanding Diriyah at this time.

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Diriyah's urban development occupied two contrasting environments. Several residential and agricultural sites lay in the valley floor and its tributaries, including al-'Ulb, Samhah, Qari Qasir, Ghubayra, al-Sulaymani, Musharifah, Qulayqil, Katlah, al-Rafayi', Khays Nasrallah, al-Sahl and al-Tawali'. Other residential areas stood on the elevated sides of the valley and formed the principal neighbourhoods: al-Tarif, Ghasibah, Samhan, Zahrat, Nazirah and al-Qurayn.

Al-Tarif

Al-Tarif stood on the summit of a triangular mountain southwest of Diriyah on the western bank of Wadi Hanifah. It was the centre of state institutions, containing the seat of government, the treasury and the palaces of the House of Saud. It was surrounded by a strongly fortified wall. Beside it lay the al-Mawali or 'al-'Abid' quarter.

Al-Sahl

The author considers this term more likely to refer geographically to the valley-floor area south of Diriyah than to a single independent neighbourhood.

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The district of al-Bujayri, the most important part of al-Sahl, lay at the foot of the valley on its eastern bank, east of al-Tarif. Although small, it was one of Diriyah's most important districts because Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab lived there, together with his mosque, his sons and their schools, which attracted students from many regions. It was therefore a major centre of scholarly and religious activity.

Ghasibah

Ghasibah stood on a high elevation in the Wadi Hanifah area, bounded by the valley to the west and the Qulayqil tributary to the southeast. A large fortified wall surrounded it, and it was the residence of the Al Dughaiter family.

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Samhan

Samhan lay south of Ghasibah on elevated ground overlooking Wadi Hanifah. It was bounded by Qulayqil to the north and Qari 'Imran to the south. A large fortified wall surrounded it. It was the largest of Diriyah's neighbourhoods in area because of the land between the two tributaries.

Zahrat Samhan

This area contained a large gateway and was the residence of some prominent families, including families from al-Shu'ara'. One of its palaces was consequently called the Palace of al-Shu'ara'.

Another neighbourhood lay north of Zahrat Samhan on the eastern bank of Wadi Hanifah and was associated with the well-known Al Suwaylim family.

The western side of the valley floor opposite Ghasibah also contained an old district of Diriyah.

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Several other neighbourhoods of Diriyah later disappeared, including Malwi, al-Huwaytah and al-Zuwayhirah.

Diriyah was therefore not a single enclosed town surrounded by one continuous wall, as was common in settlements of the period. Rather, it consisted of several independent, walled and fortified units. This urban pattern, imposed partly by the terrain, had an important effect on the conduct of the siege. It was difficult for an invading army to surround all of these independent fortified neighbourhoods, particularly because the settlement was elongated and crossed by numerous ravines and passages.

This helps explain both the long duration of the siege and the fact that Diriyah did not fall as a single unit. Instead, its neighbourhoods fell one after another.

Defensive installations in Diriyah

The need to construct defensive fortifications arose with the development of cities, enabling inhabitants to defend themselves and their settlements. Fortifications changed in size, form and building materials as weapons and military equipment developed.

Najd had a long tradition of strongly fortified towns and villages.

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Walls, towers, palaces and trenches were among the principal defensive installations throughout the region. This remained characteristic of Najdi towns into modern times because of political fragmentation, instability and the raids to which the region was exposed. Musil described Najdi towns generally as surrounded by high walls, often consisting of two concentric walls.

Diriyah was probably fortified like other Najdi settlements before becoming the capital of the First Saudi State, but its early fortifications appear to have been modest compared with those constructed after the state's establishment and prosperity. Much of the early protection consisted of walls around private farms, intended to protect them from Bedouin raids.

The historical accounts do not establish that a single general wall surrounded the whole settlement. Ibn Bishr's account of Sa'dun ibn Muhammad ibn Ghura'ir's raid on Diriyah in 1791, when houses in the eastern areas of al-Zahrah, Malwi and al-Sariyah were plundered, suggests that these areas were then farms and palm gardens outside the residential quarters. This indicates that the large-scale fortifications later associated with Diriyah were not all present before the establishment of the First Saudi State.

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The situation apparently remained much the same during the early period of the First Saudi State, when the state's military activity was concentrated on neighbouring Najdi towns and most of its battles were offensive. Diriyah therefore faced no major military threat requiring extensive new fortifications.

This changed as the state's material resources increased and it became capable of financing and maintaining stronger defenses. It also entered conflicts with major powers neighbouring Najd. The expansion of Diriyah's influence alarmed Banu Khalid in al-Ahsa, who regarded it as a threat to their political influence in Najd. They launched a major campaign against Diriyah in 1797 and brought cannon and equipment to besiege it.

This prompted the leaders of Diriyah to construct new and stronger fortifications. Prince Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad, after consultation with Sheikh Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, built two walls around Diriyah reinforced with towers, using supporters of the religious movement living in Diriyah.

The efficiency of these walls was not tested in the first campaign because Banu Khalid stopped at al-Jubaylah and did not advance to Diriyah. In a later attack they reached Diriyah, but after an intermittent siege they were forced to withdraw without gaining anything.

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CHAPTER TWO — Fortifications of Diriyah

No enemy forces reached the walls of Diriyah after this campaign until Ibrahim Pasha's expedition arrived in 1818. During the intervening period the sources say little about the walls, but there is no doubt that Diriyah underwent major population and urban growth. It became an important political, economic and religious centre, and this growth necessarily required strong fortifications to protect the capital, its markets and the property of its inhabitants.

Many changes were probably made to Diriyah's defenses during this period of more than half a century. Some resulted from natural causes, including a major flood that destroyed parts of Diriyah in 1787; others resulted from the leaders' experience of fortifications in non-Najdi territories they conquered and from the migration of craftsmen and architects from those regions to Diriyah.

The strongest fortifications appear to have been built during the reign of Imam Saud. Ibrahim Pasha described them in a letter to his father, stating that Saud had built gardens and forts for each of his sons in the Diriyah valley and had surrounded Diriyah itself with a formidable wall, making it very strong and secure.

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This does not exclude the possibility that Imam Abdullah built new walls and strengthened the old ones as part of his preparations for Ibrahim Pasha's siege. Indeed, he continued building walls, digging trenches and constructing barricades even during the siege.

The principal defensive installations of Diriyah were as follows:

Walls

Walls were among the most important means of defending any site. They provided passive protection from enemy fire and formed an architectural barrier preventing an enemy from entering the town. For active defense, the walls incorporated one or more defensive lines equipped with towers, firing positions for cannon and rifles, and machicolations. This made them an important foundation for active defense.

The walls were the most important defensive works constructed by the Saudis at Diriyah. A general wall surrounded Diriyah and was approximately 13 kilometres long. Ibn Khamis describes it as extending from the top of Mount al-Qurayn in the south towards the northeast, crossing several tributaries and high ground, with projecting sections and towers protecting vulnerable waterways.

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The wall continued north along the ridge beside al-Sahl, crossed Shu'ayb al-Shu'aybah and passed over the high ground between Qari 'Imran and al-Shu'aybah. A projecting section extended east along the top of Mount Qari 'Imran to al-Rafayi', with towers facing north towards Zahrat Samhan. The wall then crossed Shu'ayb Qulayqil and continued north beside Ghasibah and al-Salmani to Qari Qasir. Two projecting wings extended along the sides of this tributary, with towers protecting it. The wall then continued north, crossed the valley near al-'Awda to Samhah north of Diriyah, turned west, crossed Wadi Hanifah near Shu'ayb al-Hariqah, passed near Qasr al-Ghayadi and descended beside Shu'ayb Ghubayra. It continued through Shu'ayb Jarrar, climbed the mountain with Umm al-Sala and al-Jabiriyah to its left, crossed the lower part of Shu'ayb al-Bulayda and continued south, leaving Shu'ayb Katlah to its left. It passed Shu'ayb al-Sudayriyah, left al-Tarif to its west, crossed Shu'ayb Safar and climbed the mountain between it and Wadi Hanifah, then crossed the valley and reached the southern mountain before turning east until it met al-Qurayn.

Most of Diriyah's neighbourhoods also had their own walls, making each neighbourhood an independent fortified unit. Ghasibah was surrounded by a large wall. It stood on a triangular mountain open towards the northeast, where the area of Nazirah was protected by a wall and a gate arranged so that it did not face directly towards the outside. Samhan also had a separate wall with strong towers, independent of the other neighbourhoods. Al-Tarif was surrounded by a wall.

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The wall around al-Tarif was one of the largest in Diriyah, extending for roughly a kilometre and a half. Stone and brick were used in its construction. The wall was built substantially of stone, with smaller stones used to stabilize the larger blocks, and it was covered with a layer of mud plaster.

The walls varied in height and strength according to the importance of the area and the nature of the terrain. Their maximum height was approximately 4.5 metres. The wall of al-Tarif was the strongest because it protected the seat of government in Diriyah.

The walls were strengthened by defensive towers, which both supported the wall and served as defensive positions. They also had an internal walkway about two to two and a half metres wide, more than three metres above ground level, reached by side stairs from inside the wall. Numerous openings and firing positions were provided for rifles and cannon.

Another structural feature strengthened the walls: the lower part was built with a smooth outward slope that made climbing difficult.

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Towers

A tower was a raised defensive structure attached to the wall of a town, fortress or palace. It normally occupied a corner, stood beside gates or rose above entrances. Towers were usually built at high points and projected beyond the main structure so that they overlooked the surrounding area and provided long-distance observation. Some stood independently and they had several forms and functions.

Towers were among the most important defensive structures built by the people of Diriyah. They were used for active defense as well as observation.

The number of towers in Diriyah has been estimated at about 80, most distributed along the walls, with approximately 71 on the walls and seven standing separately, either inside or outside the walls, in addition to towers associated with palaces and forts. Contemporary local sources did not give a precise total, nor did Ottoman documents. Ibrahim Pasha nevertheless stated in a report to his father that by the middle of Sha'ban he had captured more than forty towers in Diriyah, which may indicate that the town really did contain a large number.

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Most of the towers along the walls were concentrated on the eastern side of the valley because most residential neighbourhoods were there. The western side was largely agricultural, apart from al-Tarif in the far southwest, which contained several towers for its protection.

A number of towers also concentrated along the southern wall, which formed an advanced protective position for al-Tarif beyond the valley. Their concentration there may have resulted from Diriyah's wars with Riyadh to the south, which lasted for approximately fifty years.

In general, towers were more numerous where the walls had many bends and changes of direction. Straight sections required fewer towers because there were fewer areas needing additional observation and protection. Towers were also built on high points on both sides of tributaries to close gaps that were difficult to wall and where the watercourses themselves could not easily be blocked.

Among the surviving and known towers are a group along the eastern wall from the far north down towards southern Diriyah, including Burj Samhah in the northeast corner of the wall.

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Other eastern towers included Burj Sahla on the southern bank of the tributary, followed by Burj al-Ma'aniyah, Burj al-Kulaybah, Burj Ibrahim ibn Saud and Burj Qari Qasir. Burj al-Hasaniyah was a separate observation tower on the western bank, while Burj al-Sahbaliyah stood outside the walls north of Shu'ayb Qari Qasir and also served as an observation post. Burj Shadid al-Lawh in Zahrat Nazirah was one of the larger towers in this area.

Important towers on the southern side of Diriyah included the al-Qumayriyah towers between Shu'ayb al-Shu'aybah and Shu'ayb Qariwah, Burj al-'Ilajiyah on the southern wall, and the separate Burj Saud ibn Abdullah south of Diriyah, which served as an observation tower.

In al-Tarif, notable towers included Burj al-Burayki in the southeast corner and a large square tower in the northwest corner overlooking the valley.

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Burj Faisal stood in the northwestern part of al-Tarif. It occupied an important strategic position and was designed to perform an effective defensive role and to control observation over the whole neighbourhood.

The towers of Diriyah differed in size according to their location and purpose. Corner towers were larger than towers along the walls, which were mainly used for observation and strengthening the walls. Towers at corners, gates and entrances had a greater role in direct combat and were therefore larger and stronger. Some even had double walls for additional strength, such as the tower at the northwestern corner of the valley where Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad was stationed.

The towers contained military features supporting defense, including firing ports and openings for rifles and cannon. Their shapes varied. Some were square, such as Burj al-Ma'aniyah, Burj al-Kulaybah and the square tower of al-Tarif; some were round, such as Burj al-Ra's, Burj al-Rafayi' and Burj Faisal; and others were conical, the most common form, including Burj Sahla, Burj Samhah, Burj al-'Ilajiyah and Burj al-Burayki. Their different shapes resulted partly from defensive requirements—the conical and round forms were harder for attackers to climb—and partly from the fact that they were built at different periods by architects with different building styles.

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Fortresses, castles and palaces

In Arabic, *hisn* means a fortified or impregnable place and may also mean a castle or fortified palace. A fortress, castle and fortified palace are therefore broadly synonymous as military strongholds: substantial buildings usually surrounded by walls and equipped with towers for observation and defense. They were generally constructed in strategic locations, especially on mountain slopes and hilltops, where elevation provided command over the surrounding land.

Palaces in Najd during this period also served as military fortresses. Many were protected by towers and equipped with defensive features such as firing positions and machicolations. Diriyah contained a large number of fortified castles and palaces, the most important being the palaces and fortifications of al-Tarif.

Al-Tarif as a whole resembled an independent fortified citadel within Diriyah. Its palaces were not only residences of the ruling family but, because of the strength and scale of their walls and towers, were among the strongest fortifications in Diriyah.

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Among the most important al-Tarif palaces serving as defensive centres during the siege was Qasr Salwa. It was the seat of government in Diriyah and stood in the southeastern part of al-Tarif. It was the largest palace in Diriyah and, more broadly, among the largest palaces of Najd in that period. It consisted of a connected group of palaces, seven units of which have so far been identified.

The palace was constructed with considerable skill and careful architectural proportions, including a number of storeys unusual for Najd at the time. It was built by skilled local craftsmen specializing in different trades. Archaeological studies show that Qasr Salwa was constructed in successive stages rather than during the reign of a single ruler. Its buildings were protected by several towers, making the complex a strong fortress. One of the Salwa palace units was used as a storehouse for provisions and ammunition during the siege.

The eastern part of al-Tarif around the palace saw particularly heavy fighting during the siege.

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Qasr Prince Thunayan ibn Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin stood at the southern end of the eastern palaces of al-Tarif, overlooking the edge of Shu'ayb al-Buraykah. During the siege it was one of the most important defensive centres in this sector.

Qasr Prince Farhan ibn Saud ibn Muhammad ibn Muqrin stood at the southwestern end of the western group of palaces, with its western façade overlooking Wadi Hanifah. It had two storeys, and during the siege its ground floor was converted into a storehouse.

Qal'at al-Dirayshah was one of the largest castles in Diriyah and overlooked the valley. It was built to protect Imam Abdullah ibn Saud's palace and was connected to it by a stone-paved stepped passage known as Darb Faisal.

Other scattered palaces and fortresses included Qasr Ghasibah, a strong fortress built by Imam Saud ibn Abd al-Aziz. Ibn Bishr says that Saud took care to fortify it and gave it an iron gate. Mangin considered it one of Diriyah's strongest fortresses; it protected Ghasibah and al-Tarif and occupied an important strategic elevation.

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The reason Imam Saud built Qasr Ghasibah outside al-Tarif is unknown. It may have been another residence during the prosperous period of the state, or perhaps a strong refuge for times of crisis. This was apparently how his descendants used it during the siege of Diriyah. The palace seems to have been large, with many rooms and good ventilation; after Diriyah fell, Ibrahim Pasha used it to house sick and wounded soldiers.

Qasr al-Ghayadi belonged to Prince Nasir ibn Saud ibn Abd al-Aziz. It stood on the western bank of the valley on high ground above al-'Awda and witnessed important fighting during the siege.

Qasr al-Bulayda lay west of Diriyah in Shu'ayb al-Bulayda and contained strong towers. The area was also the scene of fierce fighting between the people of Diriyah and Ibrahim Pasha's army.

Hisn al-Rafayi' was one of the largest fortresses east of Diriyah, on the northern bank of Shu'ayb Qari 'Imran, and major battles took place around it during the siege.

Hisn Qari 'Imran stood next to Hisn al-Rafayi' and likewise witnessed much fighting during the siege.

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Qasr al-Shu'ara' stood southwest of Zahrat Samhan and overlooked the area's gardens and palm groves from the south.

Temporary defensive works

In addition to these permanent defensive installations, the defenders used temporary works known in Ibn Bishr's account as mahaji or, in other terminology, rudum. These were dispersed defensive positions made by piling earth into small mounds or constructing stone walls behind which defenders

could shelter from enemy fire. The people of Diriyah helped construct these positions even during the siege, continually changing their defensive locations as the battle developed.

Diriyah's abundant stone quarries made this possible. The quarries contained deposits and layers of stone on the rocky slopes of the valley, making the stone relatively easy to extract, transport and shape for construction.

Final preparations for the siege

These preparations concerned the organization of the defending forces by Imam Abdullah. Ibn Bishr is the only source discussed here that describes this organization in detail. He states that Imam Abdullah divided the forces of Diriyah into several units and distributed them among defensive positions considered strategically important for confronting the enemy.

General command

Imam Abdullah, together with members of the Al al-Shaykh family and a number of notables and chiefs, established his camp in the area between Bab Samhan and Bab al-Zahrah east of the valley. They had several large cannon.

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Northern forces

Forces from Diriyah and elsewhere under Faisal ibn Saud, accompanied by his brothers Ibrahim and Fahd, were concentrated in the valley at the Samhah palms, facing Ibrahim Pasha's camp. They had three cannon.

A force from al-Hariq and elsewhere under Turki ibn Abdullah al-Hazani was positioned forward in the valley outside the walls, between Ibrahim Pasha's camp and Faisal ibn Saud's force.

Eastern forces

Forces from Diriyah under Sa'd ibn Saud and his brother Turki occupied the northern side, east of the valley beside Shu'ayb al-Mughaysibi.

Forces from Manfuhah under Abdullah ibn Mazru' were positioned north of Sa'd and Turki.

Scattered forces commanded by members of the Al Dughaiter family and others were distributed among several towers inside the wall as far as Bab Samhan. They had several cannon.

Forces from Diriyah under Fahd ibn Abdullah and forces from Sudayr under Abdullah ibn Ahmad al-'Arini were concentrated at Shu'ayb Qari 'Imran near the al-Rafayi' palms. They had one cannon.

Southern forces

A number of people from Diriyah, including its shaykhs and men who were not strong fighters, were scattered among several towers, with one cannon at each tower.

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Additional southern forces included troops from several Najdi towns under Saud ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad, positioned in the valley near al-Qurayn south of Diriyah.

Western forces

Forces from Diriyah, al-Washm and elsewhere under Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad occupied a tower on the western side of the valley to the north.

Forces from Diriyah and elsewhere under Umar ibn Saud were positioned beside the valley, while forces under Hasan ibn Saud occupied a position west of Umar's force beside Shu'ayb al-Hariqah.

Forces from Diriyah under Turki ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad and his brother Zayd were positioned between Shu'ayb al-Hariqah and Shu'ayb Ghubayra.

Forces of mamluks and others under Faraj al-Harbi, a mamluk of Imam Saud, occupied an intermediate position between Shu'ayb al-Hariqah and Shu'ayb Ghubayra, south of Turki.

Forces from Diriyah under Fahd ibn Turki ibn Abdullah and Muhammad ibn Hasan ibn Mishari ibn Saud were also deployed in the western sector.

Forces from Diriyah and elsewhere under Mishari ibn Saud occupied a position at the Eid Mosque on the mountain overlooking al-Tarif from the west.

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Several points are apparent from this deployment of the forces.

First, most of the commanders heading these units were members of the House of Saud, together with a number of the state's most loyal supporters. They were considered especially committed to the defense of Diriyah.

Second, Imam Abdullah established his camp outside al-Tarif in a strong position east of the valley so that he would be closer to the military operations. Al-Tarif lay at the far southwestern end of Diriyah and was relatively distant from the main area of operations.

Third, the source does not provide precise numbers for the men in the various units. It is clear, however, that the largest concentration of forces was at the northern and northwestern defensive positions because an attack by Ibrahim Pasha was expected from the north. In fact, Ibrahim Pasha concentrated his attack in these areas, as will be seen later.

Fourth, Imam Abdullah distributed forces around all sides of Diriyah. Although a northern attack was expected, he placed forces to the south in case Ibrahim Pasha attempted an unexpected attack or outflanking movement, or in case an attack came from towns south of Diriyah. Ibn Bishr's wording indicates that the forces below Diriyah were not expected to face heavy fighting and were primarily responsible for guarding the area. This explains why the shaykhs of Diriyah and men less capable of heavy fighting were assigned there.

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It is also noticeable that every unit included some men from Diriyah, even when the unit itself came from another Najdi town. Imam Abdullah apparently intended to distribute men from Diriyah among all sectors because they knew their town and its roads better than anyone else. They could therefore assist men from the other towns in moving around the area if they were forced to leave their positions.

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CHAPTER THREE — The Siege and Fall of Diriyah

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CHAPTER THREE — The Siege and Fall of Diriyah

Ibrahim Pasha's expedition had remained at Durma after its fall on 14 February 1818 for a period during which it obtained large quantities of provisions and ammunition. According to Mangin's

chronology, the expedition was delayed at Durma for nearly a month, but Ottoman documents and contemporary local sources indicate that the movement from Durma to al-Mulqa on the outskirts of Diriyah took no more than about two weeks. The sources therefore differ on the precise timing.

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The expedition did not move immediately towards Diriyah because of poor weather. The area experienced storms and heavy rain that hindered the army's movement.

Ibrahim Pasha's forces then moved from Durma towards Diriyah by the northern route through Shu'ayb al-Haysiyah until they reached Wadi Hanifah. This was the natural route because the Tuwaiq Mountains separated Durma from Diriyah, while the al-Haysiyah route was the easiest and safest, having long served as a route for pilgrimage caravans coming from the east. It is also said to have been the route used by Khalid ibn al-Walid during the Ridda wars against Musaylimah.

The expedition passed through al-'Uyaynah and al-Jubaylah and then followed the valley until it reached al-Mulqa, about an hour north of Diriyah, where it established its camp in early March 1818.

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On the following day Ibrahim Pasha personally went out at the head of 800 cavalry, accompanied by one cannon, on a reconnaissance patrol. Its purpose was to survey the area, obtain information about the enemy's fortifications and the terrain, and conduct engineering reconnaissance to determine the availability of local materials that could be used for military works such as barricades, entrenchments and camps. The patrol also sought suitable locations for the main camp and for deploying the army's forces.

The patrol approached the forward Saudi defensive positions and clashed with the Saudi forces stationed there. Several men on both sides were killed before Ibrahim Pasha's force returned to its camp at al-Mulqa.

This was the first battle between Diriyah and Ibrahim Pasha's expedition. The initial skirmishes appear to have been intended to test the Saudi forces, determine their readiness, identify their concentrations and locate their forward fortifications before establishing attack positions opposite them.

The siege of Diriyah

After reaching Diriyah, Ibrahim Pasha faced two military options: either launch a direct assault on the town or besiege it and tighten the pressure upon its inhabitants.

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We have already seen the scale of the preparations and fortifications constructed by Imam Abdullah. These made Diriyah a formidable fortress that would be difficult to penetrate without an army much

larger than Ibrahim Pasha's. Ibrahim Pasha therefore chose siege as the means of achieving his objective.

In a letter to his father, after describing Diriyah's fortifications in detail, Ibrahim Pasha explained that a direct advance would not produce the desired result, and that he therefore surrounded the town and tightened the pressure from every side, intending to launch a general assault once reinforcements arrived.

In March 1818, after preparing the military plans required for the siege with the assistance of his French adviser Vaisseière, Ibrahim Pasha reached al-'Alb, made it his main headquarters and began implementing his plans.

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Ibrahim Pasha's military plan for the siege rested on two principal elements:

1. Establishing the military installations required for the siege.

Ibrahim Pasha entrusted this task to the French engineer Vaisseière, the officer accompanying his expedition. He constructed a system of engineering works and special barriers for the siege. These included defensive barricades at several successive positions for concentrating troops, defensive trenches to shelter soldiers from counter-fire and to protect weapons and equipment, special redoubts for command posts, artillery emplacements for batteries intended to attack the walls of Diriyah, and special ammunition stores.

2. Distributing the forces.

Diriyah was well fortified and divided into several sections, each surrounded by its own wall.

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The town was extensive and roughly rectangular, with a perimeter of more than 13 kilometres. After approaching it, Ibrahim Pasha estimated the strength required to establish an effective siege. Some estimates placed the required force at approximately 19,000 men, four to five times the actual strength of Ibrahim Pasha's army.

Under these circumstances Ibrahim Pasha adopted a different siege strategy: he would force his way through the valley, capturing the neighbourhoods of Diriyah on either side one after another until the entire town fell into his hands. He therefore divided his forces into three principal sections: a central force advancing along the valley floor and two wings on either side of the valley to attack the defenders' fortifications.

These forces were deployed in separate formations opposite a number of Saudi forces occupying strategic defensive positions inside and outside Diriyah's walls.

Central force: Ibrahim Pasha, his personal guard and a number of his soldiers camped in the valley opposite Faisal ibn Saud and his brothers Ibrahim and Fahd, together with Turki al-Hazani's advanced force positioned in the valley in front of Ibrahim Pasha's main force. The mission of these troops, consisting largely of Ibrahim Pasha's special guard, was apparently to guard the valley route, the principal approach to the town.

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Right wing, east of the valley: several military formations were concentrated on the eastern heights opposite the forces of Sa'd ibn Saud and his brother Turki, while others faced Abdullah ibn Mazru'. Additional forces were scattered along the eastern heights from Shu'ayb al-Mughaysibi to Bab Samhan, facing the scattered Saudi forces occupying several defensive positions there under a number of leading men of Diriyah, including members of the Al Dughaiter family. Other forces faced Fahd ibn Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz's troops concentrated at Qari 'Imran near the al-Rafayi' palms in the lower eastern part of Diriyah.

Left wing, west of the valley: this wing was commanded by Rashwan Agha and consisted mainly of Moroccan cavalry and Egyptian Bedouins. Its task was to seize the adjoining desert margins and prevent the groups of defenders dispersed in this area from escaping or carrying out unexpected manoeuvres that might place Ibrahim Pasha's forces between two fires.

The left wing's forces were distributed among several positions.

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Some forces were scattered on the northern bank of Shu'ayb al-Hariqah opposite the forces of Turki ibn Abdullah and his brother Zayd and the forces of Faraj al-Harbi and Ibn Mishari in the branch of Shu'ayb Ghubayra.

Imam Abdullah's camp at Bab Samhan had no Ottoman forces directly opposite it because it lay inside the town and was surrounded by both an inner and an outer wall.

The preceding deployment shows that the Ottoman forces did not surround Diriyah on every side. Two areas were left without a complete encirclement:

The southwestern side of Diriyah was not surrounded. The difficult terrain there was naturally protected, which explains why no forces were concentrated in that area. Ibrahim Pasha avoided attempting to besiege it because it was difficult to penetrate, and the wall also protected the town's edge on that side.

The southern side of Diriyah was likewise not besieged, despite the presence of Saudi forces there, because Ibrahim Pasha's forces were far too small to encircle the whole town.

The battles of Diriyah

Ibrahim Pasha's siege of Diriyah lasted six months and five days.

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The siege proceeded through several stages. It can be divided into four principal phases according to the changes or results produced by each phase, each representing a turning point in the siege.

First phase: 4 Jumada al-Awwal to 4 Jumada al-Akhirah 1233 AH (March–21 April 1818).

This phase began with Ibrahim Pasha's concentration at al-'Alb and continued until his advance to Qari Qasir. Military skirmishes began on the fourth day of Jumada al-Awwal, when Ibrahim Pasha's forces reached Diriyah. The Saudis immediately opened fire on them while they were preparing their barricades and defenses, using eight to ten cannon in an attempt to disrupt their camp. These attacks continued for about five days.

Mangin states that Faisal ibn Saud was the one who went out to obstruct Ibrahim Pasha's forces, accompanied by about 2,000 men, and that he seized several strategic areas in an attempt to prevent the Ottoman forces from establishing themselves.

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Once Ibrahim Pasha had succeeded in deploying his forces, he in turn launched an attack on the northern defenses of Diriyah using cannon and rifles. The Diriyah forces replied in kind, and at this stage the fighting went back and forth. The attack continued for another five days.

During this phase there were several different engagements: small battles, larger battles, decisive engagements favouring one side or the other, and actions in which neither side gained a clear advantage. Among the best known were the following:

Battle of al-Mughaysibi

This engagement took place on the tenth day after Ibrahim Pasha reached al-'Alb, in Shu'ayb al-Mughaysibi on the northeastern side of the valley. The Diriyah forces in the area, commanded by Sa'd ibn Saud, launched a strong attack against Ibrahim Pasha's besieging forces.

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The fighting was fierce and several soldiers on both sides were killed.

After the battle of al-Mughaysibi, another clash occurred on the opposite side of the valley at Shu'ayb al-Hariqah, in which there were also casualties on both sides.

Battle of Ghubayra

After the battles of al-Mughaysibi and al-Hariqah, several further small clashes occurred. Ibrahim Pasha then decided to stop fighting in this manner and instead attack Diriyah's defensive fortifications directly, attempting to break through the town's walls and achieve faster results.

To do so he first had to overcome the Saudi forces positioned outside the town that formed Diriyah's forward defensive line.

Ibrahim Pasha's plan for the battle was to reinforce his troops at the barricades and use a cavalry unit commanded by Rashwan Agha, which had concealed itself during the night in the middle of Shu'ayb Ghubayra. The cavalry was intended to surprise the Saudi forces from the rear and prevent them from escaping if they were defeated.

The plan was carried out at dawn. The attack on the Saudi forces at Ghubayra began, while additional troops were sent forward to engage the defenders.

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Meanwhile, the troops Ibrahim Pasha had left in the tributary attacked from the rear and surprised the Saudi forces. They retreated in disorder down the valley, abandoning two cannon and large quantities of ammunition, provisions and camp equipment.

About one hundred Saudi soldiers were killed in the battle, including several commanders of the barricades from the House of Saud and others, among them Fahd ibn Turki ibn Abdullah, Muhammad ibn Hasan ibn Mishari ibn Saud, Hasan al-Hazani and others.

The defeat also led some inhabitants of districts subordinate to Diriyah to defect. The defeat appears to have damaged their morale; fearing Ibrahim Pasha's reprisals, they fled to him from Diriyah and provided him with information about conditions inside the town.

Battle of Samhah

Ibrahim Pasha's victory at Ghubayra enabled him to bypass the Saudi forces that had formed Diriyah's forward defensive line in the northwestern area. However, two towers had been constructed at strategic positions.

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The two towers stood on opposite sides of the valley and each contained two cannon. Two garrisons occupied them, one commanded by Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad and the other by Umar ibn Saud ibn Abd al-Aziz. These two positions concerned Ibrahim Pasha, who decided to eliminate the forces occupying them and demolish their towers so that he could penetrate Diriyah's walls and enter the town.

To accomplish this he took several measures:

He gathered infantry by withdrawing a number of soldiers from each position and sent them with Rashwan Agha's cavalry to Uzun Ali on the left bank of the valley.

He ordered the forces in the northeastern positions to intensify their attacks on the Saudi positions opposite them. This tactic was intended to open several fronts and achieve one of two objectives:

either some of the forces in the main positions targeted by the attack would move towards the northeastern forces, reducing the strength of the principal defensive positions, or their movement would be prevented.

Ibrahim Pasha himself advanced along the valley floor and began attacking with artillery.

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Ibrahim Pasha's artillery attacked the Saudi military positions on both sides of the valley, demolishing some towers and sections of the walls in the area.

When Ibrahim Pasha reached the tower occupied by Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz and his men, he opened artillery fire against them and the surrounding areas until most of the fortifications there had been reduced to ruins. Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz was consequently forced to withdraw to the rear line, which was strengthened by trenches, while Ibrahim Pasha's forces advanced and occupied his position.

At the same time, Uzun Ali's forces attacked Umar ibn Saud's tower. Umar resisted strongly. Fighting took place with swords and rifles, after which Uzun Ali's forces resorted to artillery and subjected the tower to intense fire. Umar ibn Saud and his men continued to resist strongly, but the defeat of his uncle Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz and the arrival of Ibrahim Pasha's troops from Abdullah's former position behind Umar's tower, where they supported Uzun Ali's attackers, led to Umar's defeat. He was forced to withdraw with his men and abandon the position.

After these events Faisal ibn Saud, who was camped in the valley, found his own fortifications threatened because they were no longer protected by towers.

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Faisal was joined by Umar's forces, which had themselves suffered a severe defeat in their defensive positions.

Ibrahim Pasha advanced with his troops along the valley floor and launched an intense attack against Faisal ibn Saud and his brothers at the Samhah palms. Faisal resisted the attack fiercely.

Meanwhile, Uzun Ali ordered the cavalry and infantry placed under his command by Ibrahim Pasha to march at dawn in two formations through Shu'ayb al-Hariqah and Shu'ayb Ghubayra towards the valley. They reached the al-Ghayadi palms, occupied the fortified enclosure there and stationed some troops in it while others concealed themselves nearby. When the fighting with Faisal intensified, this force moved behind Faisal's positions. Together with Ibrahim Pasha's main force it surrounded the area and, after fierce fighting with the Saudi forces, succeeded in defeating and driving Faisal's troops southward.

Fighting was also continuing in the northeastern positions between Ibrahim Pasha's forces and the Saudi forces there. The Saudi forces were defeated and likewise forced to withdraw southward.

The Ottoman sources describe events broadly similar to those attributed to the battle of Samhah in the local account.

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The Saudi forces lost approximately four hundred men in these battles, as well as four bronze cannon. The Egyptian forces also suffered casualties, although the sources do not give a total. They do, however, name several important commanders killed in the fighting, including Salim Agha, Ibrahim Pasha's treasurer.

The defeat also caused a number of forces from districts subordinate to Diriyah to leave and return to their home towns. Their defeats appear to have weakened their morale, causing them to fear the intensity of the fighting and withdraw.

The Saudi retreat did not stop after their withdrawal from Samhah. Ibrahim Pasha's forces continued their advance, while the Saudis fell back towards the interior, abandoning many of their cannon and weapons.

An Egyptian report describes Ibrahim Pasha's forces occupying the captured positions, strengthening artillery emplacements, demolishing one of the enemy's towers and part of its walls with artillery, and preparing to assault the damaged towers. It also reports Saudi attacks on the Ottoman barricades and the subsequent advance of Ibrahim Pasha's infantry and cavalry into the narrow part of Diriyah, where they attacked the Saudi barricades and entered the walls, capturing positions there.

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Faisal ibn Saud and his brother Sa'd succeeded in regrouping their forces to confront Ibrahim Pasha's troops, which were pursuing them. They successfully stopped the pursuit at the al-Salmani palms, drove the attackers back and killed several of them.

The battles of this phase lasted approximately 17 days, according to the dates of Ibrahim Pasha's letters to his father. One letter reporting the events of this phase was dated 19 Jumada al-Awwal, indicating that the fighting occurred during the first three weeks of that month.

During this phase Ibrahim Pasha's forces advanced approximately 3–5 kilometres from their camp towards Diriyah. This was a reasonably substantial advance, particularly because much of the area was outside Diriyah's built-up zone and consisted largely of open land or cultivated areas.

The advance was attributable to several factors, including the military methods and plans employed by Ibrahim Pasha, the weakness of some people in Diriyah, and their departure, as well as Ibrahim Pasha's effective exploitation of the town's approaches and vulnerabilities. Through these means he succeeded in occupying part of Diriyah.

Ibrahim Pasha sent news of these victories to his father, and celebrations took place in Egypt when news arrived that he had captured part of Diriyah.

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Fighting between the Saudi forces and Ibrahim Pasha's army stopped at the al-Salmani palms with a Saudi victory. The Saudis succeeded in halting Ibrahim Pasha's rapid advance. However, they failed to exploit these victories by attempting to drive the enemy out of the areas he had captured and recover their former defensive positions. Instead, they concentrated at the positions where the fighting had stopped and began establishing a new defensive line across the valley in that central area of Diriyah. They reinforced their positions with military units that had been stationed in the northern districts of Diriyah and had retreated after those areas fell.

As part of the construction of this new defensive line, the Saudis built new and strong stone fortifications and redistributed their forces as follows:

Faisal ibn Saud, Turki ibn Saud, Fahd ibn Saud, Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz and Umar ibn Abd al-Aziz, together with men from Diriyah and elsewhere, concentrated in the valley floor.

On the western side, forces were redistributed as follows:

Ibrahim ibn Saud, with scattered forces from al-Bujayri, al-Murayh and elsewhere, occupied the western bank of the valley inside the walls, south of Faisal ibn Saud and his men.

Sa'd ibn Abdullah ibn Saud, with a group of people from Diriyah, was positioned north of Ibrahim ibn Saud on the summit of a mountain overlooking the valley. He had one cannon.

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Turki ibn Abdullah ibn Muhammad and his son Faisal, with a group of people from Diriyah and elsewhere, were positioned beside the southern side of Shu'ayb Ghubayra.

On the northern side of Shu'ayb al-Bulayda were Umar ibn Saud with a group of people from Diriyah and elsewhere, followed by Hasan ibn Saud with another group from Diriyah, followed by Faraj al-Harbi with a unit of mamluks.

Abd al-Rahman ibn Saud and a number of people from Diriyah were positioned between Shu'ayb al-Bulayda and another defensive position.

Mishari ibn Saud remained at his position near the Eid Mosque in al-Tarif.

On the eastern side the forces were distributed as follows:

At al-Salmani on the right side of the valley, Abdullah ibn Mazru' was stationed with forces from Diriyah, Manfuhah and elsewhere.

Muhammad al-'Umayri, at the head of men from al-Mahmal, was encamped at Nazirah.

Shadid al-Lawh, with several men from al-Safrah and Diriyah, occupied the summit of Mount Nazirah in a large, strongly constructed tower.

Sa'd ibn Saud, with a group from Diriyah, occupied the area between Shu'ayb Qulayqil and Nazirah.

Hasan ibn Ibrahim ibn Dughaiter and his brother Ali, with a group of people from Diriyah, occupied the area between Bab Samhan and Bab al-Zahrah. The southern forces retained their previous arrangement.

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In response to these changes in the defensive plan and the course of the fighting, Ibrahim Pasha reorganized his forces. He moved his supreme headquarters from al-'Alb to Qari Qasir in the northeastern part of Diriyah in April 1818. He chose this location because it was close to the military operations on the eastern side of Diriyah, where the fighting had been particularly fierce and which he personally commanded.

He assigned Uzun Ali to command the fighting on the western side. Uzun Ali camped between Shu'ayb Ghubayra and Shu'ayb al-Bulayda and distributed his forces opposite the scattered Saudi forces in those areas.

Second phase: 7 Jumada al-Akhirah to 1 Ramadan 1233 AH (April–July 1818).

At the beginning of this phase large reinforcements reached Ibrahim Pasha from Basra. Its governor, Bakr Agha, sent a caravan of 1,500 camels loaded with provisions. A contingent of Moroccans and artillerymen also arrived from Egypt with substantial military equipment and supplies. During this period the wounded whom Ibrahim Pasha had left at Shaqra to recover also rejoined the army.

Multiple caravans arrived from Medina and 'Unayzah carrying provisions and ammunition.

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The arrival of these supplies from Egypt, Iraq, the Hijaz and Qasim encouraged Ibrahim Pasha to continue and intensify his attacks on Diriyah's fortifications. Fighting resumed after both sides redistributed their forces, and battles broke out on every front and at all times.

Ibn Bishr describes the fighting as exceptionally fierce, with battles taking place constantly. The defenders fought from their barricades with rifles and swords while artillery and bombs filled the air. The people of Diriyah remained steadfast and fought the Ottoman-Egyptian troops repeatedly, with fighting continuing in the centre, south and north of the barricades and in many parts of the town.

The fighting in this phase began on the western and southwestern fronts, where Uzun Ali commanded the Ottoman-Egyptian forces. Several battles took place there.

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Uzun Ali attempted to prevent the Diriyah forces in this area from completing their fortifications and barricades. A strong battle followed and the Saudi forces succeeded in driving his troops back.

First Battle of Shu'ayb al-Bulayda

Most of the fighting in this sector took place at this tributary. In the first battle, the scattered Diriyah forces on its northern bank, commanded by Umar ibn Saud, Hasan ibn Saud and Faraj al-Harbi, succeeded in repelling Uzun Ali's attack. There were casualties on both sides.

Second Battle of Shu'ayb al-Bulayda

Uzun Ali's forces attacked the Diriyah barricades in the tributary and captured them. The Saudi forces, however, fought fiercely from after noon until late afternoon and succeeded in driving the attackers out of the towers they had occupied, killing several of them.

On the eastern front several battles also took place. The forces of Shadid al-Lawh were among the most important Saudi forces confronting Ibrahim Pasha's attacks there. Shadid al-Lawh became famous in this war because of his success in repelling the Ottoman-Egyptian forces in many engagements.

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One of the famous battles on the eastern front during this phase was the battle of Shu'ayb Qulayqil.

In this engagement Ibrahim Pasha's forces attacked the Saudi troops defending the tributary. The Saudi forces held firm under Hasan ibn Ibrahim ibn Dughaiter and his brother Ali and succeeded in defeating Ibrahim Pasha's troops. Several men on both sides were killed.

Battle of Ghasibah

Mangin states that Ibrahim Pasha decided to concentrate his fighting and bombardment against the fortifications of Ghasibah in eastern Diriyah. He ordered barricades to be constructed from which the tower overlooking the gardens on one side and the Ghasibah fortifications on the other could be bombarded. The French engineer Vaisseière was entrusted with carrying out this task.

The two sides fought fiercely, but the attackers concentrated their fire and succeeded in pushing the Saudis from their positions and opening a breach in the tower wall. Conditions appeared favourable for an assault, but the officers refused, claiming that the soldiers would not obey their orders. The soldiers themselves rejected this accusation, shouting that it was their commanders who were refusing, not them.

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The dispute appears to have been motivated by the soldiers' desire to obtain financial payments owed to them by Ibrahim Pasha. When he saw that no one would obey his orders, he ordered his gunners to cease fire, returned to his camp, wrote to his father describing what had happened and requested new reinforcements. His father decided to send a large force of approximately 3,000 soldiers under Khalil Pasha to support Ibrahim Pasha and began preparing it.

Taking advantage of Ibrahim Pasha's setback and withdrawal, the Diriyah forces launched several attacks against his camp, in which a number of his soldiers were killed.

The situation of the siege shortly before the middle of Sha'ban 1233 AH (June 1818) clearly demonstrated the difficulties facing Ibrahim Pasha. Although he had achieved substantial victories in the first phase and had captured more than forty of Diriyah's northern towers, the Saudis' determined defense and their increasing activity in harassing the besieging forces placed Ibrahim Pasha in a difficult position. He was unable to complete the encirclement of Diriyah because supplies continued to reach it through al-Ahsa and elsewhere.

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Ibrahim Pasha therefore had to move to close these gaps in his siege. Mangin states that, encouraged by Faisal al-Duwaish, who informed him that several villages remained in contact with Diriyah and supplied it with provisions daily, Ibrahim Pasha decided to subdue those villages.

First attack on 'Arqah — 11 Sha'ban 1233 AH (June 1818)

Ibrahim Pasha attacked 'Arqah because it lay south of Diriyah, an area not previously surrounded by his forces. 'Arqah was also among the towns that had remained loyal to Diriyah, while other towns south of Diriyah—including Riyadh, Manfuhah and al-Kharj—had submitted to Ibrahim Pasha. He therefore needed to bring 'Arqah under his control in order to tighten the siege from the south without having to station troops in a complete ring around Diriyah, since he had suffered from a shortage of soldiers from the beginning of the siege.

Ibrahim Pasha succeeded in subduing 'Arqah. Ibn Bishr says that he sent a cavalry detachment which attacked the town, killed about thirty of its inhabitants and seized it, then left it after burning it.

Ottoman documents, however, state that Ibrahim Pasha personally went to 'Arqah on 16 Sha'ban, accompanied by Rashwan Agha, commander of the cavalry, and Hajji Dawud, one of the principal guides in his army.

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The Ottoman documents also state that Imam Abdullah ibn Saud took advantage of Ibrahim Pasha's departure for 'Arqah. He emerged from behind Diriyah's walls and attacked the barricades surrounding the town. Ismail Agha, whom Ibrahim Pasha had left in command of the camp, succeeded in repelling the attack. Imam Abdullah returned without achieving significant results, although Ismail Agha was wounded several times because of his determined resistance.

The burning of the ammunition depot

An important incident occurred during this phase which, if properly exploited, might have changed the course of the siege. Ibrahim Pasha's army ammunition depot caught fire and all its contents were destroyed. These were estimated at about 200 barrels of gunpowder and 280 boxes of cartridges, shells

and bombs. The flames also spread, after the explosions, to the piles of barley and wheat intended to feed the army and burned them.

The sources differ over the cause and date of the explosion. Ottoman documents state that on 18 Sha'ban a sudden spark from a fire reached the ammunition depot and ignited the military stores, killing many of the men working in the depot and the drivers of the transport wagons.

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Mangin gives a different account. He states that on 13 Sha'ban, after a fierce clash in which about 160 Ottoman soldiers were killed, the troops returned to camp to rest. Strong winds carried an ember from a fire lit by a soldier to cook his food and dropped it onto a large tent set some distance away between two small hills, where the ammunition depot was located. The gunpowder caught fire and a huge explosion followed.

Sadlier also mentions the incident, although without explaining its cause. He says only that Ibrahim Pasha's arms depot was blown up and that the artillerymen remained without ammunition for approximately two months.

The author notes that the date given by the Ottoman documents is very close to Mangin's date, differing by only two days. Since Ibrahim Pasha's reports are original documents from the war, the author considers their date more reliable.

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Al-Jabarti gives another version. He says that after Ibrahim Pasha went out to one of the areas around Diriyah, the Saudis took advantage of his absence and launched a surprise attack on his camp, killing a number of soldiers and burning the weapons store.

Although this account agrees with the Ottoman documents about Ibrahim Pasha's departure for 'Arqah and the Saudi attack on his camp, it differs over the cause of the fire. Al-Jabarti is almost unique in giving this explanation. Ibn Bishr, when discussing the burning of the ammunition depot, gives neither a cause nor a precise time; he merely records that fire broke out in the Pasha's stores containing gunpowder, bullets and all the ammunition, destroying the supplies and provisions, while some of the Pasha's soldiers fled to the nearby mountain tops after the fire killed a number of them.

The author considers al-Jabarti's account closer to reality because the other accounts place the fire very close to Ibrahim Pasha's departure for 'Arqah and the Saudi attack on his camp. Ibrahim Pasha's explanation to his father that a spark caused the fire is too general to establish who actually started it. The spark might have come from Saudi artillery, from a soldier's cooking fire as Mangin says, or from another cause. Ibrahim Pasha may also have avoided giving his father details that would reveal a weakness in his army.

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The sources also differ over the Saudi reaction to the destruction of the ammunition depot. Mangin says that Imam Abdullah ibn Saud sent eight to ten scouts from Diriyah to approach Ibrahim Pasha's camp and investigate the situation. The alarm was raised and soldiers rushed to repel them. Other Saudi forces advanced to support the scouts, and fierce fighting followed. When the Saudis saw that the Ottoman forces were still fighting bravely, they withdrew. Imam Abdullah then held a council to consider the situation, and it was decided to attack Ibrahim Pasha's forces the following day.

Ibrahim Pasha expected that the weakened state of his army would make the Saudis more daring. He therefore gathered his troops, addressed them enthusiastically, ordered them to conserve ammunition and not fire unless absolutely necessary, and threatened to execute anyone who retreated before the enemy.

The following morning the Saudis indeed advanced, numbering about 1,500 men. Ibrahim Pasha's plan for repelling them was to distribute his artillery carefully on high ground near his camp. He ordered the artillery officers to allow the enemy to approach and conserve their fire until the Saudis came close, at which point they were to unleash intense artillery fire.

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The Saudis immediately confronted Ibrahim Pasha's forces and were met by Ottoman artillery fire, which inflicted severe casualties and forced them to withdraw. Ibrahim Pasha then ordered his forces to adopt a defensive posture.

Ibn Bishr does not mention this attack at all. Instead, he says that the people of Diriyah intended to attack the Ottoman camp but did not actually do so.

The author concludes that whether Imam Abdullah really attacked Ibrahim Pasha's camp or not, he certainly failed to exploit the ammunition disaster effectively. He could have surrounded the camp and intensified attacks through hit-and-run tactics, exhausting the remaining ammunition and depriving Ibrahim Pasha of one of his greatest advantages: his powerful and sophisticated artillery. The author considers Mangin's account more likely—that Imam Abdullah did attack Ibrahim Pasha's forces, but was deceived by Ibrahim's conservation of ammunition and assumed that the army still possessed sufficient supplies. The fire therefore did not appear to have changed the situation enough to justify another attack, and Abdullah remained on the defensive, giving Ibrahim Pasha an opportunity to improve his position.

The second phase of the siege lasted approximately three months. During it the fighting went back and forth between the Ottoman and Saudi forces, and the phase ended without significant territorial gains; Ibrahim Pasha's forces did not advance beyond the positions they had previously reached.

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This phase nevertheless witnessed important events that altered the balance of power and contributed to prolonging the siege. Ibrahim Pasha's position after the ammunition depot fire was extremely

difficult. He had lost more than half his ammunition and still needed additional soldiers, provisions and ammunition.

He therefore took rapid measures to repair the situation. He sent officers throughout the nearby parts of Najd to collect whatever ammunition could be found. He also appealed to the Ottoman garrisons at Shaqra, 'Unayzah, Buraydah, Medina, Mecca and Yanbu to send whatever ammunition and provisions they possessed.

After ten days a force of 200 Deli cavalry arrived from 'Unayzah, accompanied by 200 camels loaded with gunpowder, bullets and bombs. Several caravans carrying additional ammunition also arrived from Medina.

Ibrahim Pasha himself suffered a health problem during this period: his eyes became inflamed after the sandstorm that had affected the Egyptian army and contributed to the fire.

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Ibrahim Pasha also received additional supplies and artillery. He wrote to his father in Egypt describing the situation and urgently requesting reinforcements, saying that the army needed at least several additional formations to arrive rapidly because his soldiers were exhausted and had suffered heavy losses.

Muhammad Ali Pasha responded by preparing three formations under Topal Hasan Agha, Basho Mustafa Agha and the chief of guides Mustafa Agha, together with two Moroccan cavalry commanders, and ordered them to proceed rapidly to Diriyah. He also ordered that Khalil Pasha's expedition be prepared and sent after the Eid al-Fitr holiday.

These reinforcements arrived successively at Ibrahim Pasha's camp. Basho Mustafa Agha arrived at the head of 400 infantrymen and joined the army; several days later a Moroccan cavalry formation arrived, followed by livestock and provisions.

The position of the Saudi forces, however, appears to have begun deteriorating. During this phase a number of inhabitants of districts subordinate to Diriyah left and returned to their home towns, and some inhabitants of Diriyah itself also departed in order to escape the pressure of the siege.

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The number of Diriyah's casualties also began to increase greatly. According to Ibrahim Pasha's reports to his father, by Ramadan—four months into the siege—the number of dead had reached approximately 1,400 men.

The Saudis also suffered a major loss when Faisal ibn Saud was killed in Jumada al-Akhirah 1233 AH (April 1818). He had been the supreme commander of his brother Imam Abdullah's forces and his right-hand man. He was killed by a sniper's bullet from a long distance while inspecting his command headquarters. Ibrahim Pasha says that he was killed by a shot fired by one of his men, Mustafa Agha Qawwala, and that Faisal's brother Turki ibn Saud took his place. Turki was himself killed later.

Third phase: Ramadan to 1 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (July–7 September 1818).

Battles continued between Ibrahim Pasha's forces and the forces of Diriyah throughout almost the entire siege, but the intensity of the fighting appears to have declined after the burning of Ibrahim Pasha's ammunition depot, until his supplies arrived and he reorganized his army to resume the attack.

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Once the reinforcements reached Ibrahim Pasha, heavy fighting began again. His plan was to tighten control over Diriyah's districts one after another, intensify fighting on its eastern and western sides after subduing the northern area, weaken the external fortifications and prepare for a later stage involving a direct assault on Diriyah's neighbourhoods and the penetration of its inner fortifications to reach al-Tarif.

Several battles took place during this phase.

Battle of Katlah

The Saudi forces under Abd al-Rahman ibn Saud made great efforts in this area to repel the forces of Uzun Ali, who was responsible for the fighting on this front. The battle was extremely fierce and resulted in heavy casualties on both sides.

Battle of Qari 'Imran

Qari 'Imran is a tributary southeast of Diriyah. Saudi forces under Fahd ibn Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz were stationed in one of its farms, and several battles took place there during this phase. Al-Fakhri says that there were three battles.

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Battle of al-Mahaji

In this battle the people of Diriyah attacked Ibrahim Pasha's artillery in the area north of Shu'ayb Qulayqil. They defeated the Ottoman soldiers stationed there and attempted to capture their guns. They found, however, that the cannon were secured with iron chains. The Ottomans had loaded the cannon with rifle bullets and sulphur, and when the Saudis attempted to drag away the chained guns, the Ottomans ignited them. The resulting explosions killed several Diriyah men, including Hasan ibn Ibrahim ibn Dughaiter and his brother Ali, and Abd al-Aziz ibn Abd al-Karim ibn Mu'ayqil of al-Washm.

Battle of Qari 'Imran

This battle took place at a well-known palm plantation in Shu'ayb Qari 'Imran southeast of Diriyah, where Fahd ibn Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad was responsible for the defense. The battle occurred on 10 Shawwal 1233 AH (August 1818). Ibrahim Pasha moved out from his camp at Qari

Qasir with a number of soldiers, together with a group of people from al-Kharj and Riyadh under their commander Nasir al-'Ayidhi, who had joined Ibrahim Pasha during this period, and two cannon.

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When Ibrahim Pasha reached Shu'ayb Qari 'Imran he attacked the Saudi barricades there and succeeded in defeating them. Fahd ibn Abdullah then came out from al-Rafayi' with his men and engaged Ibrahim's infantry. When Ibrahim Pasha saw that the Saudis were outperforming his infantry, he attacked them with his cavalry, killing a number of the people of Diriyah, including their commander Fahd ibn Abdullah.

The Saudi forces then received reinforcements from Diriyah as different units from throughout the town moved to support them. Ibrahim Pasha and his men were defeated, but he returned to the attack in an attempt to achieve a decisive victory in the area. The Saudi forces resisted fiercely, causing heavy casualties on both sides, and the battle ended without a decisive result for either side.

Nasir al-'Ayidhi, who had been ruler of Riyadh, participated with Ibrahim Pasha in the wars around Diriyah and continued cooperating with the Egyptian forces in later campaigns. He took part with Husayn Bey in the attack on Riyadh after Ibn Mu'ammār expelled him in 1233 AH, and Husayn Bey restored him to the governorship after Turki ibn Abdullah was driven out. The following year he fought with the Egyptian forces at al-Ha'ir against the Subay' tribe and was killed there.

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Second attack on 'Arqah — night of 1 Shawwal 1233 AH (15 August 1818)

Abdullah ibn Saud had regained control of 'Arqah, which Ibrahim Pasha had previously captured, at the beginning of summer when its crop was ripe. Imam Abdullah sent a garrison of one hundred men to collect the harvest. Ibrahim Pasha sent a cavalry detachment to drive them out, but the Saudis succeeded in repelling it.

After the battle of al-Rafayi', Ibrahim Pasha appears to have moved directly towards 'Arqah with the men from Riyadh, al-Kharj and Manfuhah under Nasir ibn Hamad al-'Ayidhi, ruler of Riyadh, before returning to his camp. Ibrahim Pasha succeeded in taking 'Arqah. He allowed its inhabitants and the garrison to leave under guarantees for their lives and weapons, and they went to Diriyah.

Mangin says that when Imam Abdullah learned that Ibrahim Pasha was absent from his camp, he ordered his forces to launch a general attack against the troops besieging Diriyah. The battle lasted several hours. The Saudis fought well despite the intense heat, but Ibrahim Pasha's forces eventually managed with difficulty to repel the attack, suffering a large number of dead and wounded.

The fall of 'Arqah greatly tightened Ibrahim Pasha's siege of Diriyah.

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During this period fighting continued on every front, mostly with neither side gaining a decisive advantage. However, the condition of the two sides was increasingly unequal. While the Ottoman forces were growing stronger, the condition of the people of Diriyah was deteriorating.

The siege had lasted more than five continuous months. The length of the siege weakened the morale of Diriyah's inhabitants because of poor living and health conditions, high prices and the hardships of war. Morale was also affected by the defection of some followers of Diriyah to Ibrahim Pasha's forces, the large number of casualties in the battles, and the departure of many defenders since the beginning of the siege.

External supplies were also beginning to decline, especially as Ibrahim Pasha sought to tighten the siege by bringing neighbouring towns under his authority, either voluntarily or by force. He also occupied positions at varying distances around Diriyah to prevent assistance from Bedouin groups loyal to Diriyah. In contrast, Ibrahim Pasha's own supplies continued to arrive regularly from Egypt, Iraq and al-Ahsa.

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The imbalance of strength affected the course of the siege. It appears that Imam Abdullah began considering negotiations with Ibrahim Pasha. Several documents indicate that Abdullah requested peace from Ibrahim Pasha more than once.

It appears that Ghasab ibn Shir'an al-'Utaybi left Diriyah as an envoy from the Imam to request peace. An Ottoman document sent by Muhammad ibn 'Ar'ir to Dawud Pasha, governor of Baghdad, reports that Ghasab had been sent by Abdullah ibn Saud and requested pardon. Ibrahim Pasha rejected the request, saying that he would make peace only on the condition that Abdullah ibn Saud be surrendered to him and sent to the Sultan; otherwise Abdullah's head or ransom would be required.

At this time al-Ahsa had fallen into the hands of the Al 'Ar'ir family, who were subordinate to the Ottoman state. Further details of that development are discussed later.

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The document concerning Ghasab's mission provides new evidence about why he left Diriyah. Ibn Bishr does not state any reason for Ghasab's departure and does not accuse him of betraying Imam Abdullah, despite claims made by some later sources. Ibn Bishr says that near the end of the siege Ghasab al-'Utaybi left Diriyah at midday and went to Ibrahim Pasha. He was considered trustworthy and loyal to the House of Saud and had endured the siege with them; he was also commander of the cavalry in Diriyah. His departure strengthened Ibrahim Pasha's determination to continue the war, bring his artillery closer to the town and caused great sadness and weakness among the people of Diriyah.

The author emphasizes that Ibn Bishr first praises Ghasab's loyalty and honesty and does not mention treachery. The later discussion of people who left Diriyah and informed Ibrahim Pasha about weaknesses in its defenses refers to a broader phenomenon that had been occurring since the first

month of the siege. The evidence therefore suggests that Ghasab either left on Abdullah ibn Saud's orders or, like others in Diriyah, chose to leave. When he requested permission, the Imam may have instructed him to approach Ibrahim Pasha and offer peace, as the Ottoman document indicates.

The author considers it likely that Ibrahim Pasha detained Ghasab so that he could not return to Diriyah and strengthen its resistance. The document records Ibrahim threatening to kill anyone who subsequently came to him seeking peace before achieving his objective. In the author's view, this evidence removes the accusation of treachery against Ghasab.

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CHAPTER THREE — The Fall of Diriyah

Ibrahim Pasha now began considering an assault on Diriyah to seize it by the sword at the earliest opportunity. The circumstances of both sides and the growing imbalance of power made such an attack increasingly feasible.

He used this period to prepare and reorganize his forces, train the new troops and organize the supplies that had arrived. He also sought to weaken Diriyah's internal front by offering safe conduct to anyone who left the town.

Fourth phase: 1–4 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (7–10 September 1818).

With the beginning of Dhu al-Qa'dah, Ibrahim Pasha decided to launch a general attack on what remained of Diriyah, intending to end the siege and capture the town. He chose this moment for several reasons. The balance of power had shifted substantially in his favour because of Diriyah's deteriorating condition after the long siege, the departure of many defenders to their home regions, and the loss of its cavalry force following the departure of Ghasab al-'Utaybi and his men. At the same time, his own army had been strengthened by new supplies.

He had also obtained important information about the entrances and weaknesses of Diriyah from people who had left the town and from inhabitants of other Najdi towns. Ibn Bishr says that those who went to the Pasha informed him about weak points in the defenses, places where the defenders were less determined, locations from which they dispersed at night, lightly defended positions, and routes by which attackers could enter without being noticed. This information enabled Ibrahim Pasha to complete his preparations without exposing his army to the dangers of penetrating the neighbourhoods and confronting the final defensive line.

Another factor was the promised expedition of Khalil Pasha, consisting of 3,000 men. Muhammad Ali Pasha had promised to send it earlier, and Ibrahim Pasha was keen to attack before it reached Arabia, partly because of his concern for his military reputation.

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The information supplied by those who had left Diriyah allowed Ibrahim Pasha to identify weaknesses and plan his general assault. Ibn Bishr records that defectors told him where the defenders were weakest, where they dispersed at night, where only a few men were stationed and where attackers

could enter without the inhabitants knowing. Ibrahim Pasha used this intelligence to prepare his attack while avoiding the danger of entering the town's neighbourhoods prematurely.

The imminent arrival of Khalil Pasha's 3,000-man expedition was another reason for haste. Ibrahim Pasha wanted to complete the conquest before the expedition reached the Arabian Peninsula, partly because he wished the military glory for himself. Although he would have preferred that the reinforcements not be commanded by Khalil Pasha, he reassured his father in a letter that he did not object to the appointment and portrayed Khalil's arrival as something of which he would be proud because Khalil was a relative and his assistance would be valuable.

In reality, Ibrahim Pasha was reluctant to share the glory he had achieved. Khalil held the same rank of pasha and was a relative, which could imply participation in command of the army. Ibrahim Pasha would have been happier if the reinforcements had arrived under an officer of lower rank.

His letter nevertheless expressed his desire to attack quickly rather than wait for Khalil's expedition. He also wanted to end the war by a powerful assault and capture Diriyah by the sword, believing that a victory achieved by storming the town would bring him greater military glory than a victory achieved through siege.

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Ibrahim Pasha explained in his letter to his father that the arrival of such a large force would itself be a source of pride, and that if God granted him the capture of Diriyah by the sword, the glory would be greater than if the town fell through siege.

He was therefore determined to carry out a strong general assault before Khalil Pasha arrived. The desire to complete the conquest himself was reinforced by his concern that another pasha of equal rank might share the credit.

Ibrahim Pasha's correspondence makes clear that military glory was an important consideration in his decision to accelerate the final attack. He did not openly tell his father that he disliked the prospect of Khalil Pasha sharing command, but he emphasized his desire to press the attack and complete the operation before the reinforcements arrived.

The planned assault was to be carried out against all remaining parts of Diriyah simultaneously, opening several fronts and preventing the defenders from concentrating their forces at any single point.

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Ibrahim Pasha prepared a carefully coordinated plan for the general assault on Diriyah and kept it secret. He also made the timing deliberately surprising. The attack began on 5 Dhu al-Qa'dah (6 September), with orders issued only two hours before dawn.

The plan was to open fighting on all sides of Diriyah and attack it from every direction. On the night before the attack he sent a military detachment with a cannon to the south of Diriyah and ordered it to

engage the defenders there. He also sent five cavalry and infantry formations to Uzun Ali in the southwest of the valley, where they concealed themselves and waited for orders. Meanwhile Ibrahim Pasha and his men opened fire on the defenders on the eastern bank of the valley.

The purpose of this plan was to occupy the people of Diriyah on several fronts while simultaneously creating an opportunity to clear the southwestern front, where Abd al-Rahman ibn Saud's forces were stationed beside Shu'ayb Katlah.

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Ibrahim Pasha intended the plan to keep the people of Diriyah engaged on more than one front while clearing the southwestern front. He ordered Uzun Ali's forces not to fight until he began his own attack on the opposite side. The idea was that the Saudi troops on Uzun Ali's front would move away to reinforce the defenders on the eastern side.

At dawn Uzun Ali's forces advanced towards the tower of Abd al-Rahman ibn Saud overlooking the Musha'irifah palms. They found it empty, entered it and occupied the palms. They then concentrated in the tower and opened a breach in its wall facing the town so that they could fire upon the inhabitants of Diriyah.

At the same time fighting was raging on several fronts. The defenders resisted with great determination, but during the height of the fighting they were surprised when Uzun Ali's troops appeared behind them from the direction of Musha'irifah. The Saudi forces were surrounded and forced to retreat through the streets and passages of the town.

Ibrahim Pasha's forces pursued them and fighting continued in the streets and lanes. Mangin gives a similar account and says that 800 infantrymen were secretly brought through a small passage that the Saudis had failed to guard.

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The Ottoman-Egyptian forces consequently captured the western and central parts of Diriyah. The Saudis suffered many dead and wounded in the fighting because the penetration of their neighbourhoods had been unexpected and rapid. Prince Ibrahim ibn Saud was killed and Muhammad ibn Mishari ibn Mu'ammam was wounded.

The author concludes that the Saudi defeat and retreat resulted from leaving one of their flanks exposed and unguarded, together with the loss of several commanders at the beginning of the attack. The sudden penetration therefore surprised and disorganized the defenders.

Battle of Ghasibah

After breaking into the town, Ibrahim Pasha's forces tightened the pressure on Ghasibah and surrounded its fortress, where Sa'd ibn Abdullah ibn Saud had taken refuge with several prominent men of Diriyah.

Ibrahim Pasha intensified the artillery bombardment of the fortress, while the defenders attempted to resist the attack.

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The bombardment continued for two days, and Ghasibah fell on 7 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (8 September 1818). Sa'd ibn Abdullah was captured by Ibrahim Pasha.

As Ibrahim Pasha penetrated Diriyah's neighbourhoods and intensified the fighting on the eastern bank of the valley, especially around Samhan, Imam Abdullah ibn Saud—who had been encamped between the gates of al-Zahrah and Samhan—decided to withdraw to al-Tarif, which was more strongly fortified and safer. He left his camp and cannon where they were and withdrew to his palace in al-Tarif.

Ibrahim Pasha's forces then occupied Samhan, and Ibrahim moved his headquarters into Imam Abdullah's abandoned camp.

The author notes that Ibrahim Pasha estimated the Saudi force involved at about 900 men, while Mangin gives a figure of 1,500. The sources also differ over the duration of the bombardment: Ibrahim Pasha's sources indicate two days, while Mangin gives three.

One Ottoman document states that Sa'd ibn Abdullah was killed in these clashes, but this is the first source to make such a claim and he disappears from the later sources. The author also suggests that Imam Abdullah was surprised by Ibrahim Pasha's rapid advance and did not have time to move his artillery to al-Tarif, which weakened the Saudi position in the subsequent battle there.

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Battle of al-Sahl

After Ibrahim Pasha's forces occupied Samhan, they gained a commanding position over al-Sahl. They stormed Bab al-Zahrah after a heavy artillery attack, and a group of soldiers entered al-Sahl, where fierce street fighting followed.

The inhabitants of al-Sahl defended their neighbourhood with great determination. Sheikh Abdullah ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab was among their leaders. Despite his advanced age, he encouraged the inhabitants to continue the defense. They succeeded in forcing Ibrahim Pasha's troops to withdraw from the area.

Their strong resistance appears to have influenced Ibrahim Pasha's acceptance of their request for a peace agreement. The agreement was concluded on 7 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (8 September 1818), as discussed later.

The fall of Ghasibah and al-Sahl spread despair among the Saudis. Many inhabitants and defenders left Diriyah and went outside the town, and Ibrahim Pasha allowed them to leave wherever they wished.

Mangin states that only a small number of fighters remained around Imam Abdullah, together with his personal guard of approximately 400 enslaved Black soldiers.

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Battle of al-Tarif

After the fall of al-Sahl, Ibrahim Pasha's forces advanced against Imam Abdullah, who had taken refuge in al-Tarif. Ibrahim began preparing a powerful attack against this neighbourhood, which was the strongest fortified part of Diriyah.

Ibrahim Pasha brought his artillery to the summit of Bab Samhan mountain on the eastern bank of the valley. From there he could bombard al-Tarif. The sources describe two accounts of the battle: one by Ibn Bishr and another preserved in Ottoman documents. The latter is based originally on a letter from Sheikh Salim of Kuwait to Sheikh Muhammad ibn Ibrahim al-Abd al-Razzaq, who forwarded it to Dawud Pasha, governor of Baghdad. Sheikh Salim obtained his information from letters sent to him by Sheikh Majid al-'Ar'ir, as well as from a copy of a letter from Ibrahim Pasha describing the events.

Because the two accounts contain several similarities, the author combines them while identifying their differences.

The Ottoman documents say Ibrahim Pasha positioned his cannon at a place called al-Zalal or al-Tilal. The precise location is uncertain, but it was probably near the summit of Samhan mountain, from which Ibn Bishr says Ibrahim Pasha bombarded al-Tarif. The location was advantageous because the summit was higher than al-Tarif and about half a kilometre away, with Wadi Hanifah between them.

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Ibrahim Pasha positioned his artillery on the eastern bank of the valley to bombard al-Tarif. The bombardment destroyed parts of the palaces of the House of Saud in al-Tarif. Imam Abdullah responded with the forces that had joined him from al-Bujayri and surrounding areas. He brought the cannon from his palace and positioned them at the Eid prayer ground to confront the Ottoman-Egyptian troops attacking from that direction.

Ibrahim Pasha then decided to attack al-Tarif from every direction. He divided his forces into four formations: one advanced towards al-Tarif from al-Nasriyyah east of the neighbourhood; one from Manakh al-Hajj to the northeast; one from al-Zahrah north of al-Tarif; and one from the Eid prayer ground northwest of it.

There were no forces attacking from the south because the area was mountainous and difficult to cross.

The fighting between the two sides became intense, involving artillery and rifles. Imam Abdullah eventually decided to surrender and request peace after most of the men around him had dispersed and he saw no benefit in prolonging the fighting. He sent his request to Ibrahim Pasha, who halted the artillery bombardment and negotiations began on 9 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (10 September 1818).

The author observes that the term 'siege' is not entirely accurate. Ibrahim Pasha never completely surrounded Diriyah. Instead, he surrounded individual sectors of the elongated town, captured one sector and then moved to the next. In this sense, it was Imam Abdullah and the remaining defenders who confined themselves inside Diriyah and failed to exploit the gaps in the surrounding forces.

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The Fall of Diriyah and the Peace Agreements

Following Ibrahim Pasha's major attack on the remaining parts of Diriyah, the town began to fall. Imam Abdullah's decision to request peace marked the beginning of the final arrangements for surrender.

Ibrahim Pasha concluded three separate peace agreements in Diriyah, according to Ibn Bishr.

The first was with the people of al-Sahl on Wednesday, 7 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (8 September 1818). A delegation of prominent men from Diriyah—Abdullah ibn Abd al-Aziz ibn Muhammad, Sheikh Ali ibn Muhammad ibn Abd al-Wahhab, and Muhammad ibn Mishari ibn Mu'ammār—approached Ibrahim Pasha and negotiated a general peace for all Diriyah. Ibrahim refused and required the surrender of Imam Abdullah first. He insisted that the agreement apply only to al-Sahl. The inhabitants accepted safe conduct for their lives, property and homes, and Ibrahim Pasha's army entered al-Sahl to fight Imam Abdullah in al-Tarif.

Mangin also mentions this agreement, adding the people of Ghasibah to the inhabitants who surrendered, on the condition that the army would not enter either neighbourhood until al-Tarif had been captured. Ibrahim Pasha did not honour this condition fully, since his forces entered al-Sahl to conduct operations against al-Tarif and also entered Ghasibah because doing so facilitated military operations against al-Tarif.

The author therefore treats these arrangements as surrender agreements imposed by the victorious side rather than equal peace treaties.

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The second agreement was between Ibrahim Pasha and Prince Sa'd ibn Abdullah, who had taken refuge in the Ghasibah fortress. It was concluded on the same day as the agreement with the people of al-Sahl and was based on safe conduct and permission to leave the fortress.

Mangin says that Sa'd ibn Abdullah did not sign a formal surrender agreement but trusted Ibrahim Pasha's generosity and was taken prisoner.

Ottoman documents indicate that the people of Diriyah had offered peace to Ibrahim Pasha several times from the beginning of the siege. He repeatedly refused to negotiate unless Diriyah was surrendered and Imam Abdullah went to the Sultan.

One Ottoman document refers to the agreement at al-Sahl and states that Muhammad ibn Mishari and Ali, the son of the Sheikh, sought safe conduct from Ibrahim Pasha, who granted it and spared them.

The same document says that Saud, a cousin of Imam Abdullah, was captured and executed. It also refers to the agreement concerning Ghasibah and says that Sa'd ibn Abdullah was captured and, after requesting safe conduct, was granted it.

The third agreement came after the fall of al-Tarif, the last stronghold of Diriyah. Imam Abdullah realized that there was no benefit in prolonging the resistance and agreed to surrender himself.

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The accounts differ over the details of the meeting and the conditions agreed upon. Ibn Bishr does not mention the alleged earlier meeting between Ibrahim Pasha and Imam Abdullah. He simply states that the two reached an agreement on 9 Dhu al-Qa'dah 1233 AH (10 September 1818), under which Imam Abdullah would surrender himself and go to the Sultan.

The Ottoman documents likewise give few details. They say that Imam Abdullah requested safe conduct from Ibrahim Pasha and that it was granted. He came as part of a delegation of four men from the House of Saud and the House of the Sheikh, and they surrendered to Ibrahim Pasha, who sent them to Egypt.

Mangin gives a much fuller account. He says Imam Abdullah sent an envoy to Ibrahim Pasha on 8 Dhu al-Qa'dah asking that the fighting stop and that negotiations begin. Ibrahim agreed immediately. Imam Abdullah then came to Ibrahim Pasha's tent accompanied by about 200 followers. Mangin describes their meeting and Ibrahim's supposedly generous treatment of Imam Abdullah, including an offer to provide him with gunpowder and ammunition if he wished to continue the war. Imam Abdullah refused and acknowledged Ibrahim's victory.

The author considers this account exaggerated. He notes that it is difficult to accept the idea that Ibrahim Pasha would have offered his defeated enemy ammunition to continue fighting, and suggests that Mangin may have wished to portray Ibrahim as noble and generous.

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Mangin says that Ibrahim Pasha and Imam Abdullah agreed on peace, but Ibrahim told him that there was one matter over which he had no authority: sending Abdullah to Egypt. Imam Abdullah asked for one day to make his final decision.

According to Mangin, Ibrahim's courteous treatment encouraged Abdullah to agree to surrender even though he might have escaped if he wished. Abdullah feared for his family and for Diriyah, believing that the town might be burned and destroyed if he fled. He therefore chose to go to Egypt. The two men met again the following day and agreed that Imam Abdullah would surrender himself in the hope that his family would not be harmed, Diriyah would not be destroyed and those who had fought against Ibrahim would not be punished.

The author notes that it is not known whether this agreement was written down and signed. No formal document has been found among the reliable sources. In reality, the author argues, this was not a peace treaty but a surrender agreement in which the victorious side imposed its conditions. This is

apparent even in Mangin's account, where Abdullah is described as requesting that Diriyah not be destroyed and that his family and those who had fought Ibrahim not be punished.

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The fall of Diriyah ended with Imam Abdullah ibn Saud leaving for Egypt accompanied by a number of his loyal followers. Mangin says that his treasurer and secretary were among those accompanying him, together with a retinue of his personal slaves guarded by approximately 400 Ottoman soldiers under Rashwan Agha.

The author emphasizes that the surviving sources do not establish that the conditions described by Mangin were formally documented. The absence of a signed treaty reinforces the interpretation that the final arrangement was a surrender rather than a negotiated peace.

The final outcome was therefore determined by the military defeat of Diriyah. Imam Abdullah surrendered himself and was taken to Egypt, while Ibrahim Pasha's forces took possession of the town.

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Conditions of the people of Diriyah during the siege

Normal daily life in Diriyah almost completely stopped during the siege. The inhabitants were preoccupied with defending the town even before the siege began, devoting much of their attention to constructing the necessary defenses, including walls, towers and barricades.

As fighting spread throughout Diriyah and continued almost continuously for more than six months, living conditions deteriorated severely. The exhaustion of food supplies created the possibility of famine, and prices rose dramatically. Wheat became extraordinarily expensive.

A large proportion of the inhabitants participated directly in the fighting, disrupting the social, educational and economic institutions that had previously been active in Diriyah. Women and children also assisted the men by providing water, food and other services to the soldiers.

The intensity of the fighting created fear for people's lives, property and families. Scholars worked to strengthen morale, calm the inhabitants and encourage them to continue fighting and defending their families.

The worsening conditions, intense fighting and high prices caused many inhabitants to leave Diriyah and seek safety elsewhere. The prolonged siege displaced many families, who lost their homes and farms and were forced to search for safe places for their children.

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The participation of large numbers of Diriyah's inhabitants in the fighting disrupted the social, intellectual and economic centres that had been particularly active before the siege. Women and children assisted the men by serving the troops, supplying water and food and performing other necessary tasks.

The severity of the fighting caused widespread fear among the population for their property, lives and children. The scholars attempted to stabilize the population, reduce their fear and encourage them to continue fighting and defending their families.

The deteriorating condition of Diriyah, the intensity of the fighting and the high cost of food drove many inhabitants to abandon the town and escape to other areas. The length of the siege was particularly important. A large number of families were displaced after losing their property and farms in Diriyah and had to seek safe shelter.

The price of wheat had risen enormously. Ibn Bishr's comparison with prices during an earlier famine is used by the author to illustrate the extraordinary inflation caused by the siege.

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The role of the Ottoman governors of Baghdad, Syria and the Hijaz in the siege of Diriyah

A. The province of Baghdad

Dawud Pasha, the Ottoman governor of Baghdad, made an important contribution during Ibrahim Pasha's campaign. Iraq was a major source of supplies for Ibrahim Pasha during the siege. Several caravans arrived from Iraq carrying provisions, ammunition and weapons. After Ibrahim Pasha's ammunition depot burned, the Iraqi supply caravans became even more active, bringing the supplies he needed.

The governor of Basra alone sent a caravan of approximately 1,965 camels loaded with rice, barley and flour.

Dawud Pasha also supported the tribes of eastern Arabia in order to weaken the Saudi state and reduce the pressure on Ibrahim Pasha, whose forces were concentrated in western and central Arabia.

Perhaps Dawud Pasha's greatest contribution was sending a large force under Muhammad and Majid al-'Ar'ir, the two shaykhs of Bani Khalid. Their objectives were to recover al-Ahsa and simultaneously provide support to Ibrahim Pasha's army besieging Diriyah. Another objective was to prevent fugitives and supplies from reaching the Saudi state.

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By recovering al-Ahsa from the Saudis, Imam Abdullah would lose an important region of his state and its last major stronghold outside Diriyah. This would tighten the pressure around him and make it more difficult for him to leave Diriyah for al-Ahsa, closing the routes available to him.

Dawud Pasha continued to support Muhammad and Majid al-'Ar'ir so that they could complete their mission. Before Shawwal 1233 AH, Majid al-'Ar'ir succeeded in recovering al-Ahsa after Ibn 'Afisan fled, except for the fortress of Hofuf. Muhammad al-'Ar'ir brought Qatif under control as well.

This means that al-Ahsa fell into the hands of the Al 'Ar'ir family before the fall of Diriyah, contrary to some sources that place the fall of al-Ahsa after Diriyah.

Muhammad and Majid al-'Ar'ir also made a major contribution to Ibrahim Pasha's siege. Ibrahim entrusted them with several military tasks, the most important being the provision of horses and camels for the army besieging Diriyah.

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Majid al-'Ar'ir sent his brother Muhammad with a force to Ibrahim Pasha so that he could participate in various military operations, after which he returned to al-Ahsa. Dawud Pasha also sent another force from the Muntafiq tribe to Najd to support Ibrahim Pasha's siege of Diriyah.

He also sent the shaykh of the al-Jarba clan, Safuq ibn Faris, from the tribes of the Syrian desert to serve Ibrahim Pasha. This tribe remained with Ibrahim until the fall of Diriyah and then returned with enormous spoils from Najd.

Dawud Pasha's interest in active participation in the siege was particularly strong in relation to al-Ahsa. Ottoman documents indicate that Ibrahim Pasha wrote to Dawud Pasha requesting assistance, either in the form of supplies or troops for the siege. Dawud Pasha replied that, even before receiving Ibrahim's request, he had already been preparing forces to participate in the war as well as caravans carrying supplies.

His motivation was partly loyalty to the Ottoman Sultan and partly his desire to preserve the authority of the Baghdad province over al-Ahsa. He feared that Muhammad Ali might eventually acquire independent and excessive authority in Arabia. This concern became especially clear after the fall of Diriyah, when Dawud Pasha urged the Sultan to keep al-Ahsa under the authority of Bani Khalid and the supervision of Baghdad rather than allowing Muhammad Ali's influence to expand.

The Sultan understood Dawud Pasha's position and his concern about Muhammad Ali's growing influence, but he nevertheless accepted Dawud's position because Muhammad Ali represented the greater immediate threat. He therefore prevented Muhammad Ali from advancing into al-Ahsa and ordered him to withdraw.

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CHAPTER THREE — The Role of the Ottoman Provinces

Dawud Pasha's concern for active participation in the siege was driven by his desire to maintain the Sultan's favour and, at the same time, preserve the authority of the Baghdad province over al-Ahsa. He feared that Muhammad Ali might acquire unchecked authority in Arabia. This position became clear after the fall of Diriyah, when Dawud Pasha urged the Sultan to keep al-Ahsa under the authority of Bani Khalid and under the supervision of Baghdad, fearing the growth of Muhammad Ali's influence.

Although the Sultan understood Dawud Pasha's position and also feared the growth of Dawud's own influence, he accepted it because Muhammad Ali represented the greater danger at that time. He therefore prevented Muhammad Ali from advancing into al-Ahsa and ordered him to withdraw.

B. The Governors of Syria

The governors of Syria played only a limited role in Ibrahim Pasha's war against Diriyah. They failed to provide substantial assistance despite orders from the Sublime Porte directing the governor of Syria to move towards Najd, particularly after Imam Abdullah's activities following the Treaty of al-Rass. According to the Ottoman documents, this was intended as a precautionary measure until Ibrahim Pasha's expedition had departed. The author, however, considers the real reason to have been connected with Muhammad Ali's pressure to obtain control of the Syrian province so that he could use its resources to support Ibrahim Pasha's campaign.

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The Ottoman government repeatedly instructed the governors of Syria, especially the governors of Sidon and Damascus, to collect camels from the Syrian Bedouin and provide them to Ibrahim Pasha. The governor of Damascus obeyed the Sultan's order and sent about 10,000 camels from Syria with the Syrian pilgrimage caravan to Medina for delivery to Ibrahim Pasha. Nevertheless, the governors of Syria generally delayed or avoided carrying out the Sultan's orders concerning assistance to Muhammad Ali.

This attitude appears to have encouraged Imam Abdullah to try to establish contact with the governors of Syria and seek their support or mediation with the Sultan. He sent a letter to Hafiz Pasha, the governor of Syria, when Hafiz reached Medina as commander of the Syrian pilgrimage caravan. Hafiz informed the Sultan of the letter, and the Sultan ordered him not to take any notice of it and not to respond to any further correspondence or contacts from Imam Abdullah.

C. The Role of the Hijaz

Ottoman rule returned to the Hijaz, where Muhammad Ali exercised direct authority in the Sultan's name. An Ottoman governor-general was appointed for the Hijaz, in addition to the Sharif of Mecca, who remained subordinate to the Sultan. During Ibrahim Pasha's campaign to destroy the First Saudi State at Diriyah, Ottoman officials in the Hijaz had two principal tasks: preserving Muhammad Ali's gains in the Hijaz and maintaining security by suppressing rebellions against Ottoman rule or movements supporting the Saudis, whether in the Hijaz or nearby Asir; and providing Ibrahim Pasha with the supplies, troops, weapons and other resources he required.

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Ottoman documents do not in fact mention any substantial forces from Syria assisting Ibrahim Pasha in the siege of Diriyah. Ibn Bishr is almost alone among the available sources in mentioning forces from the province of Syria serving with Ibrahim Pasha, and these appear to have been unofficial.

In any event, the influence of the Ottoman provinces of Syria during the siege was weak. Their contribution consisted mainly of camels for transporting supplies and perhaps a small number of troops, since these forces receive little attention in the principal sources describing Ibrahim Pasha's army and its composition.

C. The Role of the Hijaz

Ottoman rule returned to the Hijaz, where Muhammad Ali exercised direct government in the name of the Ottoman Sultan. An Ottoman governor-general was appointed for the Hijaz, in addition to the Sharif of Mecca, who remained subject to the Sultan.

During Ibrahim Pasha's campaign, the officials of the Hijaz had two main responsibilities: first, preserving Muhammad Ali's victories in the Hijaz and maintaining security by suppressing rebellions against Ottoman rule or movements supporting the Saudis in the Hijaz and neighbouring Asir; and second, providing Ibrahim Pasha with the supplies, soldiers, weapons and other necessities required for his campaign. Medina and Yanbu in particular served as major supply centres for Ibrahim Pasha, with large stores of provisions and ammunition arriving from Egypt.

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The governor of Mecca, Hasan Pasha, played an active role in suppressing many rebellions that arose in the Hijaz while Ibrahim Pasha was occupied at Diriyah. At the end of 1233 AH, Hasan Pasha organized a large cavalry force under Rashwan Agha, chief of the guides, loaded with provisions and fodder, and sent it to Ibrahim Pasha in Najd. This force played an active role in the siege of Diriyah.

Hasan Pasha also sent supplies, particularly barley, which was scarce in Ibrahim Pasha's army, from Jeddah by sea to Yanbu and from there to Medina, the principal centre for supplying Ibrahim Pasha in Najd.

The Attitude of the Settled Population and Bedouin of Najd toward the Siege of Diriyah

The northern towns that Ibrahim Pasha succeeded in subduing had resisted strongly and delayed his advance toward Diriyah for approximately a year and a half. Despite their eventual submission, forces from several of these towns went to participate in the defense of Diriyah, particularly men from Thadiq, al-Mahmal, al-Safra, Sudayr, al-Qasim and al-Washm.

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Forces also came from southern Najd, especially from al-Hawtah and al-Hariq. These areas had not been reached by Ibrahim Pasha and sent large forces to defend Diriyah. They remained loyal to Diriyah and continued their resistance even after its fall, forcing Ibrahim Pasha to send troops to subdue them after the town had fallen. The settled population played an important role during the siege by confronting Ibrahim Pasha's attacks, and many of their men were killed in the fighting.

The role of the settled population was not limited to combat. Many towns in Najd supplied Diriyah and continually sent assistance, particularly because Ibrahim Pasha had not initially established a complete blockade. These towns, especially 'Irqah, which was very close to Diriyah, were attacked by Ibrahim Pasha in order to prevent supplies from reaching the town.

The towns mentioned include al-Rass, al-Khubra, Unayzah, Buraydah and al-Midhnab in al-Qasim; Shaqra, Ushayqir and al-Fara'ah in al-Washm; and towns in Thadiq, al-Mahmal, Sudayr and Dhurma.

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A different aspect of the position of the settled population appeared in the actions of some leaders from Riyadh, al-Kharj and Manfuhah. Forces from these towns fought alongside Ibrahim Pasha in Diriyah and elsewhere and participated with him in the battles at 'Irqah in order to subdue it and prevent it from supplying Diriyah.

This attitude reflected the fact that Riyadh and al-Kharj had been among the Najdi towns that had resisted Saudi rule when the First Saudi State was established. Their former ruling families saw the opportunity to recover their influence and independent authority and regarded cooperation with Ibrahim Pasha as a means of achieving that aim. After the fall of Diriyah, Hamad ibn Nasir al-'A'idhi became independent ruler of Riyadh, while the Al Zamil family returned to power in al-Kharj.

Manfuhah had been loyal to the Saudi State from its foundation, but its inhabitants were divided between supporters and opponents. A large number of people from Manfuhah were in Diriyah and had defended it from the beginning of the siege; more than fifty of them were killed in the fighting.

Diriyah also suffered from Najdis who opposed it and lived outside the town, particularly in Basra and al-Zubayr. These people had previously left Najd and had their property confiscated, so they saw the siege of Diriyah as an opportunity to strike back at its leaders by supporting Ibrahim Pasha and sending him various supplies and provisions.

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Ibn Bishr states that, as the siege continued, some Najdi leaders who had helped Ibrahim Pasha advised him to send orders to the towns of Najd requiring each town to provide men to fight with him at Diriyah. Ibrahim Pasha followed this advice, and groups of Najdis took part in the fighting, in some cases under compulsion and out of fear of Ibrahim Pasha's punishment if they refused.

B. The Attitude of the Bedouin

Muhammad Ali understood very well the importance of the Bedouin tribes to the success or failure of his operations in Arabia. The alignment of the Bedouin with either side could determine the outcome because of their numbers, distribution, military strength, ability to endure desert warfare and knowledge of its routes and terrain.

The Bedouin had played an important role in Muhammad Ali's wars in Arabia from the beginning. During Ibrahim Pasha's campaign and the siege of Diriyah, the tribes initially wavered between

opposing Ibrahim Pasha and submitting to him. His policy of encouragement and intimidation gradually changed the position of many tribes, leading them to join him.

During preparations for Ibrahim Pasha's expedition, Muhammad Ali contacted the Bedouin tribes and attempted to win them to the Ottoman-Egyptian side. He wrote to their shaykhs before the expedition asking them to submit to Ibrahim Pasha and also sent the Sharif Rajih with the expedition to influence the tribes.

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The tribes were expected to provide Ibrahim Pasha with the provisions and means of transport he needed, as well as protection for supply caravans against attack and plunder.

The tribes of northern the Hijaz and Najd were less enthusiastic about the Saudi State than tribes in the south. Ibrahim Pasha therefore found it easier to win their loyalty, either by purchasing it or by intimidating them into submission. When he arrived at Yanbu, one of his first plans for reaching Diriyah was to subdue the Bedouin tribes along the route. He conducted military manoeuvres to display his forces and impress the tribes of the region. When he subsequently demanded that neighbouring tribes provide transport for his army, they were compelled to assist him and came in delegations to offer their allegiance.

After Ibrahim Pasha moved to al-Hanakiyah, he carried out extensive military operations against the tribes in the area in order to force them into submission and secure his line of retreat and supply from Medina before entering the Najd desert. The tribes of Harb, 'Utaybah, Mutayr and 'Anazah were among those subjected to his raids.

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'Anazah was one of the strongest and most numerous tribes in the region. Harb was smaller but famous for its bravery and wealth, derived partly from the caravans of pilgrims travelling from Egypt and Syria through its territory. It controlled the northern gateway to the Hijaz and was therefore a major power in the region. Mutayr and 'Utaybah were weaker by comparison because their territories were smaller and their populations in this area were fewer than those of 'Anazah and Harb.

The positions of some tribes changed either through force, financial inducement or political and personal interests. At the beginning of Ibrahim Pasha's arrival, these tribes did not immediately declare their loyalty. Military confrontations nevertheless affected the positions of some tribal shaykhs, and several came to Ibrahim Pasha to submit to him.

Among the most prominent was Ghanim ibn Mudyan, one of the leading chiefs of Harb. One important reason for his submission appears to have been his hope of recovering the status and privileges his ancestors had enjoyed in the Hijaz, which his tribe had lost at the hands of Tusun Pasha during the first campaign because Harb had opposed that campaign.

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As a result of Ibrahim Pasha's raids and his success in bringing the Bedouin tribes under his authority, Imam Abdullah ibn Saud decided to march out to punish those tribes and bring them back under the Saudi State. The two sides therefore entered into a competition to secure the loyalty of the tribes. Ibrahim Pasha eventually prevailed after his victory at the famous Battle of Mawiyah, which forced Imam Abdullah to retreat and abandon the idea of desert warfare. He instead took refuge in the fortified Najdi towns and confronted Ibrahim Pasha there.

Ibrahim Pasha had thus secured the loyalty of the tribes, protected his communications and gained large numbers of additional troops and assistance, particularly in transport and the provision of camels.

Ibrahim Pasha gave generous payments to the tribal shaykhs and their tribes to ensure that their loyalty continued, believing that many tribes changed their allegiance according to their interests. The Egyptians had understood this characteristic from the beginning of their arrival in Arabia. Muhammad Ali described it in a letter to the Sultan, explaining that some Arab shaykhs came professing loyalty and received robes and gifts, while secretly remaining uncertain and watching to see which of the two sides would emerge victorious so that they could take advantage of the opportunity.

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One of the most prominent Bedouin leaders to support Ibrahim Pasha was Faisal al-Duwish, who became one of his principal allies in the region. Arrangements were made for Faisal to join the campaign. According to some foreign sources, the motive that led Sheikh Faisal to ally himself with Ibrahim Pasha against Imam Abdullah was his hostility toward Abdullah after the latter had killed a number of his tribe's shaykhs, including one of Faisal's brothers. A Turkish manuscript gives a similar account. These sources also state that Ibrahim Pasha promised Faisal ibn Watban al-Duwish that he would make him ruler of Najd in place of Imam Abdullah, encouraging Faisal to provide important services to the invading army.

Faisal al-Duwish served the expedition from its departure from al-Hanakiyah until its arrival at Diriyah and its capture. He acted as a guide for Ibrahim Pasha through the Najd desert, encouraged tribes to oppose Imam Abdullah, supplied Ibrahim Pasha with assistance and camels, transported provisions and ammunition, and protected his communications with Medina.

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Faisal al-Duwish also carried out extensive movements during the siege of Diriyah in the areas around the town, attempting to isolate it completely, tighten the pressure upon it and cut off any supplies reaching it. He maintained continuous contact with Ibrahim Pasha's headquarters in Diriyah and transmitted information about villages and tribes supporting Imam Abdullah.

Other tribes also played important roles in Ibrahim Pasha's service during the siege. They transported ammunition and military equipment from his supply centres at Yanbu and Medina to Diriyah. Ibrahim Pasha rewarded them generously for these services, as he explained in one of his letters to his father.

Although many tribal groups joined Ibrahim Pasha, several tribes remained loyal to the Saudi State. Among them were groups from the Subay' tribe and groups from 'Utaybah. Ghasab ibn Shir'an was one of the famous horsemen of 'Utaybah and one of the prominent commanders who played an important role in the siege of Diriyah. He remained with Imam Abdullah from the beginning of his struggle against the Ottoman forces.

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The Barzan section of Mutayr also supported Imam Abdullah. Its chief, Hubab ibn Quhaydan, remained close to Imam Abdullah and fought alongside him at the Battle of Mawiyah.

Sheikh Mubarak al-Zahiri was likewise loyal to Imam Abdullah and remained with him until the fall of Diriyah. Ottoman documents state that he was captured after the fall of Diriyah together with his son Sa'd; he requested safe conduct from Ibrahim Pasha and was granted it.

The tribes of southern Najd supported Imam Abdullah. Ottoman documents state that several southern tribes, including groups from Qahtan, settled near Diriyah to assist him. Ibrahim Pasha sent Bedouin forces loyal to him against them to prevent them from providing assistance to Imam Abdullah or advancing towards Diriyah.

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The Position of the Regions Surrounding Najd toward the Siege of Diriyah

Muscat, Yemen and Kuwait were the principal areas of the Arabian Peninsula that remained outside the influence of the First Saudi State at this time. These regions sided with the Ottoman forces in their war against the First Saudi State from the beginning and provided various forms of assistance to Muhammad Ali's forces in their campaigns against the Saudis.

1. The Sultanate of Muscat

The Sultan of Muscat supported the Ottoman-Egyptian forces in their conflict with the First Saudi State because he wished to eliminate a state that competed with him for influence over Oman and the Omani coast.

There is no clear evidence that the Sultan of Muscat directly assisted Ibrahim Pasha during the siege, but an Ottoman document—a letter from Muhammad al-'Ar'ir to Dawud Pasha reporting on the war at Diriyah—mentions that Muhammad had received various forms of assistance while besieging its fortress at Qatif, including assistance from the Sultan of Muscat, Sayyid Sa'd.

The assistance provided by the Sultan of Muscat therefore appears to have been directed mainly toward helping the leaders of Bani Khalid recover their influence over al-Ahsa and Qatif and expel the Saudis from those areas.

2. Yemen

When the Saudis conquered Yemeni towns, Imam al-Mutawakkil appealed both to the Ottoman Sultan and to the powerful Egyptian governor Muhammad Ali Pasha for help in stopping the Saudi advance. Both sent him valuable gifts and promised assistance.

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Good relations continued between Muhammad Ali and the Imam of Yemen. During his campaigns against the Saudi State, Muhammad Ali asked the Imam of Yemen to provide ships to transport soldiers and supplies for the war against the Saudis. Imam al-Mutawakkil complied and sent the required ships to Suez and al-Qusayr.

3. Kuwait

Kuwait appears initially to have leaned toward supporting the House of Saud and may have provided them with various forms of assistance by sea. Dawud Pasha, governor of Baghdad, intervened and prevented this. He also sent several letters to Rahmah ibn Jabir, the shaykh of the Jalahimah in Kuwait, sometimes threatening him and sometimes encouraging him with promises, until he compelled him to sail to al-Ahsa with a number of ships loaded with cannon and ammunition to assist Majid and Muhammad al-'Ar'ir in recovering al-Ahsa from the Saudis.

The ruler of Kuwait, Sheikh Jabir ibn Abdullah al-Sabah, also facilitated the passage of supplies and weapons from Iraq so that they could be delivered to Ibrahim Pasha.

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These supplies were intended for Ibrahim Pasha, in addition to the assistance provided to the Al 'Ar'ir family in al-Ahsa.

The strong relations that had connected Kuwait with the Saudi leaders appear to have weakened as a result of the Ottoman victories and the weakening of the Saudi position.

The Attitude of the World Powers toward the Siege and Fall of Diriyah

The establishment and expansion of the First Saudi State did not merely provoke the anger and fear of the Ottoman Empire. It also attracted the attention of other world powers competing for control of the approaches to the Red Sea and the Arabian Gulf, particularly Britain and France, as well as other powers with their own interests, such as Persia.

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By the end of the first decade of the nineteenth century, the Red Sea had begun to regain the importance it had previously lost after the discovery of the Cape of Good Hope. Its importance had gradually increased from about the middle of the eighteenth century and grew further after Napoleon's

expedition to Egypt. The European power most interested in the Red Sea was Great Britain, then the world's most extensive colonial power in the East. Britain had become deeply concerned when the French occupied Egypt and worked to expel them. After succeeding, Britain adopted a consistent policy of preventing any major or hostile local power from controlling the ports of the Red Sea.

It was therefore impossible for Britain to remain indifferent to the emergence of a major state in the Arabian Peninsula such as the Saudi State, which, according to the author's interpretation, was hostile in its political and ideological outlook to British colonialism in Muslim countries.

The Arabian Gulf was also beginning to emerge from the isolation imposed on it by the discovery of the Cape route and to regain its importance. Britain was particularly concerned with the Gulf because of its commercial communications and its routes to its eastern colonies.

The emergence of the Saudi State and its growing military activity threatened British policy in the Gulf, especially because the Saudi State had acquired a real presence throughout the Gulf and had incorporated the maritime power of the Qawasim, who were politically and ideologically connected with the Saudi State. Their ships sailed throughout the Gulf and reached the Indian Ocean, threatening British shipping.

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Saudi attacks on Iraq also increased, threatening the British overland mail route through Iraq to Britain's eastern colonies. Britain's response focused on attacking the Qawasim at Ras al-Khaimah and attempting to destroy their fleet, while simultaneously trying to avoid direct confrontation with the Saudis. Britain presented itself as not hostile to the Saudis but as fighting what it called piracy, whereas the Saudi State regarded the activity as an Islamic jihad. This policy was intended to avoid an open war with the Saudis whose outcome could not be guaranteed.

Mangin states that as soon as the British government in India learned that the Ottoman-Egyptian army was marching toward Diriyah, it planned to send an expedition to Qatif in order to protect British trade and divert Saudi attention, thereby facilitating Ibrahim Pasha's operations. A force of approximately 3,000 Indian soldiers was sent, but the expedition arrived only after Diriyah had fallen and Ibrahim Pasha had withdrawn from Najd.

Bridges, in his Brief History of the Wahhabis, commented that he knew nothing of the force described by Mangin and that, if Mangin's report was correct, it illustrated the situation described by the author.

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These powers were greatly pleased by the fall of Diriyah. Britain openly welcomed the fall of the First Saudi State because it feared that the Saudi State might create a political union among the Arab emirates of the Gulf, which would threaten the British position there.

At the same time, British authorities feared that Muhammad Ali's power might replace the Saudi State as the force unifying the region and establish another strong state that could threaten British interests.

Britain therefore encouraged Ibrahim Pasha to pursue the Saudis and their Qawasim allies, both to eliminate them and to exhaust the Egyptian forces in the process.

British policy consequently sought to discover the aims of Ibrahim Pasha and his father in their future campaigns toward the Gulf and to determine whether an alliance with the Egyptian forces was possible. Captain Sadleir was assigned this task. He failed, however, to obtain Ibrahim Pasha's agreement to the British proposal that the Qawasim should be destroyed through a combined operation: a British force landing from the sea and Ibrahim Pasha's troops attacking from land.

Muhammad Ali warned Ibrahim Pasha against reaching an agreement with the British at that time. The Sublime Porte had issued Muhammad Ali strict instructions not to cooperate with the British on this matter.

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Muhammad Ali instructed Ibrahim Pasha to respond to the British with what the author describes as a wise but non-confrontational reply, without trusting them, following the advice of the Grand Vizier.

Russia was another major European power that welcomed the fall of Diriyah. Its ambassador in Constantinople had followed reports of the siege from the beginning and sent a note of congratulations to the Sultan when Diriyah fell. This demonstrates Russia's interest in the region from the beginning of the nineteenth century, although the practical expression of that interest did not become clear until later, particularly in connection with Russia's desire to reach warm-water seas and its fear that a major power outside Ottoman influence might arise in the region.

Persia, meanwhile, was hostile to the First Saudi State. Persian Shi'a leaders regarded the Sunni reformist teachings adopted by the Saudi State as a threat to their religious and political order, while followers of the Saudi movement regarded Shi'a beliefs as a departure from Islamic teaching. The Persian government therefore maintained a hostile position toward the Saudi State from its foundation until its collapse. This hostility increased after the Saudi attack on Karbala and Najaf in 1801, which led the Shah of Persia to threaten an invasion of Iraq.

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The Persian government was continually prepared to provide military assistance to enemies of the Saudi State. Although the sources do not mention any military or other assistance that the Persian government provided to Muhammad Ali in his wars against the First Saudi State, news of the fall of Diriyah was received with great joy by the Shah of Persia. He sent Muhammad Ali Pasha a letter congratulating him on his success in eliminating the Saudi State and presented him with a fine gift: an old sword and a turquoise ring, expressing his pleasure and gratitude at the fall of Diriyah.

Factors in the Fall of Diriyah and the Collapse of the First Saudi State

The fall of Diriyah was not the result only of circumstances that arose during Ibrahim Pasha's campaign and siege. Its causes had become apparent much earlier, from the beginning of the Egyptian campaigns against the Saudi State. The peripheries of the state had continually represented a source of

disturbance and a threat. Even when the Egyptian expeditions arrived, the Saudi State had been unable to control its borders and the neighbouring powers. This eventually caused those powers to converge against it, weakening the state and contributing to its fall. The Saudi State had not maintained good relations with the neighbouring world powers and consequently found no ally willing to support it against the attack.

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The immediate factors that led to the fall of Diriyah were numerous and can be grouped under several important political, military, economic and psychological headings.

The Imbalance in Military Strength

Although the Saudis had superior numbers of fighters, Ibrahim Pasha had the advantage of having trained his soldiers more effectively in modern methods and techniques of warfare.

The Saudi forces also lost many soldiers and followers during their battles with Ibrahim Pasha, while his forces continued to grow. Supply caravans from Egypt carrying troops and provisions did not stop throughout the war. In addition, Ibrahim Pasha deliberately sought the support of the Bedouin, spending more than six months at al-Hanakiyah with the principal aim of winning as many tribes as possible to his side. He thereby strongly reinforced his army with tribesmen before advancing into Najd. During the siege he also made use of men from the Najdi towns surrounding Diriyah to fight alongside him.

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The Ottoman-Egyptian forces also enjoyed an important advantage in their thorough preparation with everything required by modern armies: provisions, money, ammunition and modern, powerful weapons that the Saudis had never encountered before. Ibn Bishr described their enormous artillery, noting that each gun could produce a devastating effect, while elsewhere he described Ibrahim Pasha's mortars and bombs as terrifying because of the size of their projectiles and the damage they inflicted on towers, walls and houses. It was said that a mortar projectile weighed more than twenty weights.

The Saudis, by contrast, lacked modern weapons, particularly artillery. Although they possessed a considerable number of guns, these were old and weak and could not match the modern artillery of the Ottoman-Egyptian army. Those operating them may also have lacked sufficient skill. The importance of artillery lay in its ability to crush the enemy, leaving the infantry to enter and occupy ground that had effectively been devastated.

As for military plans and methods of combat, Ibrahim Pasha and his advisers demonstrated considerable competence in planning and in drawing up military strategies, as shown by the results of his wars with the Saudis. He followed a military plan based on winning over the Bedouin tribes along his route so that his army's supply route would remain secure.

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During battles Ibrahim Pasha also employed modern tactical movements and provided continuous artillery fire support, enabling him to gain the advantage through a number of modern European methods and tactics.

Despite the obvious disparity between the Saudi and Ottoman-Egyptian forces, Saudi fighters possessed qualities that gave them the potential to become an exceptionally formidable army. Jean-Jacques Rousseau described their military qualities, emphasizing their extraordinary courage in confronting danger and death and their determination to attack their enemies in the hope of martyrdom. In his view, what they lacked was not courage or physical and moral qualities, but knowledge of modern military technology and organization.

Failure to Exploit Available Opportunities

The Saudi forces did not attempt to take advantage of the mistakes and defeats suffered by their opponents. Among these opportunities were the following:

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The Advance of Tusun Pasha into al-Qasim and the Truce with Imam Abdullah

Many historians consider Imam Abdullah's acceptance of the truce a mistake because the Egyptians were in extremely difficult circumstances and their ammunition was almost exhausted. The oppressive climate of the Najd desert had also devastated their soldiers and livestock. By making peace, Imam Abdullah allowed them to escape their predicament. Had he continued the fighting, he might have defeated them, destroyed the expedition, recovered the Hijaz and achieved a major victory that would have made it difficult for the Ottomans to confront him thereafter.

The Siege of al-Rass

Ibrahim Pasha besieged al-Rass and encountered such fierce resistance that the siege lasted nearly four months. Had Imam Abdullah attempted to cut Ibrahim Pasha's supply line from Medina to al-Rass, especially while he was camped near the area, Ibrahim Pasha could have been trapped inside Najd without supplies and his force might have been destroyed easily.

The Burning of Ibrahim Pasha's Ammunition Depot

During the siege, Ibrahim Pasha's ammunition depot caught fire. Many historians consider this a golden opportunity that Imam Abdullah failed to exploit.

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Imam Abdullah could have exhausted what remained of Ibrahim Pasha's ammunition and then launched a powerful attack that might have destroyed his army completely. It appears that Imam Abdullah's circumstances and exhaustion were responsible for his failure to exploit this opportunity.

Military Decisions

In the circumstances of his war with the Ottomans, Imam Abdullah should have adopted the optimal plan: divide his forces into several groups and distribute them along all the routes through Najd used by the invading army. These groups could continually raid the Ottoman forces and their supply caravans, harass and exhaust the enemy through unexpected attacks, and then, when circumstances were favourable, deliver a decisive blow and recover the towns that had been lost. The Saudis were the owners of the land and were fighting in climatic conditions to which they were accustomed. This would have made it difficult for Ibrahim Pasha's army to cross the Najdi desert or remain cohesive for long at Diriyah. Imam Abdullah, however, did not adopt this plan.

Some reports state that Ibrahim Pasha himself wondered why the Saudis did not follow such a strategy. When he later asked Imam Abdullah about it after capturing him, Abdullah reportedly replied that the people of Diriyah had advised him to do so but that he had left the matter to divine decree.

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Imam Abdullah also decided to confront the invading forces in large, open battles despite his father's advice not to engage in such battles. This occurred at the Battle of Bسل, whose result consolidated Muhammad Ali's authority in the Hijaz, and at the Battle of Mawiyah, which ended in a decisive victory for Ibrahim Pasha and forced the Saudis to withdraw into fortified towns, leaving Ibrahim Pasha's route into Najd open.

Another military decision taken by Imam Abdullah was to adopt a strategy of fortifying towns, although much historical evidence indicates that a besieged town is effectively an occupied town. Imam Abdullah appears to have expected that Ibrahim Pasha's siege of each Najdi town would exhaust his strength and weaken his determination to reach Diriyah. He misjudged the situation, however, because Ibrahim Pasha's supply routes remained well connected to Egypt, and the assistance he received from the Bedouin gave him greater ability to remain strong inside Najd without fear. He could therefore continue attacking Najdi towns one after another and reach Diriyah with a much larger force than Imam Abdullah had expected.

A number of Western military experts believe that Imam Abdullah should have fled Diriyah even before Ibrahim Pasha besieged it. This was not merely the opinion of Western experts: Sheikh Abd al-Rahman ibn Hasan states in al-Maqamat that Sheikh Mubarak al-Zahiri advised Imam Abdullah to flee.

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Sheikh Mubarak advised him to go to the camel-raising tribes of Qahtan and seek their protection. Sheikh Abd al-Rahman stated that, had fate assisted him, his enemy would not have captured him and this would have been the safer course, but God had not decreed it. Imam Abdullah appears to have regarded fleeing from Diriyah as dishonourable, and courage therefore prevailed in his mind so that he did not take this decision.

The Length of the Siege

Although the six-month siege of Diriyah demonstrated the strength and resilience with which the Saudi forces confronted the invading Ottoman-Egyptian army, which had the military resources to end the war sooner, the prolonged siege ultimately had the opposite effect. It became an important factor in the fall of Diriyah because despair began to affect some Saudis and their leaders as a result of the deteriorating conditions in Diriyah, rising prices, the defenders' distress and exhaustion.

An anecdote is also related concerning an opportunity Imam Abdullah had to escape while being transported from Najd to Egypt. Abdullah ibn Khamis recounts that when Imam Abdullah and his guards reached an area surrounded by high mountains, one of Abdullah's companions, a storyteller named Wunyan, began talking about prisoners who escaped when their guards were distracted. When they emerged from the mountains, Imam Abdullah realized what Wunyan had been suggesting, but the opportunity had passed. He reportedly said only: "It is too late, Wunyan."

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The deterioration caused people to leave Diriyah, affecting the balance of forces because Saudi human and material resources were continually declining while Ibrahim Pasha's strength and resources were increasing.

The Defection of Tribes to the Ottoman-Egyptian Army

This may have resulted from tribal tendencies. Many Arab tribes that had come under Saudi authority had continually sought to escape their allegiance. Saudi rule had restricted their freedom of movement and their ability to wage war as they wished, imposed the zakat upon them and required them to answer calls to war whenever necessary. The reformist Salafi teachings also had not spread among the nomadic Bedouin to the same extent as among the settled population. This tendency was not confined to the tribes of the Hijaz, al-Ahsa and Oman but also included some Najdi tribes. Muhammad Ali's forces successfully exploited this tendency from the beginning of the Egyptian campaigns, while Ibrahim Pasha's methods played a major role in attracting as many tribes as possible through threats or financial inducements and bribes.

Defeatism among Some Saudis

Some historical accounts mention, among the causes of the defeat of the Saudi forces and the fall of Diriyah, a degree of disloyalty among a very small number of weak-willed Saudis. This may have arisen from fear of Ibrahim Pasha and a desire to win his favour. The betrayal consisted in revealing the plans of the fortifications of Diriyah.

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Ibn Rashid relates that Ibrahim Pasha bribed one of those who had colluded with him in one of Diriyah's towers, giving him one hundred thousand riyals in return for enabling Ibrahim to enter through the tower, which overlooked the town and stood higher than it. By capturing this tower, Ibrahim Pasha was able to bombard the town with artillery.

In any event, Ibrahim Pasha made effective use of the information that reached him. As we have seen, after the betrayal became apparent he launched a general assault on Diriyah and concentrated on weak points in its fortifications, thereby achieving victory.

Although the First Saudi State had reached a high level of wealth and prosperity, especially during the reign of Imam Saud, it could not compare with the resources of the Ottoman Empire. As defeats accumulated and the Saudi State lost the Hijaz, Asir and other territories, and many tribes left its allegiance, its resources declined considerably. This left the army of Diriyah poorly equipped and small in number. Money was the sinew of war: it enabled a state to equip its army with provisions and ammunition and attract large numbers of fighters.

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Psychological and Religious Explanations

A. Psychological factors affecting Imam Abdullah and his followers

There is no doubt that successive defeats weakened their courage against their enemy and increased the pressure upon them. They also discouraged them from exploiting many opportunities available to them. Success leads to success, while defeats weaken morale.

B. A number of Najdi historians explain the defeat of the First Saudi State and the fall of Diriyah as resulting from the spread of sins and wrongdoing in Najd and from people's immersion in pleasures following the prosperity produced by the expansion and wealth of the state.

Results of the Fall of Diriyah

The fall of Diriyah amounted to the announcement of the end of the First Saudi State, which had united most of the Arabian Peninsula under a single Islamic state. The fall therefore produced numerous political, social, economic and religious consequences. The author does not undertake to analyse all of them here and instead gives a brief enumeration of the principal results.

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Political Results

The fall of Diriyah and collapse of the First Saudi State was an important event among the major events of the first third of the thirteenth century AH and the nineteenth century AD. Its political consequences extended beyond the region and had far-reaching effects both within and outside the Arabian Peninsula.

A. Within the Arabian Peninsula

1. Ottoman rule reappeared in Arabia, particularly in the Hijaz, which came under the direct rule of Muhammad Ali in the name of the Ottoman State. An imperial decree appointed Ibrahim Pasha to Jeddah, and the Sharifs came to be appointed through Egypt.

2. The rule of Bani Khalid returned to al-Ahsa under Majid ibn 'Ar'ir. After the fall of Diriyah, Ibrahim Pasha sent a military detachment to al-Ahsa under Muhammad Kashif, who confiscated everything in the Saudi treasury there and killed some scholars and religious guides. He then left, appointing Majid ibn 'Ar'ir as ruler. Bani Khalid continued to rule al-Ahsa until Turki ibn Abdullah recovered it in 1248 AH (1827 AD; the OCR gives 1874m).

3. Najd became subordinate to the Ottoman Egyptian province for approximately twenty-three years. During this period Muhammad Ali's forces sometimes occupied Najd and at other times confined themselves to collecting taxes.

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This situation continued until conditions stabilized under Imam Faisal ibn Turki during his second reign.

The fall of Diriyah struck at the political unity of Najd, and fragmentation and separation appeared throughout the country. Some independent emirates arose and some families that had lost their authority and influence under Saudi rule returned to power. The Al Zamil family returned to rule al-Kharj; the Al Mubarak family returned to the emirate of Huraymila; and in Buraydah the Al 'Alyan family held authority. Riyadh's ruler under the Ottomans was Nasir al-'A'idhi.

Ibrahim Pasha's rapid withdrawal from Najd nine months after the fall of Diriyah, without establishing an effective administrative system, contributed to the political deterioration that affected Najd until the establishment of the Second Saudi State by Imam Turki ibn Abdullah.

B. The Arabian Gulf

Because of the strength of the Qawasim, Britain launched a major campaign against them at Ras al-Khaimah in Muharram 1230 AH (October 1814). It also bound the Imam of Muscat and the ruler of Bahrain by treaty, and this treaty later became the basis for imposing British colonial control over their territories.

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Muhammad Ali attempted to occupy the Omani coast and the islands of Bahrain, competing with Britain for influence in the Gulf, under his commander Khurshid Pasha. Britain strongly opposed this and instructed its consul in Alexandria to inform Muhammad Ali that Britain would intervene by force if his troops attempted to invade these areas. This was an early indication of the Treaty of London, by which the European powers later compelled Muhammad Ali to restrict his rule to Egypt and withdraw his forces from the other countries he had occupied.

C. The Ottoman Empire and Egypt

Muhammad Ali Pasha achieved major gains during this war, the most important being:

1. His influence and standing in the Islamic world increased after the Two Holy Sanctuaries were returned to Ottoman control and Diriyah was brought down.
2. He consolidated his rule over Egypt. The Ottoman Sultan no longer dared attempt to remove him or transfer him from the governorship of Egypt, and the imperial decrees appointing him were renewed automatically.
3. Muhammad Ali began to pursue ambitions of establishing an empire of his own. He therefore looked toward taking control of the entire Arabian Peninsula. In pursuit of these ambitions, his son Ibrahim Pasha asked the Sublime Porte for permission to seize al-Ahsa after completing the conquest of Diriyah.

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The Sublime Porte replied that there was no need to march to al-Ahsa and that, after organizing Diriyah administratively, Ibrahim should return directly to Medina.

Muhammad Ali's ambitions for expansion subsequently increased, extending toward Sudan and Syria. Had the European powers not opposed him under the Treaty of London, he might have achieved his ambitions, but they subsequently restricted his rule to Egypt alone.

Economic Results

The event had extremely serious economic consequences throughout Najd, particularly in the areas through which the campaign passed. The expedition looted and destroyed the economic property of those areas, including farms, houses and palaces.

The number of palm trees cut down by Ibrahim Pasha was estimated at 50,000 in al-Rass, 80,000 in Diriyah and approximately the same number in other Najdi towns. This had a major impact on the destruction of agriculture.

Trade was also badly affected, especially as Ibrahim Pasha imposed heavy taxes on the population. Security disappeared, making travel between towns dangerous, and a major famine occurred among the population after the economy of the country collapsed in this way.

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Religious Results

Ibrahim Pasha killed a number of scholars and treated some of them harshly, causing many scholars to flee outside Najd.

Forbidden practices and wrongdoing spread among the people. Although Ibn Bishr exaggerated some aspects of his description, some of what he reported was true, particularly with regard to enjoining right and forbidding wrong: because of fear of the invading forces, people avoided speaking about matters connected with the religious movement.

Social Results

Many Najdi towns were destroyed, especially those entered by the invading army and those that resisted it, including al-Rass, Unayzah, Shaqra and Dhruma, and especially Diriyah.

Large numbers of Saudis were killed, particularly in Diriyah during the siege; one account gives a figure of 10,000 in Diriyah alone.

Diriyah was emptied of its inhabitants, who dispersed throughout the country.

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4. Many members of the Al Saud and Al al-Shaykh families were transported and deported to Egypt. Ottoman documents estimated their number at approximately 800 people, including men, women and children, while al-Jabarti gives a figure of about 400.

5. Some undesirable social customs were introduced into Najd by the soldiers, including corruption, bribery and destruction.

The expedition also brought diseases associated with the soldiers that had not previously been known in Najd.

The campaign deprived some inhabitants of their freedom and turned them into slaves, who were bought and sold in slave markets.

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[No substantive text is present in the OCR for this page.]

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CONCLUSION

The book reaches several principal conclusions.

The failure of the Ottoman Empire's earlier campaigns against the First Saudi State, conducted through its governors in Syria and Baghdad, was a principal reason why it turned to its powerful governor in Egypt, Muhammad Ali Pasha. Muhammad Ali welcomed the assignment because it served many of his own objectives and ambitions. He sent successive campaigns to destroy the Saudi State, the last being Ibrahim Pasha's expedition, which he prepared carefully to achieve its objective of reaching and overthrowing Diriyah.

He therefore sought to avoid the mistakes of the past by choosing a wise and strong commander capable of dealing properly with developments, reinforcing the army with all the necessary expertise, including European engineers, officers and doctors, supporting it with the modern regular army that had been established in Egypt during this period, and equipping it with modern weapons that the Saudis found difficult to confront or use effectively.

These efforts produced the desired results, as we have seen. They were reinforced by Ibrahim Pasha's policy toward the Bedouin tribes of the Hijaz and Najd, which demonstrated considerable skill in winning this important force to his side. By doing so, he secured his lines of communication and deprived the Saudis of an important element of their strength. This made it easier for Ibrahim Pasha to penetrate Najd despite the fierce resistance he encountered in some of the Najdi towns.

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The Najdi towns through which the expedition passed adopted differing positions: some resisted the campaign fiercely, while others went with the prevailing power in order to avoid the devastation of a war with Ibrahim Pasha that they could not hope to withstand.

Al-Rass took a strong position in the war. It resisted Ibrahim Pasha for approximately four months, forcing him to conclude an honourable peace with the town. Shaqra likewise benefited from a settlement granting security despite the short duration of its siege. Dhurma, however, which also resisted, did not receive similar treatment; Ibrahim Pasha ultimately destroyed it and displaced its inhabitants.

The expedition took approximately a year and a half from its departure from Egypt until it reached the outskirts of Diriyah. During this period Ibrahim Pasha subdued all the towns and tribes along the route from Medina to Diriyah so that he could enter the war at Diriyah confident that his lines of communication and supply were secure. He understood that otherwise he might become isolated in the middle of the Najd desert and be easily destroyed. This was one of the principal reasons for his success in overthrowing Diriyah.

Diriyah had been attacked several times before Ibrahim Pasha's siege, but these attempts achieved little because the attackers had failed to take adequate account of the strength of Diriyah's fortifications and defenders. Ibrahim Pasha, by contrast, planned the siege carefully and prepared an enormous force to carry it out. The inhabitants of Diriyah had also made extensive preparations for the confrontation, including fortification, armament, provisioning and organization. The book has demonstrated the scale of these preparations.

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The fortifications had a major effect in prolonging the siege, which lasted six months. During the siege, many battles took place in Diriyah, demonstrating the scale of the attacking and defending forces involved in the war.

A review of the stages by which Ibrahim Pasha took Diriyah shows that the term "siege" is not entirely accurate. Ibrahim Pasha did not completely surround Diriyah. Rather, he besieged sections of the elongated town, encircled each section in order to seize it, and then moved on to another section. Diriyah therefore did not fall all at once. In reality, it was Imam Abdullah and the defenders who confined themselves inside Diriyah and failed to exploit the fact that the siege was incomplete.

Several factors governed the military strategy of the fighting. The most important was the geographical character of Diriyah and its urban extent. Diriyah was not situated on level ground that could easily be surrounded. Instead, valleys and ravines extended on both sides of Wadi Hanifah, with buildings and farms situated among them or on the overlooking heights. This divided the neighbourhoods geographically and isolated one from another, making it difficult to penetrate the town and prolonging the siege. On the other hand, the ravines were difficult to fortify with walls and therefore provided easy routes for Ibrahim Pasha's soldiers, particularly when defending forces were absent.

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Diriyah was not surrounded on every side. Its southern side remained unbesieged, helping Diriyah maintain its resistance for a long period because supplies could reach it from its dependent territories through these open routes. To close these gaps in the siege, Ibrahim Pasha attacked several Najdi towns south of Diriyah and succeeded in obtaining the allegiance of some towns. In this way he sought to compensate for the incomplete encirclement, partly because of his shortage of soldiers and partly while awaiting reinforcements. In the end, he did not need the new troops approaching under Khalil Pasha and instead sent them to Tihamah.

The expedition suffered several setbacks during the siege, including a serious defeat at al-Sulmani. Had the Saudi forces pursued Ibrahim Pasha's defeated troops, it could have been disastrous for the expedition, but the Saudis stopped their attack and did not attempt to recover the territory they had lost.

The expedition also suffered a serious incident when its ammunition depot caught fire during the siege. This was perhaps the greatest opportunity available to the Saudis, but Imam Abdullah ibn Saud did not exploit it effectively. Ibrahim Pasha also faced mutinies among his soldiers more than once, and the Saudis could have taken advantage of these situations to achieve a decisive victory over his forces.

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The length of the siege also affected the social and economic conditions of Diriyah and its inhabitants. Morale declined, causing large numbers of inhabitants to leave before the fall, which weakened the internal front and the military resistance to the siege. This in turn contributed to the failure of the inhabitants to resist the major assault launched by Ibrahim Pasha at the end of the siege, resulting in the complete fall of Diriyah.

In reality, the fall of Diriyah was not accomplished by Ibrahim Pasha alone. The governors of the Ottoman State, particularly those in Baghdad, Syria and the Hijaz, contributed to the siege in one way or another. The positions taken by neighbouring powers also had a significant effect, whether by providing assistance and facilities to the expedition, by encouraging and supporting it, or by withholding assistance from the Saudis.

It is therefore clear that the factors leading to the fall of Diriyah were numerous and cannot easily be reduced to a single cause. They centred on several principal dimensions—political, military, economic and psychological—which combined to bring about the fall of Diriyah and the collapse of the First Saudi State. This produced serious political, economic and social consequences in the region and had a major impact and international resonance, demonstrating the magnitude and historical importance of the event.

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This section is the general index of names and places. The OCR is heavily degraded, so page references are reproduced only where they are legible.

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The following pages are a catalogue of publications of the King Abdulaziz Foundation. The OCR is degraded in places; titles are translated where they can be read with reasonable confidence.

Indexes of Kitab ‘Unwan al-Majd fi Tarikh Najd (Title of Glory in the History of Najd), by Ahmad Mursi Abbas.

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